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Lesson 22

PROBABILITY AND NON-PROBABILITY SAMPLING

There are several alternative ways of taking a sample. The major alternative sampling plans may be grouped into probability techniques and non-probability techniques. In **probability sampling** every element in the population has a *known nonzero probability* of selection. The simple random is the best known probability sample, in which each member of the population has an equal probability of being selected. Probability sampling designs are used when the representativeness of the sample is of importance in the interest of wider generalizability. When time or other factors, rather than generalizability, become critical, non-probability sampling is generally used.

In non-probability sampling the probability of any particular element of the population being chosen is unknown. The selection of units in non-probability sampling is quite arbitrary, as researchers rely heavily on personal judgment. It should be noted that there are no appropriate statistical techniques for measuring random sampling error from a non-probability sample. Thus projecting the data beyond the sample is statistically inappropriate. Nevertheless, there are occasions when non-probability samples are best suited for the researcher‟s purpose.

Types of non-probability sampling:

In non-probability sampling designs, the elements in the population do not have any probabilities attached to their being chosen as sample subjects. This means that the findings from the study of the sample cannot be confidently generalized to the population. However the researchers may at times be less concerned about generalizability than obtaining some preliminary information in a quick and inexpensive way. Sometimes non-probability could be the only way to collect the data.

Convenience Sampling

Convenience sampling (also called *haphazard or accidental sampling*) refers to sampling by obtaining units or people who are most conveniently available. For example, it may be convenient and economical to sample employees in companies in a nearby area, sample from a pool of friends and neighbors. The person-on-the street interview conducted by TV programs is another example. TV interviewers go on the street with camera and microphone to talk to few people who are convenient to interview. The people walking past a TV studio in the middle of the day do not represent everyone (homemakers, people in the rural areas). Likewise, TV interviewers select people who look “normal” to them and avoid people who are unattractive, poor, very old, or inarticulate.

Another example of haphazard sample is that of a newspaper that asks the readers to clip a questionnaire from the paper and mail it in. Not everyone reads the newspaper, has an interest in the topic, or will take the time to cut out the questionnaire, and mail it. Some will, and the number who does so may seem large, but the sample cannot be used to generalize accurately to the population.

Convenience samples are least reliable but normally the cheapest and easiest to conduct. Convenience sampling is most often used during the exploratory phase of a research project and is perhaps the best way of getting some basic information quickly and efficiently. Often such sample is taken to test ideas or even to gain ideas about a subject of interest.

Purposive Sampling

Depending upon the type of topic, the researcher lays down the criteria for the subjects to be included in the sample. Whoever meets that criteria could be selected in the sample? The researcher might select such cases or might provide the criteria to somebody else and leave it to his/her judgment for the actual selection of the subjects. That is why such a sample is also called as **judgmental or expert opinion sample.** For example a researcher is interested in studying students who are enrolled in a course on research methods, are highly regular, are frequent participants in the class discussions, and

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often come with new ideas. The criteria has been laid down, the researcher may do this job himself/herself, or may ask the teacher of this class to select the students by using the said criteria. In the latter situation we are leaving it to the judgment of the teacher to select the subjects. Similarly we can give some criteria to the fieldworkers and leave it to their judgment to select the subjects accordingly. In a study of working women the researcher may lay down the criteria like: the lady is married, has two children, one of her child is school going age, and is living in nuclear family.

Quota Sampling

A sampling procedure that ensures that certain characteristics of a population sample will be represented to the exact extent that the researcher desires. In this case the researcher first identifies relevant categories of people (e.g. male and female; or under age 30, ages 30 to 60, over 60, etc.) then decides how many to get in each category. Thus the number of people in various categories of sample is fixed. For example the researcher decides to select 5 males and 5 females under age 30, 10 males and 10 females aged 30 to 60, and 5 males and 5 females over age 60 for a 40 person sample. This is quota sampling.

Once the quota has been fixed then the researcher may use convenience sampling. The convenience sampling may introduce **bias**. For example, the field worker might select the individual according to his/her liking, who can easily be contacted, willing to be interviewed, and belong to middle class.

Quota sampling can be considered as a form of proportionate stratified sampling, in which a predetermined proportion of people are sampled from different groups, but on a convenience basis.

Speed of data collection, lower costs, and convenience are the major advantages of quota sampling compared to probability sampling. Quota sampling becomes necessary when a subset of a population is underrepresented, and may not get any representation if equal opportunity is provided to each. Although there are many problems with quota sampling, careful supervision of the data collection may provide a representative sample of the various subgroups within the population.

Snowball Sampling

Snowball sampling (also called *network, chain referral, or reputational sampling*) is a method for identifying and sampling (or selecting) cases in the network. It is based on an analogy to a snowball, which begins small but becomes larger as it is rolled on wet snow and picks up additional snow. It begins with one or a few people or cases and spreads out on the basis of links to the initial cases.

This design has been found quite useful where respondents are difficult to identify and are best located through referral networks. In the initial stage of snowball sampling, individuals are discovered and may or may not be selected through probability methods. This group is then used to locate others who possess similar characteristics and who, in turn, identify others. The “snowball” gather subjects as it rolls along.

For example, a researcher examines friendship networks among teenagers in a community. He or she begins with three teenagers who do not know each other. Each teen names four close friends. The researcher then goes to the four friends and asks each to name four close friends, then goes to those four and does the same thing again, and so forth. Before long, a large number of people are involved. Each person in the sample is directly or indirectly tied to the original teenagers, and several people may have named the same person. The researcher eventually stops, either because no new names are given, indicating a closed network, or because the network is so large that it is at the limit of what he or she can study.

Sequential Sampling

Sequential sampling is similar to purposive sampling with one difference. In purposive sampling, the researcher tries to find as many relevant cases as possible, until time, financial resources, or his or her energy is exhausted. The principle is to get every possible case. In sequential sampling, a researcher

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continues to gather cases until the amount of new information or diversity is filled. The principle is to gather cases until a saturation point is reached. In economic terms, information is gathered, or the incremental benefit for additional cases, levels off or drops significantly. It requires that the researcher continuously evaluates all the collected cases. For example, a researcher locates and plans in-depth interviews with 60 widows over 70 years old who have been living without a spouse for 10 or more years. Depending on the researcher‟s purposes, getting an additional 20 widows whose life experiences, social background, and worldview differ little from the first 60 may be unnecessary.

Theoretical Sampling

In theoretical sampling, what the researcher is sampling (e.g. people, situation, events, time periods, etc.) is carefully selected, as the researcher develops grounded theory. A growing theoretical interest guides the selection of sample cases. The researcher selects cases based on new insights they may provide.

For example, a field researcher may be observing a site and a group of people during week days. Theoretically, the researcher may question whether the people act the same at other times or when other aspects of site change. He or she could then sample other time periods (e.g. nights and weekends) to get more full picture and learn whether important conditions are the same.

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Lesson 23

TYPES OF PROBABILITY SAMPLING

Probability samples that rely on random processes require more work than nonrandom ones. A researcher must identify specific sampling elements (e.g. persons) to include in the sample. For example, if conducting a telephone survey, the researcher needs to try to reach the specific sampled person, by calling back several times, to get an accurate sample.

Random samples are most likely to yield a sample that truly represents the population. In addition, random sampling lets a researcher statistically calculate the relationship between the sample and the population – that is the size of *sampling error*. A non-statistical definition of the sampling error is the deviation between sample result and a population parameter due to random process.

Simple Random Sample

The simple random sample is both the easiest random sample to understand and the one on which other types are modeled. In simple random sampling, a research develops an accurate sampling frame, selects elements from sampling frame according to mathematically random procedure, then locates the exact element that was selected for inclusion in the sample.

After numbering all elements in a sampling frame, the researcher uses a list of random numbers to decide which elements to select. He or she needs as many random numbers as there are elements to be sampled: for example, for a sample of 100, 100 random numbers are needed. The researcher can get random numbers from a random number table, a table of numbers chosen in a mathematically random way. Random-number tables are available in most statistics and research methods books. The numbers are generated by a pure random process so that any number has an equal probability of appearing in any position. Computer programs can also produce lists of random number.

A random starting point should be selected at the outset.

Random sampling does not guarantee that every random sample perfectly represents the population. Instead, it means that most random samples will be close to the population most of the time, and that one can calculate the probability of a particular sample being inaccurate. A researcher estimates the chance that a particular sample is off or unrepresentative by using information from the sample to estimate the sampling distribution. The sampling distribution is the key idea that lets a researcher calculate sampling error and confidence interval.

Systematic Random Sample

Systematic random sampling is simple random sampling with a short cut for random selection. Again, the first step is to number each element in the sampling frame. Instead of using a list of random numbers, researcher calculates a *sampling interval*, and the interval becomes his or her own quasi random selection method. The sampling interval (i.e. 1 in *K where K is some number)* tells the researcher how to select elements from a sampling frame by skipping elements in the frame before one for the sample.

Sampling intervals are easy to compute. We need the sample size and the population size. You can think of the sample interval as the inverse of the sampling ratio. The sampling ratio for 300 names out of 900 will be 300/900 = .333 = 33.3 percent. The sampling interval is 900/300 = 3

Begin with a random start. The easiest way to do this is to point blindly at a number from those from the beginning that are likely to be part of the sampling interval.
When the elements are organized in some kind of cycle or pattern, the systematic sampling will not give a representative sample.

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Stratified Random Sample

When the population is heterogeneous, the use of simple random sample may not produce representative sample. Some of the bigger strata may get over representation while some of the small ones may entirely be eliminated. Look at the variables that are likely to affect the results, and stratify the population in such a way that each stratum becomes homogeneous group within itself. Then draw the required sample by using the table of random numbers. Hence in stratified random sampling a sub-sample is drawn utilizing simple random sampling within each stratum. (Randomization is not done for quota sampling).

There are three reasons why a researcher chooses a stratified random sample: (1) to increase a sample's statistical efficiency, (2) to provide adequate data for analyzing the various subpopulations, and (3) to enable different research methods and procedures to be used in different strata.

1. Stratification is usually more efficient statistically than simple random sampling and at worst it is equal to it. With the ideal stratification, each stratum is homogeneous internally and heterogeneous with other strata. This might occur in a sample that includes members of several distinct ethnic groups. In this instance, stratification makes a pronounced improvement in statistical efficiency.

   Stratified random sampling provides the assurance that the sample will accurately reflect the population on the basis of criterion or criteria used for stratification. This is a concern because occasionally simple random sampling yields a disproportionate number of one group or another, and the sample ends up being less representative than it could be.
   Random sampling error will be reduced with the use of stratified random sampling Because each group is internally homogeneous but there are comparative differences Between groups. More technically, a smaller standard error may result from stratified Sampling because the groups are adequately represented when strata are combined.

2. It is possible when the researcher wants to study the characteristics of a certain population subgroups. Thus, if one wishes to draw some conclusions about activities in different classes of student body, stratified sampling would be used.
3. Stratified sampling is also called for when different methods of data collection are applied in different parts of the population. This might occur when we survey company employees at the home office with one method but mist use a different approach with employees scattered over the country.

Stratification Process

The ideal stratification would be based on the primary variable (the dependent variable) under study. The criterion is identified as an efficient basis for stratification. The criterion for stratification is that it is a characteristic of the population elements known to be related to the dependent variable or other variables of interest. The variable chosen should increase homogeneity within each stratum and increase heterogeneity between strata.
Next, for each separate subgroup or stratum, a list of population elements must be obtained. Serially number the elements within each stratum. Using a table of random numbers or some other device, a separate simple random sample is taken within each stratum. Of course, the researcher must determine how large a sample must be drawn from each stratum

Proportionate versus Disproportionate

If the number of sampling units drawn from each stratum is in proportion to the relative population size of the stratum, the sample is proportionate stratified sampling. Sometime, however, a disproportionate stratified sample will be selected to ensure an adequate number of sampling units in every stratum

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In a disproportionate, sample size for each stratum is not allocated in proportion to the population size, but is dictated by analytical considerations.

Cluster Sampling

The purpose of cluster sampling is to sample economically while retaining the characteristics of a probability sample. Groups or chunks of elements that, ideally, would have heterogeneity among the members within each group are chosen for study in cluster sampling. This is in contrast to choosing some elements from the population as in simple random sampling, or stratifying and then choosing members from the strata, or choosing every nth case in the population in systematic sampling. When several groups with intra-group heterogeneity and inter-group homogeneity are found, then a random sampling of the clusters or groups can ideally be done and information gathered from each of the members in the randomly chosen clusters.

Cluster samples offer more heterogeneity within groups and more homogeneity among and homogeneity within each group and heterogeneity across groups.

Cluster sampling addresses two problems: researchers lack a good sampling frame for a dispersed population and the cost to reach a sampled element is very high. A cluster is unit that contains final sampling elements but can be treated temporarily as a sampling element itself. Researcher first samples clusters, each of which contains elements, then draws a second a second sample from within the clusters selected in the first stage of sampling. In other words, the researcher randomly samples clusters, and then randomly samples elements from within the selected clusters. He or she can create a good sampling frame of clusters, even if it is impossible to create one for sampling elements. Once the researcher gets a sample of clusters, creating a sampling frame for elements within each cluster becomes more manageable. A second advantage for geographically dispersed populations is that elements within each cluster are physically closer to each other. This may produce a savings in locating or reaching each element.

A researcher draws several samples in stages in cluster sampling. In a three-stage sample, stage 1 is random sampling of big clusters; stage 2 is random sampling of small clusters within each selected big cluster; and the last stage is sampling of elements from within the sampled within the sampled small clusters. First, one randomly samples the city blocks, then households within blocks, then individuals within households. This can also be an example of **multistage area sampling.**
The unit costs of cluster sampling are much lower than those of other probability sampling designs. However, cluster sampling exposes itself to greater biases at each stage of sampling.

Double Sampling

This plan is adopted when further information is needed from a subset of the group from which some information has already been collected for the same study. A sampling design where initially a sample is used in a study to collect some preliminary information of interest, and later a sub-sample of this primary sample is used to examine the matter in more detail, is called double sampling.

What is the Appropriate Sample Design?

A researcher who must make a decision concerning the most appropriate sample design for a specific project will identify a number of sampling criteria and evaluate the relative importance of each criterion before selecting a sample design. The most common criteria

Degree of Accuracy

Selecting a representative sample is, of course, important to all researchers. However, the error may vary from project to project, especially when cost saving or another benefit may be a trade-off for

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reduction in accuracy.

Resources

The costs associated with the different sampling techniques vary tremendously. If the researcher's financial and human resources are restricted, this limitation of resources will eliminate certain methods. For a graduate student working on a master's thesis, conducting a national survey is almost always out of the question because of limited resources. Managers usually weigh the cost of research versus the value of information often will opt to save money by using non-probability sampling design rather than make the decision to conduct no research at all.

Advance Knowledge of the Population

Advance knowledge of population characteristics, such as the availability of lists of population members, is an important criterion. A lack of adequate list may automatically rule out any type of probability sampling.

National versus Local Project

Geographic proximity of population elements will influence sample design. When population elements are unequally distributed geographically, a cluster sampling may become more attractive.

Need for Statistical Analysis

The need for statistical projections based on the sample is often a criterion. Non-probability sampling techniques do not allow researcher to use statistical analysis to project the data beyond the sample.

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Lesson 24

DATA ANALYSIS

Once the data begins to flow in, attention turns to data analysis. If the project has been done correctly, the analysis planning is already done. Back at the research design stage or at least by the completion of the proposal or the pilot test, decisions should have been made about how to analyze the data.

During the analysis stage, several interrelated procedures are performed to summarize and rearrange the data. The goal of most research is to provide information. There is a difference between raw data and information.

Information refers to a body of facts that are in a format suitable for decision making, whereas **data** are simply recorded measures of certain phenomenon. The raw data collected in the field must be transformed into information that will answer the sponsor's (e.g. manager's) questions. The conversion of raw data into information requires that the data be edited and coded so that the data may be transferred to a computer or other data storage medium.

If the database is large, there are many advantages to utilizing a computer. Assuming a large database, entering the data into computer follows the coding procedure.

Editing

Occasionally, a fieldworker makes a mistake and records an improbable answer (e.g., birth year: 1843) or interviews an ineligible respondent (e.g., someone too young to qualify). Seemingly contradictory answers, such as "no" to automobile ownership but "yes" to an expenditure on automobile insurance, may appear on a questionnaire. There are many problems like these that must be dealt with before the data can be coded. Editing procedures are conducted to make the data ready for coding and transfer to data storage.

Editing is the process of checking and adjusting the data for omissions, legibility, and consistency. Editing may be differentiated from coding, which is the assignment of numerical scales or classifying symbols to previously edited data.

The purpose of editing is to ensure the completeness, consistency, and readability of the data to be transferred to data storage. The editor's task is to check for errors and omissions on the questionnaires or other data collection forms.

The editor may have to reconstruct some data. For instance, a respondent may indicate weekly income rather than monthly income, as requested on the questionnaire. The editor must convert the information to monthly data without adding any extraneous information. The editor "should bring to light all hidden values and extract all possible information from a questionnaire, while adding nothing extraneous."

Field Editing

In large projects, field supervisors are often responsible for conducting preliminary field edits. The purpose of field editing the same day as the interview is to catch technical omissions (such as a blank page), check legibility of the handwriting, and clarify responses that are logically or conceptually inconsistent. If a daily field editing is conducted, a supervisor who edits completed questionnaires will frequently be able to question the interviewers, who may be able to recall the interview well enough to correct any problems. The number of "no answers," or incomplete answers can be reduced with a rapid follow-up simulated by a field edit. The daily edit also allows fieldworkers to re-contact the respondent to fill in omissions before the situation has changed. The field edit may also indicate the need for further training of interviewers.

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In-House Editing:

Although almost simultaneous editing in the field is highly desirable, in many situations (particularly with mail questionnaires), early reviewing of the data is not possible. In-house editing rigorously investigates the results of data collection.

Editing for Consistency:
The in-house editor's task is to ensure that inconsistent or contradictory responses are adjusted and that answers will not be a problem for coders and keyboard punchers. Consider the situation in which a telephone interviewer has been instructed to interview only registered voters that requires voters to be 18 years old. If the editor's reviews of a questionnaire indicate that the respondent was only 17 years of age, the editor's task is to eliminate this obviously incorrect sampling unit. Thus, in this example, the editor's job is to make sure that the sampling unit is consistent with the objectives of the study. Editing requires checking for logically consistent responses. The in-house editor must determine if the answers given by a respondent to one question are consistent with those given to other, related questions. Many surveys utilize filter questions or skip questions that direct the sequence of questions, depending upon respondent's answer. In some cases, the respondent will have answered a sequence of questions that should not have been asked. The editor should adjust these answers, usually to "no answer' or "inapplicable," so that the responses will be consistent.

Editing for Completeness: In some cases, the respondent may have answered only the second portion of a two-part question. An in-house editor may have to adjust the answers to the following question for completeness.

Does your organization have more than one Internet Web site? Yes_____No. _____

If a respondent checked neither "yes" nor "No", but indicated three Internet Web sites, the editor may check the "yes" to ensure that this answer is not missing from the questionnaire.

Item Non-response: It is a technical term for an unanswered question on an otherwise complete questionnaire. Specific decision rules for handling this problem should be meticulously outlined in the editorial instructions. In many situations, the decision rule will be to do nothing with the unanswered question: the editor merely indicates in item non-response by writing a message instructing the coder to record a "missing value" or blank as the response. However, in case the response is necessary then the editor uses the **plug value.** The decision rule may to "plug in" an average or neutral value in each case of missing data. A blank response in an interval scale item with a mid-point would be to assign the mid-point in the scale as the response to that particular item. Another way is to assign to the item the mean value of the responses of all those who have responded to that particular item. Another choice is to give the item the mean of the responses of this particular respondent to all other questions measuring the variables. Another decision rule may be to alternate the choice of the response categories used as plug values (e.g. "yes" the first time, "no" the second time, "yes" the third time, and so on).

The editor must also decide whether or not an entire questionnaire is "usable." When a questionnaire has too many (say 25%) answers missing, it may not be suitable for the planned data analysis. In such a situation, the editor simply records the fact that a particular incomplete questionnaire has been dropped from the sample.

Editing Questions Answered out of Order: Another situation an editor may face is the need to rearrange the answers to an open-ended response to a question. For example, a respondent may have provided the answer to a subsequent question in his answer to an earlier open-ended response question. Because the respondent had already clearly identified his answer, the interviewer may have avoided asking the subsequent question. The interviewer may have wanted to avoid hearing "I have already answered that earlier" and to maintain rapport with the respondent and therefore skipped the question. To make the response appear in the same order as on other questionnaires, the editor may remove the out-of-order answer to the section related to the skipped question.

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Coding

Coding involves assigning numbers or other symbols to answers so the responses can be grouped into limited number of classes or categories. The classifying of data into limited categories sacrifices some data detail but is necessary for efficient analysis. Nevertheless, it is recommended that try to keep the data in raw form so far it is possible. When the data have been entered into the computer you can always ask the computer to group and regroup the categories. In case the data have been entered in the compute in grouped form, it will not be possible to disaggregate it.

Although codes are generally considered to be numerical symbols, they are more broadly defined as the rules for interpreting, classifying, and recording data. Codes allow data to be processed in a computer. Researchers organize data into fields, records, and files. A **field** is a collection of characters (a character is a single number, letter of the alphabet, or special symbol such as the question mark) that represent a single type of data. A **record** is collection of related fields. A **file** is a collection of related records. File, records, and fields are stored on magnetic tapes, floppy disks, or hard drives.

Researchers use a coding procedure and codebook. A **coding procedure** is a set of rules stating that certain numbers are assigned to variable attributes. For example, a researcher codes males as 1 and females as 2. Each category of variable and missing information needs a code. A **codebook** is a document (i.e. one or more pages) describing the coding procedure and the location of data for variables in a format that computers can use.

When you code data, it is very important to create a well-organized, detailed codebook and make multiple copies of it. If you do not write down the details of the coding procedure, or if you misplace the codebook, you have lost the key to the data and may have to recode the data again.

Researchers begin thinking about a coding procedure and a codebook before they collect data. For example, a survey researcher pre-codes a questionnaire before collecting the data. Pre-coding means placing the code categories (e.g. 1 for male, 2 for female) on the questionnaire. Sometimes to reduce dependence on codebooks, researchers also place the location in the computer format on the questionnaire.

If the researcher does not pre-code, his or her first step after collecting and editing of data is to create a codebook. He or she also gives each case an identification number to keep track of the cases. Next, the researcher transfers the information from each questionnaire into a format that computers can read.

Code Construction

When the question has a fixed-alternative (closed ended) format, the number of categories requiring codes is determined during the questionnaire design stage. The codes 8 and 9 are conventionally given to “don’t know” (DK) and “no answer” (NA) respectively. However, many computer program fields recognize a blank field or a certain character symbol, such as a period (.), as indicating a missing value (no answer).

There are two basic rules for code construction. First, the coding categories should be ***exhaustive*** – that is, coding categories should be provided for all subjects or objects or responses. With a categorical variable, such as sex, making categories exhaustive is not a problem. However, when the response represents a small number of subjects or when the responses might be categorized in a class not typically found, there may be a problem.

Second, the coding categories should also be ***mutually exclusive*** and ***independent***. This means that there should be no overlap between the categories, to ensure that a subject or response can be placed in only one category. This frequently requires that an “other” code category be included, so that the

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categories are all inclusive and mutually exclusive. For example, managerial span of control might be coded 1, 2, 3, 4, and "5 or more." The "5 or more" category ensures everyone a place in a category.

When a questionnaire is highly structured, pre-coding of the categories typically occurs before the data are collected. In many cases, such as when researchers are using open-ended response questions, a framework for classifying responses to questions cannot be established before data collection. This situation requires some careful thought concerning the determination of categories after editing process has been completed. This is called post-coding or simply *coding*. The purpose of **coding open-ended response questions** is to reduce the large number of individual responses to a few general categories of answers that can be assigned numerical scores. Code construction in these situations necessarily must reflect the judgment of the researcher. A major objective in code-building process is to accurately transfer the meaning from written answers to numeric codes.

Code Book

A book identifying each variable in a study and its position in the data matrix. The book is used to identify a variable's description, code name, and field. Here is a sample:

Q/V No.	Field/ col. No.	Code values
--	1-5	Study number
-	6	City
		1 = Lahore
		2 = Rawalpindi
		3 = Karachi
	7 -9	Interview No.
Sex	10	1 = Male
		2 = Female
Age	11-12	Actual
Education	13	1 = Non literate
		2 = Literate

Production Coding

Transferring the data from the questionnaire or data collection form after the data have been collected is called production coding. Depending upon the nature of the data collection form, codes may be written directly on the instrument or on a special coding sheet.

Data Entries

Use of scanner sheets for data collection may facilitate the entry of the responses directly into the computer without manual keying in the data. In studies involving highly structured paper questionnaires, an **Optical scanning system** may be used to read material directly to the computer's memory into the computer's memory. Optical scanners process the marked-sensed questionnaires and store the answers in a file.

Cleaning Data

The final stage in the coding process is the error checking and verification, or **"data cleaning"** stage, which is a check to make sure that all codes are legitimate. Accuracy is extremely important when coding data. Errors made when coding or entering data into a computer threaten the validity of measures and cause misleading results. A researcher who has perfect sample, perfect measures, and no errors in gathering data, but who makes errors in the coding process or in entering data into a computer, can ruin a whole research project.

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Lesson 25

DATA TRANSFORMATION

Data transformation is the process of changing data from their original form to a format that is more suitable to perform a data analysis that will achieve the research objectives. Researchers often modify the values of a scalar data or create new variables. For example, many researchers believe that response bias will be less if interviewers ask consumers for their year of birth rather than their age, even though the objective of the data analysis is to investigate respondents' age in years. This does not present a problem for the research analyst, because a simple data transformation is possible. The raw data coded at birth year can be easily transformed to age by subtracting the birth year from the current year.

Collapsing or combining categories of a variable is a common data transformation that reduces the number of categories. For example, five categories of Likert scale response categories to a question may be combined like: the "strongly agree" and the "agree" response categories are combined. The "strongly disagree" and the "disagree" response categories are combined into a single category. The result is the collapsing of the five-category scale down to three.

Creating new variables by re-specifying the data numeric or logical transformations is another important data transformation. For example, Likert summated scale reflect the combination of scores (raw data) from various attitudinal statements. The summative score for an attitude scale with three statements is calculated as follows:

Summative Score = Variable 1 + Variable 2 + Variable 3

This calculation can be accomplished by using simple arithmetic or by programming a computer with a data transformation equation that creates the new variable "summative score."

The researchers have created numerous different scales and indexes to measure social phenomenon. For example, scales and indexes have been developed to measure the degree of formalization in bureaucratic organization, the prestige of occupations, the adjustment of people in marriage, the intensity of group interaction, the level of social activity in a community, and the level of socio-economic development of a nation.

Keep it in mind that every social phenomenon can be measured. Some constructs can be measured directly and produce precise numerical values (e.g. family income). Other constructs require the use of surrogates or proxies that indirectly measure a variable (e.g. job satisfaction). Second, a lot can be learned from measures used by other researchers. We are fortunate to have the work of thousands of researchers to draw on. It is not always necessary to start from a scratch. We can use a past scale or index, or we can modify it for our own purposes. The process of creating measures for a construct evolves over time. Measurement is an ongoing process with constant change; new concepts are developed, theoretical definitions are refined, and scales or indexes that measure old or new constructs are improved.

Indexes and Scales

Scales and indexes are often used interchangeably. One researcher's scale is another's index. Both produce ordinal- or interval- level measures of variable. To add to the confusion, scale and index techniques can be combined in one measure. Scales and indexes give a researcher more information about variables and make it possible to assess the quality of measurement. Scales and indexes increase reliability and validity, and they aid in **data reduction;** that is condense and simplify the information that is collected.

A **scale** is a measure in which the researcher captures the intensity, direction, level, or potency of a

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variable construct. It arranges responses or observation on a continuum. A scale can use single indicator or multiple indicators. Most are at the ordinal level of measurement. An **index** is a measure in which a researcher adds or combines several distinct indicators of a construct into a single score. This composite score is often a simple sum of multiple indicators. It is used for content or convergent validity. Indexes are often measured at the interval or ratio level.

Researchers sometimes combine the features of scales and indexes in a single measure. This is common when a researcher has several indicators that are scales. He or she then adds these indicators together to yield a single score, thereby an index.

Fnidimensionality: It means that al the items in a scale or index fit together, or measure a single construct. Unidimensionality says: If you combine several specific pieces of information into a single score or measure, have all the pieces measure the same thing. (each sub dimension is part of the construct's overall content).

For example, we define the construct "feminist ideology" as a general ideology about gender. Feminist ideology is a highly abstract and general construct. It includes a specific beliefs and attitudes towards social, economic, political, family, sexual relations. The ideology's five belief areas parts of a single general construct. The parts are mutually reinforcing and together form a system of beliefs about dignity, strength, and power of women.

Index Construction

You may have heard about a consumer price index (CPI). The CPI, which is a measure of inflation, is created by totaling the cost of buying a list of goods and services (e.g. food, rent, and utilities) and comparing the total to the cost of buying the same list in the previous year. An **index** is combination of items into a single numerical score. Various components or subgroups of a construct are each measured, and then combined into one measure.

There are many types of indexes. For example, if you take an exam with 25 questions, the total number of questions correct is a kind of index. It is a composite measure in which each question measures a small piece of knowledge, and all the questions scored correct or incorrect are totaled to produce a single measure.

One way to demonstrate that indexes are not a very complicated is to use one. Answer yes or no to the seven questions that follow on the characteristics of an occupation. Base your answers on your thoughts regarding the following four occupations: long-distance truck driver, medical doctor, accountant, telephone operator. Score each answer 1 for yes and 0 for no.

1. Does it pay good salary?
2. Is the job secure from layoffs or unemployment?
3. Is the work interesting and challenging?
4. Are its working conditions (e.g. hours, safety, time on the road) good?
5. Are there opportunities for career advancement and promotion?
6. Is it prestigious or looked up to by others?
7. Does it permit self-direction and the freedom to make decisions?

Total the seven answers for each of the four occupations. Which had the highest and which had the lowest score? The seven questions are our operational definition of the construct good occupation. Each question represents a subpart of our theoretical definition.

Creating indexes is so easy that it is important to be careful that every item in the index has face validity. Items without face validity should be excluded. Each part of the construct should be measured with at least one indicator. Of course, it is better to measure the parts of a construct with multiple indicators.

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Another example of an index is college quality index. Our theoretical definition says that a high-quality college has six distinguished characteristics: (1) fewer students per faculty member, (2) a highly-educated faculty, (3) more books in the library, (4) fewer students dropping out of college, (5) more students who go to advanced degrees, and (6) faculty members who publish books or scholarly articles. We score 100 colleges on each item, and then add the score for each to create an index score of college quality that can be used to compare colleges.

Indexes can be combined with one another. For example, in order to strengthen the college quality index. We add a sub-index on teaching quality. The index contains eight elements: (1) average size of classes, (2) percentage of class time devoted to discussion, (3) number of different classes each faculty member teaches, (4) availability of faculty to students outside the classroom, (5) currency and amount of reading assigned, (6) degree to which assignments promote learning, (7) degree to which faculty get to know each student, and (8) student ratings of instruction. Similar sub-index measures can be created for other parts of the college quality index. They can be combined into a more global measure of college quality. This further elaborates the definition of a construct "quality of college."

Weighting

An important issue in index construction is whether to weight items. Unless it is otherwise stated, assume that an index is un-weighted. Likewise, unless we have a good reason for assigning different weights, use equal weights. A weighted index gives each item equal weight. It involves adding up the items without modification, as if each were multiplied by 1 (or – 1 for negative items that are negative).

Scoring and Score Index

In one our previous discussions we had tried to measure job satisfaction. It was operationalized with the help of dimensions and elements. We had constructed number of statements on each element with 5 response categories using Likert scale i.e. strongly agree, agree, undecided, disagree, and strongly disagree. We could score each of these items from 1 to 5 depending upon the degree of agreement with the statement. The statements have been both positive as well as negative. For positive statements, we can score straight away from 5 to 1 i.e. strongly agree to strongly disagree. For the negative statements, we have to reverse the score i.e. 1 for "strongly agree," 2 for "agree," 3 for "undecided" to 4 for "disagree," and 5 for "strongly disagree." Reason being that negative multiplied by a negative becomes positive i.e. a negative statement and a person strongly disagreeing with it implies that he or she has a positive responsive so we give a score of 5 in this example. In our example, let us say there were 23 statements measuring for different elements and dimensions measuring job satisfaction. When on each statement the respondent could get a minimum score of 1 and a maximum score of 5, on 23 statements a respondent could get a minimum score of (23 X 1) and a maximum score of (23 X 5) 115. In this way, the score index ranges from 23 to 115, the lower end of the score index showing minimum job satisfaction and upper end as the highest job satisfaction. In reality we may not find any on the extremes, rather the respondents could be spread along this continuum. We could use the raw scores of independent and dependent variables and apply appropriate statistics for testing the hypothesis. We could also divide the score index into different categories like high "job satisfaction" and "low satisfaction" for presentation in a table. We cross-classify job satisfaction with some other variable, apply appropriate statistics for testing the hypothesis.

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Lesson 26

DATA PRESENTATION

Tables and graphs (pictorial presentation of data) may simplify and clarify the research data. Tabular and graphic representation of data may take a number of forms, ranging from computer printouts to elaborate pictographs. The purpose of each table or graph, however, is to facilitate the summarization and communication of the meaning of the data.

Although there are a number of standardized forms for presenting data in table or graphs, the creative researcher can increase the effectiveness of particular presentation. Bar charts, pie charts, curve diagrams, pictograms, and other graphic forms of presentation create a strong visual impression.

The proliferation of computer technology in business and universities has greatly facilitated tabulation and statistical analysis. Commercial packages eliminate the need to write a new program every time you want to tabulate and analyze data with a computer. SAS, Statistical Package for the Social Sciences (SPSS), SYSTAT, Epi. Info. And MINITAB is commonly used statistical packages. These user-friendly packages emphasize statistical calculations and hypothesis testing for varied types of data. They also provide programs for entering and editing data. Most of these packages contain sizeable arrays of programs for descriptive analysis and univariate, bivariate, and multivariate statistical analysis.

Results with one variable Frequency Distribution

Several useful techniques for displaying data are in use. The easiest way to describe the numerical data of one variable is with a frequency distribution. It can be used with nominal-, ordinal-, interval-, or ratio-level data and takes many forms. For example, we have data of 400 students. We can summarize the data on the gender of the students at a glance with raw count or a *frequency distribution*

Table 1: Frequency distribution of students

Gender	Frequency	Percent
Male	300	75
Female	100	25
Total	**400**	**100**

We can present the same information in a graphic form. Some common types of graphic presentations are the *histograms, bar chart, and pie chart.* Bar charts or graphs are used for discrete variables. They can have vertical or horizontal orientation with small space between the bars. The terminology is not exact, but histograms are usually upright bar graphs for interval or ratio data.

Presentation of data in these forms lays emphasis on visual representation and graphical techniques over summary statistics. Summary statistics may obscure, conceal, or even misrepresent the underlying structure of the data. Therefore, it is suggested that data analysis should begin with visual inspection.

The presented data has to be interpreted. The purpose of interpretation is to explain the meanings of the data so that we can make inferences and formulate conclusions. Therefore, **interpretation** refers to making inferences pertinent to the meaning and implications of the research investigation and drawing conclusions. In order for interpretation, the data have to be meaningfully analyzed. For purposes of analysis the researchers use statistics. The word *statistics* has several meanings. It can mean a set of collected numbers (e.g. numbers telling how many people living in a city) as well as a branch of

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applied mathematics used to manipulate and summarize the features of numbers. Social researchers use both types of statistics. Here, we focus on the second type – ways to manipulate and summarize numbers that represent data from research project.

Descriptive statistics describe numerical data. They can be categorized by the number of variables involved: univariate, bivariate, or multivariate (for one, two, and three or more variables). Univariate statistics describe one variable.

Researchers often want to summarize the information about one variable into a single number. They use three measures of central tendency, or measures of the center of the frequency distribution: mean, median and mode, which are often called averages (a less precise and less clear way to say the same thing). The *mode* is simply the most common or frequently occurring number. The *median* is the middle point. The *mean* also called the arithmetic average, is the most widely used measure of central tendency. A particular central tendency is used depending upon the nature of the data.

Bivariate Tables

The bivariate contingency table is widely used. The table is based on cross-tabulation (cross-classification); that is the cases are organized in the table on the basis of two variables at the same time.

A contingency table is formed by cross-tabulating the two or more variables. It is contingent because the cases in each category of a variable get distributed into each category of a second variable. The table distributes cases into categories of multiple variables at the same time and shows how the cases, by the category of one variable, are "contingent upon" the categories of the other variables.

Constructing Percentage Tables

It is to construct a percentage table, but there are ways to make it look professional. Let us take two variables like the age of the respondents and their attitude towards "women empowerment." Assuming that age affects the attitude towards women empowerment let us hypothesize: the lower the age, the higher the favorable attitude towards "women empowerment." The age range of the respondents is 25 to 70, and the attitude index has three categories of "highly favorable," "medium favorable," and "low favorable." The age variable has so many categories that making a table with that number becomes unwieldy and meaningless. Therefore, we regroup (recode) the age categories into three i.e. under 40 years, 40 – 60 years, and 61 + years.

Univariate table for age

• Table 2: Age of the respondents .

Age (Yrs.)	Frequency	Percent
Under 40	1000	33.3
40–60	1000	33.3
61 +	1000	33.3
Total	3000	100

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Univariate table for attitude

- Table 3: Attitude towards women empowerment

Attitude	Frequency	Percent
HI Favorable	1100	37
Med Favorable	1050	35
Lo Favorable	850	28
Total	3000	100

Bivariate table

- Table 4: Age by attitude towards women empowerment

	Age (in years)							
Level of attitude	under 40		40 –60		61 +		Total	
	F.	%	F.	%	F	%	F	%
Hi Favorable	600	60	300	30	200	20	1100	37
Med. Favorable	300	30	500	50	250	25	1050	35
Lo Favorable	100	10	200	20	500	50	850	28
Total	1000	100	1000	100	1000	100	3000	100

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Lesson 27

THE PARTS OF THE TABLE

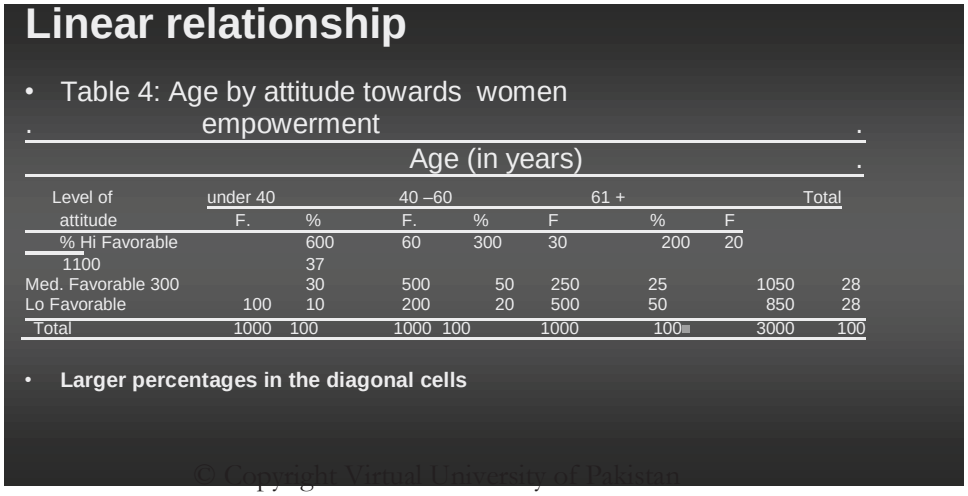
1. Give each table a number.
2. Give each table a title, which names variables and provides background information
3. Label the row and columns variables and give name to each of the variable categories.
4. Include the totals of the columns and rows. These are called *marginals.* They equal the univariate frequency distribution for the variable.
5. Each number or place that corresponds to the intersection of a category for each variable is a *cell of a table.*
6. The numbers with the labeled variable categories and the totals are called the *body of the table.*
7. If there is missing information, report the number of missing cases near the table to account for all original cases.

Researchers convert raw count tables into percentages to see bi-variate relationship. There are three ways to percentage a table: by row, by column, and for the total. The first two are often used and show relationship.

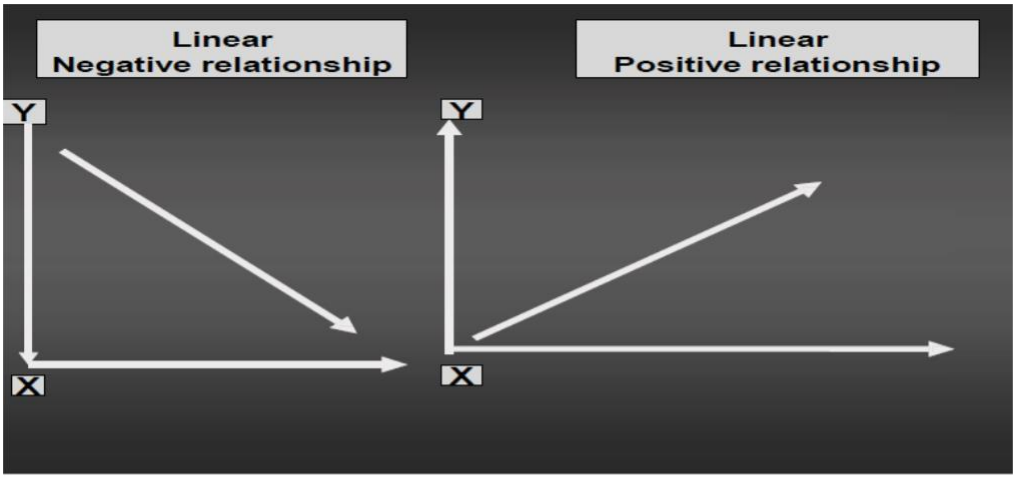
Is it best to percentage by row or column? Either could be appropriate. A researcher's hypothesis may simply looking at row percentages or the column percentages. Here, the hypothesis is that age affects attitude, so column percentages are most helpful. Whenever one factor in a cross-tabulation can be considered the cause of the other, percentage will be most illuminating if they are computed in the direction of the causal factor.

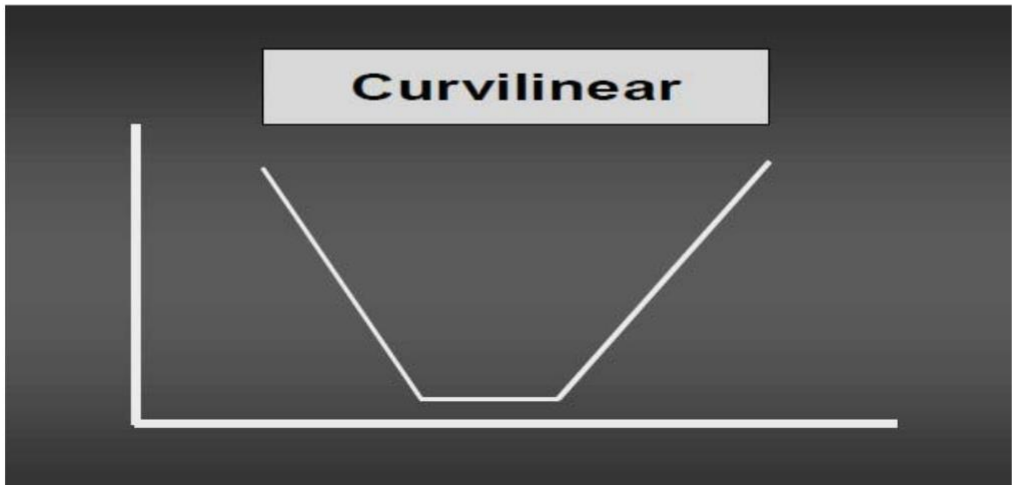
Reading a percentage Table: Once we understand how table is made, reading it and figuring out what it says are much easier. To read a table, first look at the title, the variable labels, and any background information. Next, look at the direction in which percentages have been computed – in rows or columns.

Researchers read percentage tables to make comparisons. Comparisons are made in the opposite direction from that in which percentages are computed. A rule of thumb is to compare across rows if the table is percentage down (i.e. by column) and to compare up and down in columns if the table is percentage across (i.e. by row).
It takes practice to see a relationship in a percentage table. If there is no relationship in a table, the cell percentages look approximately equal across rows or columns. A linear relationship looks like larger percentages in the diagonal cells. If there is curvilinear relationship, the largest percentages form a pattern across cells. For example, the largest cells might be the upper right, the bottom middle, and the upper left. It is easiest to see a relationship in a moderate-sized table (9 to 16 cells) where most cells have some cases (at least five cases are recommended) and the relationship is strong and precise.



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A simple way to see strong relationships is to circle the largest percentage in each row (in row percentage tables) or columns (for column-percentage tables) and see if a line appears.

A simple way to see strong relationship is to circle the largest percentage in applicable row or column and see if a line appears

- Table 4: Age by attitude towards women empowerment

Level of attitude	under 40		40 –60		61 +		Total	
	F.	%	F.	%	F	%	F	%
Hi Favorable	600	(60)	300	30	200	20	1100	37
Med. Favorable	300	30	500	(50)	250	25	1050	35
Lo Favorable	100	10	200	20	500	(50)	850	28
Total	1000	100	1000	100	1000	100	3000	100

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The circle-the-largest-cell rule works – with one important caveat. The categories in the percentages table must be ordinal or interval. The lowest variable categories begin at the bottom left. If the categories in a table are not ordered the same way, the rule does not work.

Statistical Control

Showing an association or relationship between two variables is not sufficient to say that an independent variable *causes* a dependent variable. In addition to temporal order and association, a researcher must eliminate alternative explanations – explanations that can make the hypothetical relationship spurious. Experimental researchers do this by choosing a research design that physically controls potential alternative explanations for results (i.e. that threaten internal validity).

In non-experimental research, a researcher controls for alternative explanations with statistics. He or she measures possible alternative explanations with *control variables*, and then examines the control variables with multivariate tables and statistics that help him or her to decide whether a bivariate relationship is spurious. They also show the relative size of the effect of multiple independent variables on dependent variable.

A researcher controls for alternative explanation in multivariate (more than two variables) analysis by introducing a third (sometimes fourth, or fifth) variable. For example, a bivariate table shows that young people show more favorable attitude towards women empowerment. But the relationship between age and attitude towards women empowerment may be spurious because men and women may have different attitudes. To test whether the relationship is actually due to gender, a researcher must control for gender; in other words, effects of gender are statistically removed. Once this is done, a researcher can see whether the bivariate relationship between age and attitude towards women empowerment remains.

A researcher controls for a third variable by seeing whether the bivariate relationship persists within categories of the control variable. For example, controls for gender, and the relationship between age and attitude persists. This means that both male and females show negative association between age and attitude toward women empowerment. In other words, the control variable has no effect. When this is so, the bivariate relationship is not spurious.
If the bivariate relationship weakens or disappears after the control variable is considered, it means that the age is not real factor that makes the difference in attitude towards women empowerment, rather it is the gender of the respondents.

Statistical control is a key idea in advanced statistical techniques. A measure of association like the correlation co-efficient only suggests a relationship. Until a researcher considers control variables, the bivariate relationship could be spurious. Researchers are cautious in interpreting bivariate relationships until they have considered control variables.

After they introduce control variables, researchers talk about the *net effect* of an independent variable – the effect of independent variable "net of," or in spite of, the control variable. There are two ways to introduce control variables: trivariate percentage tables and multiple regression analysis.

Constructing Trivariate Tables

In order to meet all the conditions needed for causality, researchers want to "control for" or see whether an alternative explanation explains away a causal relationship. If an alternative explanation explains a relationship, then bivariate relationship is spurious. Alternative explanations are operationalized as a third variable, which are called *control variables* because they control for alternative explanation.

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One way to take such third variables into consideration and see whether they influence the bivariate relationship is to statistically introduce control variables using trivariate or three variable tables. Trivariate tables differ slightly from bivariate tables; they consist of multiple bivariate tables.

A trivariate table has a bivariate table of the independent and dependent variable for each category of the control variable. These new tables are called *partials.* The number of partials depends on the number of categories in control variable. Partial tables look like bivariate tables, but they use a subset of the cases. Only cases with a specific value on the control variable are in the partial. Thus, it is possible to break apart a bivariate table to form partials, or combine the partials to restore the initial bivariate table.

Trivariate tables have three limitations. First, they are difficult to interpret if a control variable has more that four categories. Second, control variables can be at any level of measurement, but interval or ratio control variables must be grouped (i.e. converted to an ordinal level), and how cases are grouped can affect the interpretation of effects. Finally, the total number of cases is a limiting factor because the cases are divided among cells in partials. The number of cells in the partials equals the number of cells in the bivariate relationship multiplied by the number of categories in the control variables. For example, if the control variable has three categories, and a bivariate table has 12 cells, the partials have 3 X 12 = 36 cells. An average of five cases per cell is recommended, so the researcher will need 5 X 36 = 180 cases at minimum.

Like a bivariate table construction, a trivariate table begins with a compound frequency distribution (CFD), but it is a three-way instead of two-way CFD. An example of a trivariate table with "gender" as control variable for the bivariate table is shown here:

Partial table for males

	Age (in years)							
Level of	Under 40		40—60		61+		Total	
Attitude	F	%	F	%	F.	%	F.	%.
High	300	60	200	33	30	6	530	33
Medium	140	28	270	45	120	24	530	33
Low	60	12	130	22	350	70	540	34
Total	500	100	600	100	500	100	1600	100

Partial table for females

	Age (in years)							
Level of	Under 40		40—60		61+		Total	
Attitude	F	%	F	%	F.	%	F.	% .
High	350	70	200	50	20	4	570	41
Medium	150	30	150	38	220	44	520	37
Low	-	-	50	12	260	52	310	22
Total	500	100	400	100	500	100	1400	100

The replication pattern is the easiest to understand. It is when the partials replicate or reproduce the same relationship that existed in the bivariate table before considering the control variable. It means that the control variable has no effect.

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The specification pattern is the next easiest pattern. It occurs when one partial replicate the initial bivariate relationship but other partials do not. For example, we find a strong (negative) bivariate relationship between age of the respondents and attitude towards women empowerment. We control for gender and discover the relationship holds only for males (i.e. the strong negative relationship was in the partial for males, but not for females). This is specification because a researcher can specify the category of the control variable in which the initial relationship persists.

The interpretation pattern describes the situation in which the control variable intervenes between the original independent variable and the dependent variables.

The suppressor variable pattern occurs when the bivariate tables suggest independence but relationship appears in one or both of the partials. For example, the age of the respondents and their attitudes towards women empowerment are independent in a bivariate table. Once the control variable "gender" is introduced, the relationship between the two variables appears in the partial tables. The control variable is suppressor variable because it suppressed the true relationship; the true relationship appears in partials.

Multiple Regression Analysis

Multiple regression controls for many alternative explanations of variables simultaneously (it is rarely possible to use more than one control variable using percentage tables). Multiple regression is a technique whose calculation you may have learnt in the course on statistics.

Note:

In the preceding discussion, you have been exposed to the descriptive analysis of the data. Certainly, there are statistical tests which can be applied to test the hypothesis, which you may have learnt in your course on statistics.

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Lesson 28

EXPERIMENTAL RESEARCH

Experimental research builds on the principles of positivist approach more directly than do the other research techniques. Researchers in the natural sciences (e.g. chemistry and physics), related applied fields (e.g. engineering, agriculture, and medicines) and the social sciences conduct experiments. The logic that guides an experiment on plant growth in biology or testing a metal in engineering is applied in experiments on human social behavior. Although it is most widely used in psychology, the experiment is found in education, criminal justice, journalism, marketing, nursing, political science, social work, and sociology.

The purpose of experimental research is to allow the researcher to *control* the research situation so that *causal* relationships among variables may be evaluated. The experimenter, therefore, manipulates a single variable in an investigation and holds constant all other, extraneous variables. (Events may be controlled in an experiment in a way that is not possible in a survey). The goal of the experimental design is the confidence that it gives the researcher that his experimental treatment is the cause of the effect he measures.

Experiment is a research design in which conditions are controlled so that one or more variables can be manipulated in order to test a hypothesis. Experimentation is a research design that allows evaluation of causal relationship among variables.

Experiments differ from other research methods in terms of degree of control over the research situation. In a typical experiment one variable (the *independent variable*) is manipulated and its effect on another variable (the *dependent variable*) is measured, while all other variables that may confound such relationship are eliminated or controlled. The experimenter either creates an artificial situation or deliberately manipulates a situation.

Once the experimenter manipulates the independent variable, changes in the dependent variable are measured. The essence of a behavioral experiment is to do something to an individual and observe his or her reaction under conditions where this reaction can be measured against a known baseline.

To establish that variable X cause's variable Y, *all three* of the following conditions should be met:

1. Both X and Y should co-vary (i.e. when one goes up, the other should also simultaneously go up (or go down).
2. X (the presumed causal factor) should precede Y. In other words, there must be a time sequence in which the two occur.
3. No other factor should possibly cause the change in the dependent variable Y.

It may thus be seen that to establish causal relationships between two variables in an organizational setting, several variables that might co-vary with the dependent variable have to be controlled. This would then allow us to say that variable X and variable X alone causes the dependent variable Y. Useful as it is to know the cause-and-effect relationships, establishing them is not so easy, because several other variables that co-vary with the dependent variable have to be controlled. It is not always possible to control all the covariates while manipulating the causal factor (the independent variable that is causing the dependent variable) in organizational settings, where events flow or occur naturally and normally. It is, however, possible to first isolate the effects of a variable in a tightly controlled artificial setting (the lab setting), and after testing and establishing the cause-and-effect relationship under these tightly controlled conditions, see how generalizable such relationships are to the field setting.

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The Language of Experiments

Experimental research has its own language or set of terms and concepts. One important term frequently used is *subjects* or *test units*. In experimental research, the cases or people used in research projects and on whom variables are measured are called the *subjects* or *test units*. In other words, these are those entities whose responses to the experimental treatment are measured or observed. Individuals, organizational units, sales territories, or other entities may be the test units. Similar terminology is used on different component parts of the experiments.

Parts of Experiments:

We can divide the experiments into seven parts and for each part there is a term. Not all experiments have all these parts, and some have all seven parts plus others. The following seven usually make up a true experiment.

1. Treatment or independent variable.
2. Dependent variable.
3. Pretest.
4. Posttest.
5. Experimental group.
6. Control group.
7. Assignment of subjects.

Treatment or independent variable:

The experimenter has some degree of control over the independent variable. The variable is independent because its value can be manipulated by the experimenter to whatever he or she wishes it to be. In experimental design the variable that can be manipulated to be whatever the experiment wishes. Its value may be changed or altered independently of any other variable.

In most experiments, a researcher creates a situation or enters into an ongoing situation, then modifies it. The treatment (or the stimulus or manipulation) is what the researcher modifies. The term comes from medicine, in which a physician administers a treatment to patients; the physician intervenes in a physical or psychological condition to change it. It is the independent variable or the combination of independent variables.

In experiments, for example, the researcher creates a condition or situation. Look at "the degree of fear or anxiety"; the levels are high-fear or low-fear situation. Instead of asking the subjects, as we do in surveys, whether they are fearful, experimenter puts the subjects into either in a high-fear or low- fear situation. They measure the independent variable by manipulating conditions so that some subjects feel a lot of fear and others feel little.

Researchers go to great lengths to create treatments. They want the treatment to have an impact and produce specific reactions, feelings, or behaviors.

It also possible the researchers look at the alternative manipulations of the independent variable being investigated. In business research, the independent variable is often categorical or classificatory variable, representing some classifiable or qualitative aspects of management strategy. To determine the effects of training, for example, the experimental treatment that represents the independent variable is the training program itself.

Dependent Variable:

Dependent variable is the criterion or standard by which the results are judged. It is assumed that the changes in the dependent variable are consequence of changes in the independent variable. For example, measures of turnover, absenteeism, or morale might be alternative choices for the dependent variable, depending on the purpose of the training.

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The outcomes in the experimental research are the physical conditions, social behaviors, attitudes, feelings, or beliefs of subjects that change, in response to treatment. Dependent variables can be measured by paper-and-pencil indicators, observations, interviews, or physiological responses (e.g. heartbeat, or sweating palms).

Selection of dependent variable is crucial decision in the design of an experiment.

Pretests and Posttests:

Frequently a researcher measures the dependent variable more than once during an experiment. The *pretest* is the measurement of the dependent variable prior to the introduction of the treatment. The posttest is the measurement of the dependent variable after the treatment has been introduced into the experimental situation.

Experimental and Control Groups:

Experimental researchers often divide subjects into two or more groups for purposes of compassion. A simple experiment has only two groups, only one of which receives the treatment. The experimental group is the group that receives the treatment or in which the treatment is present.

The group that does not receive the treatment is called the "control group." When the independent variable takes on many different values, more than one experimental group is used.

In the simplest type of experiment, only two values of the independent variable are manipulated. For example, consider measuring the influence of a change in work situation, such as playing music over an intercom during working hours, on employee productivity. In the experimental condition (the treatment administered to the **experimental group**), music is played during working hours. In the control condition (the treatment administered to the **control group**), the work situation remains the same, without change. By holding conditions constant in the control group, the researcher controls for potential sources of error in the experiment. Productivity, (the dependent variable) in the two groups is compared at the end of the experiment to determine whether playing the music (the independent variable) has any effect.

Several experimental treatment levels can also be used. The music/productivity experiment, with one experimental and one control group, may not tell the researcher everything he or she wishes to know about the music/productivity relationship. If the researcher wished to understand the functional nature of the relationship between music and productivity at several treatment levels, additional experimental groups with music played for only 2 hours, only for 4 hours, and only for 6 hours might be studied. This type of design would allow the experimenter to get a better idea about the impact of music on productivity.

Assignment of Subjects/Test Units:

Social researchers frequently want to compare. When making comparisons, the researchers want to compare the cases that do not differ with regard to variables that offer alternative explanations. Therefore, the groups should be similar in characteristics in such a way that the change in the dependent variable is presumably the outcome of the manipulation of the independent variable, having no alternative explanations.

Random assignment (Randomization) is a method for assigning the cases (e.g. individuals, organizations) to groups for the purpose of making comparisons. It is a way to divide or sort a collection of cases into two or more groups in order to increase one's confidence that the groups do not differ in a systematic way. It is a mechanical method; the assignment is automatic, and the researcher cannot make assignments on the basis of personal preference or the features of specific cases.

Random assignment is random in statistical/mathematical sense, not in everyday sense. In everyday speech, random means unplanned, haphazard, or accidental, but it has a special meaning in mathematics. In probability theory, random describes a process in which each case has a known

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chance of being selected. Random selection allows the researcher calculate the odds that a specific case will be sorted into one group or the other. A random process is the one in which all cases have an exactly equal chance of ending up in one or the other group.

Random assignment or randomization is unbiased because a researcher's desire to confirm a hypothesis or a research subject's personal interests does not enter into the selection process. It also assures the researcher that repetitions of an experiment – under the controlled conditions – will show true effects, if they exist. Random assignment of subjects allows the researcher to assume that the groups are identical with respect to all variables except for experimental treatment.

Random assignment of subjects to the various experimental groups is the most common technique used to prevent test units from differing from each other on key variables; it assumes that all the characteristics of these subjects have been similarly randomized. If the experimenter believes that certain extraneous variable may affect the dependent variable, he or she may make sure that the subjects in each group are matched on these characteristics. **Matching** the subjects on the basis of pertinent background information is another technique for controlling assignment errors.

Matching presents a problem: What are the relevant characteristics to match on, and can one locate exact matches? Individual cases differ in thousands of ways, and the researcher cannot know which might be relevant.

Three Types of Controls

1. **Manipulation of the Independent Variable:** In order to examine the causal effects of an independent variable on a dependent variable, certain manipulations need to be tried. Manipulation simply means control over the stimulus that is we create different levels of the independent variable to assess the impact on the dependent variable. Let us say we want to test the effects of lighting on worker production levels among sewing machine operators. To establish cause and effect relationship, we must measure the production levels of all the operators over a 15-day period with the usual amount of light they work with – say 60 watt bulbs. We might then want to split the group of 60 operators into three groups of 20 members each, and while allowing the subgroup to continue to work under the same conditions as before (60-watt electric light bulbs). We might want to manipulate the intensity of the light for the other two subgroups, by making one group work with 75 watts and the other with 100 watt light bulbs. After the different groups have worked with these varying degrees of light exposure for15 days, each group's total production for these 15 days may be analyzed to see the difference between the pre-experimental and the post experimental
productions among the groups is directly related to the intensity of the light to which they have been exposed. If our hypothesis that better lighting increases the production levels is correct, the subgroups that did not have any change in the lighting (control group), should have no increase in production and the other two groups should show increases, with the one having the most light (100 watts) showing greater increases than those who had the 75 watt lighting.
In this case the independent variable, lighting, has been manipulated by exposing different groups to different degrees of changes in it. This manipulation of the independent variable is also known treatment, and the results of the treatment are called treatment effects.

2. **Holding Conditions Constant:** When we postulate cause-and-effect relationships between two variables X and Y, it is possible that some other factor, say A, might also influence the dependent variable Y. In such a case, it will not be possible to determine the extent to which Y occurred only because of X, since we do not know how much of the total variation was caused by the presence of the other factor A. If the true effect of the X is to be assessed, then the effect of A has to be controlled. This is also called as controlling the effect of contaminating factors or confounding factors.

3. **Control over the Composition of Groups:** If the experimental and control groups have such characteristics that could contaminate the results then the researcher may have to take note of such factors, if there are any. The group differences should not confound the effect of X variable that happens to be under study. The experimental and control groups need to be balanced. For this purpose, the researcher may use **random selection** of the subjects and allocating to different groups. Finally, the experimental and control groups should also be selected randomly. Another way to

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have identical groups is by following the procedure of **matching**. One could look at the possible characteristics of the subjects that could contaminate the effect of X variable, and try to distribute these evenly in all the groups. So pick up one subject and try to match it with another subject on the specified characteristics (age, gender, education, marital status) and put one subject in one group and the other in the other group. After the formation of groups, the researcher may randomly decide about experimental and control groups.

Random Assignment

Social researchers frequently want to compare. For example, a researcher has two groups of 15 students and wants to compare the groups on the basis of key differences between them (e.g. a course that one group completed). Or a researcher has five groups of customers and wants to compare the groups on the basis of one characteristic (e.g. geographic location). "Compare apples with apples, don't compare apples with oranges." It means that a valid comparison depends on comparing things that are fundamentally alike. Random assignment facilitates comparison in experiments by creating similar groups.

Random assignment is a method for assignment cases (e.g. individuals, organizations) to groups for the purpose of making comparisons. It is a way to divide or sort a collection of cases into two or more groups in order to increase one's confidence that the groups do not differ in a systematic way. It is mechanical method; the assignment is automatic, and the researcher cannot make assignments on the basis of personal preference or the features of specific cases.

Random assignment is random in a statistical or mathematical sense, not in an everyday sense. In everyday speech, random means unplanned, haphazard, or accidental, but it has a specialized meaning in mathematics. In probability theory, *random* describes a process in which each case has a known chance of being selected. Random assignment lets a researcher calculate the odds that a specific case will be sorted into one group over another.

Random assignment or randomization is unbiased because a researcher's desire to confirm a hypothesis or a research subject's personal interest does not enter into selection process.

Matching

It implies to match the characteristics (such as age, sex) of the cases in each group. Matching is an alternative to random assignment, but it is an infrequently used one.

Matching presents a problem: What are the relevant characteristics to match on, and can one locate exact matches. Individual cases differ in thousands of ways, and the researcher cannot know which might be relevant. Therefore, randomization is preferred over matching. It takes care of the contaminating factors.

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Lesson 29

EXPERIMENTAL RESEARCH (Continued)

Steps in Conducting an Experiment

Following the basic steps of the research process, experimenters decide on a topic, narrow it into a testable research problem or question, and then develop a hypothesis with variables. Once a researcher has the hypothesis, the steps of experimental research are clear. Broadly there are about 12 steps in conducting an experiment, which are as below:

1. Begin with a straightforward hypothesis that is appropriate for experimental research.
2. Decide on an experimental design that will test the hypothesis within practical limitations. The researcher decides the number of groups to use, how and when to create treatment conditions, the number of times to measure the dependent variable, and what the groups of subjects will experience from beginning till end.
3. Decide how to introduce the treatment or create a situation that induces the independent variable.
4. Develop a valid and reliable measure of the dependent variable.
5. Set up an experimental setting and conduct a pilot test of the treatment and dependent variable measures.
6. Locate appropriate subjects or cases.
7. Randomly assign subjects to groups (if random assignment is used in the chosen research design) and give careful instructions.
8. Gather data for the pretest measure of the dependent variable for all groups (if pretest is used in the chosen design).
9. Introduce the treatment to the experimental group only (or to the relevant groups if there are multiple experimental groups) and monitor all groups.
10. Gather data for posttest measure of the dependent variable.
11. Debrief the subjects by informing them of the true purpose and reasons for the experiment. Ask subjects what they thought was occurring. Debriefing is crucial when subjects have been deceived about some aspect of the treatment.
12. Examine data collected and make comparisons between different groups. Where appropriate, use statistics and graphs to determine whether or not the hypothesis is supported.

Types of Designs

Researchers combine parts of experiment (e.g. pretests, control groups, etc.) together into an experimental design. For example, some designs lack pretests, some do not have control groups, and others have many experimental groups. Certain widely used standard designs have names.

Classical Experimental Design:

All designs are variations of the classical experimental design, which has random assignment of subjects, a pretest and a posttest, an experimental group, and a control group.

Quasi-Experimental Designs:

One-shot Case Study Design:

Also, called the one-group posttest-only design, the one-shot case study design has only one group, a treatment, and a posttest. Because it is only one group, there is no random assignment. For example, a researcher shows a group of students a horror film, then measures their attitude with a questionnaire. A weakness of this design is that it is difficult to say for sure that the treatment caused the dependent variable. If subjects were the same before and after the treatment, the researcher would not know it.

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***One Group Pretest-posttest Design*:**

This design has one group, a pretest, a treatment, and a posttest. It lacks a control group and random assignment. Continuing with the previous example, the researcher gives a group of students an attitude questionnaire to complete, shows a horror film, then has them complete the same questionnaire second time. This is an improvement over the one-shot case study because the researcher measures the dependent variable both before and after the treatment. But it lacks the control group for comparison. The researcher cannot know whether something other than the treatment occurred between the pretest and the posttest to cause the outcome.

Two Groups Posttest-only Design:

It has two groups, a random assignment of subjects, a posttest, and a treatment. It has all parts of the classical design except a pretest. Continuing with our previous example, the researcher forms two groups through randomization process. He shows group a horror film to one group i.e. the experimental group. The other group is not shown any film. Both groups then complete the questionnaire. The random assignment reduces the chance that the groups differed before the treatment, but without a pretest, a researcher cannot be as certain that the groups began the same on the dependent variable.

True Experimental Designs

Experimental designs, which have at least two groups, a random assignment of subjects to experimental and control groups, only experimental group is exposed to treatment, both groups record information before and after the treatment, are known as ex-post facto experimental designs.

Pretest and Posttest Experimental and Control Group Design:

Two groups, one control group and the other experimental group, are formed randomly. Both the groups are exposed to pretest and posttest. The experimental group is exposed to treatment while the control group is not. Measuring the difference between the differences in the post - and pretests of the two groups would give the net effects of the treatment.

Experimental Group: Pretest (O1) X Posttest

(O2) Control Group: Pretest (O3) - Posttest (O4)

Randomization used for setting up the group.

[(O2 – O1) – (O4 – O3)] = Treatment effect (could be anywhere between 0 to -1 or +1).

Solomon's Four Group Design:

To gain more confidence in internal validity in experimental designs, it is advisable to set up two experimental groups and two control groups. One experimental group and one control group can be given the both pretest and the posttest. The other two groups will be given only the posttest. Here the effects of treatment can be calculated in several different ways as shown in figure 1:

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Figure 1: Solomon's four group design

Group	Pretest	Treatment	Posttest
1.Experimental	O1	X	O2
2.Control	O3	-	O4
3.Experimental	-	X	O5
4.Control	-	-	O6

(O2 – O1)
= E

(O4 - O3)
= E

(O5 - O6)
= E

(O5 - O3)
= E

[(O2 - O1) – (O4 – O3)] =
E

E =
Effect

If all Es are similar, the cause and effect relationship is highly valid.

Interaction Effect

The effect of two variables together is likely to be greater than the individual effect of each put together. The idea of an interaction effect is familiar, especially in the area of medicine or illness. As an example, imagine that for a given population of 100 persons, all of the same age and sex, it was found that if all 100 smoked cigarettes the effect would be a lung cancer rate of 20 percent. Assume that for an identical group of 100 persons who did not smoke but lived in a smoggy environment, 10 percent would get lung cancer. Now consider a third identical group of 100 persons all of whom smoke and also live in a smoggy environment. The additive effect of both smoking and smog would be 20 percent plus 10 percent, or a total of 30 percent (30 people) having cancer. However, imagine that an actual medical survey of the population shows a cancer rate of 37 percent among persons experiencing both smoking and smog. This extra 7 percent can be computed residually as:

Interaction Effect = Total effect – (smoking effect + smog effect) = 37 percent

= 37 percent - (20 percent + 10 percent)

= 37 percent - 30 percent

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= 7 percent

In experiments, we have the pretests and posttests, in which case we use the same instrument for measuring the dependent variable, for example racial prejudice as an effect of a movie. In pretest is a questionnaire in which items forming the prejudice scale are dispersed at random among other items so that the subject does not know that his or her level of racial prejudice is being measured.

Nevertheless, the measurement of this variable (prejudice) itself, by presenting questions about race relations may stimulate the subject's thinking and actually cause a change in his or her level of racial prejudice. Any pretest effect that occurs will be visible as part of extraneous change (change caused by the test stimulus) in the control group, as the pretest is also presented to the control group. Any change between the pretest and posttest for measuring the dependent variable in the control group may be attributed to the sensitization of the subjects with the instrument. In the experimental group, of course a movie (an X variable) was shown due to which we expect a change in the racial prejudice of the subjects. But that is not all. The subjects in the experimental group were also exposed to the instrument for measuring the racial prejudice, hence they were also sensitized. Their posttest results include the combined effect of exposure to a movie and that of sensitization to the instrument. In other words, the racial prejudice of the subjects in the experimental group exhibits the interaction effect of the treatment plus that of sensitization of the instrument.

In order to calculate the interaction effect in the experiment we shall have two experimental groups and one control group created by using the randomization process. It may look like this:

Experimental group 1: Pretest (O1)		**X**	**Posttest (O2)**
Control group:	Pretest (O3)	-	Posttest (O4)

Why O4 be different from O3? The difference may be due to sensitization. So, let us figure it out. Let us take another experimental group and we do not pretest i.e. no sensitization with the instrument.

Experimental group 2: No pretest	**X**	**Posttest (O5)**

Let us work out the results:

(O2- O1) = D

(O4- O3) = D/

(O5 – O3)= D// (Since all groups are identical, so we can use the pretest of any of the Other two groups)

Interaction effect = D – [D/ + D//]. Substituting it with our example of lung cancer

37-[10+20]=37–30=7

There are many other experimental designs like the randomized block design, Latin square design, natural group design, and factorial design.

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Lesson 30

EXPERIMENTAL RESEARCH (Continued)

Validity in Experiments

Experiments are judged by two measures. The first, internal validity indicates whether the independent variable was the sole cause of the change in the dependent variable. It implies the researcher's ability to eliminate alternative explanations of the dependent variable. Variables, other than the treatment, that affect the dependent variable are threats to internal validity. They threaten the researcher's ability to say that the treatment was the true causal factor producing change in the dependent variable. The second measure, external validity, indicates the extent to which the results of the experiment are applicable in the real world.

Internal validity is high in the laboratory experiment, reason being the control over all the confounding factors. External validity (generalizability) is not sure because of the effect of variety of factors. Field experiments have more external validity but less internal validity because it is closer to the real situations.

Factors Affecting Internal Validity

In choosing or evaluating experimental research design, researchers must determine whether they have internal and external validity. There are eight major types of extraneous variables that may jeopardize internal validity: History effect, maturation effect, testing effect, instrumentation effect, selection bias effect, statistical regression, mortality, and mechanical loss.

1. History Effect:

A specific event in the external environment occurring between the first and second measurement that is beyond the control of the experimenter and that affects the validity of an experiment. Advertisement of a particular product (mineral water) and its sale is affected by an event in the society (contamination of drinking water). The researcher does not have control on such happenings which have an impact on the X and Y relationship.

2. Maturation Effect: Cause and effect relationship can also be contaminated by the effects of the passage of time – another uncontrollable variable. Such contamination is called maturation effect. The maturation effects are a function of the processes – biological and psychological – operating within the subjects as a result of the passage of time. Examples of maturation processes could include *growing older, getting tired, feeling hungry, and getting bored*. In other words, there could be maturation effect on the dependent variable purely because of the passage of time. For example, let us say that an R & D director intends that an increase in the efficiency of workers would result within three months' time if advanced technology is introduced in the work setting. If at the end of three months increased efficiency is indeed found, it will be difficult to claim that the advanced technology (and it alone) increased the efficiency of workers, because with the passage of time, employees would also gain experience, resulting in better performance and therefore improved efficiency. Thus, the internal validity also gets reduced owing to the effects of maturation in as much as it is difficult to pinpoint how much of the increase is attributable to the introduction of the enhanced technology alone.

3. Testing Effects: Frequently, to test the effects of treatment, subjects are given what is called a ***pretest*** (say**,** a short questionnaire eliciting their feelings and attitudes). That is, a measure of the dependent variable is taken (pretest), then the treatment given, and after that a second test, called ***posttest***, administered. The difference between the posttest and the pretest scores is then attributed to the treatment. However, the very fact that the subjects were exposed to the pretest might influence their responses on the posttest, which will adversely impact on internal validity. It is also called sensitization through previous testing.

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4. Instrumentation Effects: Instrumentation effects are yet another source of threat to internal validity. These might arise because of a change in the measuring instrument between pretest and posttest, and not because of the instrument's differential impact at the end. For example, in a weight-loss experiment, the springs on the scale weaken during the experiment, giving lower readings in the posttest.

A change in the wording of questions (may be done to avoid testing effects), change in interviewers, or change in other procedures to measure the dependent variable can cause instrumentation effect.

Performance of the subjects measured by the units of output in the pretest, but when measuring the output in posttest the researcher measures it by the number of units rejected, and the amount of resources expended to produce the units.

5. Selection Bias Effect: Selection bias is the threat that subjects will not form equivalent groups. It is a problem in design without random assignment, hence differential selection of the subjects for the comparison groups. It occurs when subjects in one experimental group have a characteristic that affects the dependent variable. For example, in an experiment on physical aggressiveness, the experimental group unintentionally contains subjects who are sportsmen, whereas the control group is made up of musicians, chess players, and painters.

6. Statistical Regression: Statistical regression is not easy to grasp intuitively. It is a problem of extreme values or a tendency for random error to move group results towards the average. If extremes are taken, then they tend to regress toward the mean. Those who are on either end of the extreme would not truly reflect the cause and effect relationship.

One situation arises when subjects are unusual with regard to dependent variable. Because they begin as unusual or extreme, subjects are likely to respond further in the same direction. For example, a researcher wants to see whether violent films make people act violently. The researcher chooses a group of violent criminals from a high security prison, gives them a pretest, shows violent films, and then administers a posttest. To the researcher's surprise, the criminals are slightly less violent after the film, whereas a control group of non-prisoners who did see the film are slightly more violent than before. Because the violent criminals began at an extreme, it is unlikely that a treatment could make them more violent; by random chance alone, they appear less extreme when measured a second time.

If participants chosen for experimental group have extreme scores on the dependent variable to begin with then the laws of probability say that those with very low scores on a variable have a greater probability to improve and scoring closer to mean on the posttest after treatment. This phenomenon of low scorers tending to score closer to the mean is known as "regressing toward the mean."

Likewise, those with high scores have a greater tendency to regress toward the mean – will score lower on the posttest than on pretest. Thus, the extremes will not "truly" reflect the causal relationship
– a threat to internal validity.

7. Mortality: Mortality, or attrition, arises when some subjects do not continue throughout the experiment. Although the word mortality means death, it does not necessarily mean that subjects have died. If a subset of subjects leaves partway through an experiment, a researcher cannot whether the results would have been different had the subjects stayed. Even with departure of few subjects, the groups do not remain balanced.

Consider for example of a training experiment that investigates the effects of close supervision of salespersons (high pressure) versus low supervision (low supervision). The high- pre s s u r e condition may misleadingly appear to be superior if those subjects who completed the experiment did very well. If, however, the high-pressure condition caused more subjects to drop-out than the other condition, this apparent superiority may be due to a self-selection bias (those who could not bear the pressure had left – mortality) – perhaps only very determined and/or talented salespersons made it through the end of the experiment.

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8. Mechanical Loss: A problem may be experienced due to equipment failure. For example, in an experiment if the subjects are told that their behavior is being videotaped, and during the experiment the video equipment failed to work for some subjects, then the validity of the results could become doubtful.

9. Experimenter Expectancy: In addition to the usually listed eight factors affecting the internal validity sometimes **experimenter expectancy** may threaten the causal logic of the relationship between the variables. A researcher may threaten internal validity, not purposefully unethical behavior but by indirectly communicating experimenter expectancy to the subjects. Researchers may highly have committed to the hypothesis and indirectly communicate desired findings to subjects. For example, a researcher studying reactions towards disabled deeply believes that females are more sensitive toward the disabled than the males are. Through eye contact, tone of voice, pauses, and other nonverbal communication, the researcher unconsciously encourages female subjects to report positive feelings toward the disabled; the researcher's nonverbal behavior is the opposite for male subjects.

The ***double-blind experiment*** is designed to control experimenter expectancy. In it, people who have direct contact with subjects do not know the details of the hypothesis or the treatment. It is ***double*** blind because both the subjects and those in contact with them are blind to details of the experiment. For example, a researcher wants to see if new drug is effective. Using capsules of three colors – green, yellow, and pink -- the researcher puts the new drug in the yellow capsule, puts an old drug in the pink one, and take the green capsule a ***placebo*** – a false treatment that appears to be real (e.g., a sugar capsule without any physical effects). Assistants who give the capsules and record the effects do not know which color contains the new drug. Only another person who does not deal with subjects directly knows which colored capsule contains the drug and examines the results.

External Validity

Even if the researcher eliminates all concerns for internal validity, external validity remains a potential problem. External validity is the ability to generalize experimental findings to real life situations. Without external validity, the findings are of little use for both basic and applied research i.e we shall not be able to develop any theories that could be applicable to similar other situations.

Reactivity: A Threat to External Validity

Subjects may react differently in an experiment than they would in real life; because they know they are in a study. *The Hawthorn Effect*, a specific kind of reactivity to the experimental situation is a good example in this respect. The experiment was conducted in the Hawthorn Electric Company where the performance of the participants was supposed to change due to the change in the environmental conditions i.e. improvement on the environmental conditions will have a positive effect on the performance. The researchers modified many aspects of the working conditions and measured productivity. Productivity rose after each modification. Productivity rose even if there was no real modification but it was announced that there is a modification. The behavior change was simply a reaction to the announcement of modification and some other factors like the participants were being watched and had a feeling of being 'very important persons.'

Here the workers did not respond to treatment (modification of working conditions) but to the additional attention they received (being in the experiment ad being the focus of attention).

Demand characteristic (discussed earlier) is another type of reactivity. Here the participants change their behavior as a reaction to the demands of the experimenter who may have inadvertently told the subjects about the expected outcome of the treatment. They change their behavior as demanded by the experimenter.

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Ethical Issues in Lab Experiments

We have already discussed the ethical issues in research. Just for the sake of emphasis, it may be appropriate to very briefly repeat some of those which are specifically relevant to experimental designs. The following actions may be unethical:

- Putting pressure on individuals to participate in experiments through coercion, or apply social pressure.
- Asking demeaning questions from the subjects that hurt their self-respect or giving menial task to subjects that diminish their self-respect.
- Deceiving subjects by deliberately misleading them as to the true purpose of research.
- Exposing participants to physical or mental stress.
- Not allowing subjects to withdraw from the experiment when they want to.
- Using research results to disadvantage the participants, or for purposes not to their liking.
- Not explaining the procedures to be followed in the experiment.
- Exposing subjects to hazardous and unsafe environments.
- Not debriefing the participants fully and accurately after the experiment is over.
- Not preserving the privacy and confidentiality of the information given by the participants.
- Withholding benefits from the control group.

Human Subjects Committee

In order to protect the rights of participating subjects the research institutions have usually set up Ethics Committees. Sometime project specific ethics committees are also formed. Such committees try to look after the rights of the subjects participating in the experiments, as well as in other research techniques.

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Lesson 31

NON-REACTIVE RESEARCH

Experiments and surveys research are both ***reactive***; that is, the people being studied are aware of the fact that they are being studied. In ***non-reactive*** research, those being studied are not aware that they are part of a research project. Such a research is largely based on positivistic principles but is also used by interpretive and critical researchers.

The Logic of Non-Reactive Research

The critical thing about non-reactive or *unobtrusive measures* (i.e. the measures that are not obtrusive or intrusive) is that the people being studied are not aware of it but leave evidence of their social behavior or actions 'naturally." The researcher infers from the evidence to behavior or attitudes without disrupting those being studied. Unnoticed observation is also a type of non-reactive measure. For example, a researcher may be observing the behavior of drivers from a distance whether drivers stopped at red sign of the traffic lights. The observations can be made both at the day time and at night. It could also be noted whether the driver was a male or a female; whether the driver was also or with passengers; whether other traffic was present; and whether thee car came to a complete stop, a slow stop, or no stop.

Varieties of Non-Reactive Observations

Non-reactive measures are varied, and researchers have been creative in inventing indirect ways to measures behaviors. Because the measures have little in common except being non-reactive, they are best learned through examples like:

Physical Traces:

- *Erosion*: Wear and tear suggests a greater use. For example, a researcher examines children's toys at a children's play centre that were purchased at the same time. Worn out toys suggest greater interest of children in them.
- *Accretion:* Accumulation of physical evidence suggests behavior. A researcher examines the soft drink cans or bottles in the garbage collection. That might indicate the brands and types of soft drinks that are very popular.

Archives:

- *Running Records:* Regularly produced public records may reveal lot of information. For example, a researcher may examine marriage records for brides' and grooms' recorded ages. The differences might indicate that males marrying younger females are greater than the other way around.
- *Other Records:* Irregular or private records can reveal a lot. For example, a researcher may look into the number of reams of paper purchased by a college principal's office for the last 10 years and compare it with students' enrollment.

Observations:

- *External Appearance:* How people appear may indicate social factors. For example, a researcher watches students to see whether they are more likely to wear their college's colors and symbols after the college team won or lost.
- *Count Behaviors:* Counting how many people do something can be informative. For example a researcher may count the number of men and women who come to a full stop and those who come to a rolling stop at a traffic stop sign. This suggests gender difference in driving behavior.

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- *Time Duration:* How long people take to do things may indicate their intention. For example a researcher may measure how long men and women pause in front of a particular painting. Time taken may indicate their interest in the painting.

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Recording and Documentation

Creating non-reactive measures follows the logic of quantitative measurement, although qualitative researchers also use non-reactive observations. A researcher first conceptualizes a construct, and then links the construct to non-reactive empirical evidence, which is its measure. The operational definition of the variable includes how the researcher systematically notes and records observations.

Content Analysis

Content analysis is a technique for gathering and analyzing the content of a text. The *content* refers to words, meanings, pictures, symbols, ideas, themes, or any message that can be communicated. The *text* is anything written, visual, or spoken that serves as a medium of communication. ***Possible artifacts for study*** could be books, newspaper or magazine articles, advertisements, poems, letters, laws, constitutions, dramas, speeches, official documents, films or videotapes, musical lyrics, photographs, articles of clothing, or works of arts. All these works may be called as documents. The documents can be:

- Personal – letters, diary, autobiography.
- Non-personal – interoffice memos, official documents, proceedings of a meeting.
- Mass media – newspapers, magazines, fiction, films, songs, poems, works of arts.

Content analysis goes back nearly a century and is used in many fields – literature, history, journalism, political science, education, psychology, sociology, and so on. It is also called a study of communication, which means who says what, to whom, why, how, and with what effect.

In content analysis, the researcher uses objective and systematic counting and recording procedures to produce a quantitative description of the symbolic content in a text. It may also be called **"textual coding."** There are qualitative versions of content analysis. The emphasis here is quantitative data about a text's content.

Content Analysis is Non-Reactive: It is non-reactive because the placing of words, messages, or symbols in a text to communicate to the reader or receiver occurs without influence from the researcher who analyzes its contents. There is no interaction between the researcher and the creator of the text under analysis.

Content analysis lets a researcher reveal the contents (i.e. messages, meanings, symbols, etc.) in a source of communication (i.e. a book, article, movie, etc.). It lets him/her probe into and discover content in a different way from ordinary way of reading a book or watching a television program.

With content analysis, a researcher can compare content across many texts and analyze it with quantitative techniques (table, charts). In addition, he or she can reveal aspects of the text's content that are difficult to see. For example, you might watch television commercials and feel that women are mostly portrayed working in the house, cooking food, using detergents, looking after children. Content analysis can document – in objective, quantitative terms – whether or not your vague feelings based on unsystematic observation are true. It yields repeatable, precise results about the text.

Content analysis involves random sampling, precise measurement, and operational definitions for abstract constructs. Coding turns aspects of content that represent variables into numbers. After a content analysis researcher gathers the data, he or she enters them into computers and analyzes them with statistics in the same way that an experiment or survey researcher would.

Measurement and Coding

Careful measurement is crucial in content analysis because a researcher takes different and murky symbolic communication and turns it into precise, objective, quantitative data. He or she carefully

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designs and documents the procedures for coding to make replication possible. For example, a researcher wants to determine how frequently television dramas portray elderly characters in terms of negative stereotypes. He or she develops a measure of the construct "negatively stereotypes of the elderly." The conceptualization may result in a list of stereotypes or negative generalizations about older people (e.g., senile, forgetful, frail, hard of hearing, slow, ill, inactive, conservative, etc.) that do not accurately reflect the elderly. Another example could be negative stereotypes about women.

Constructs in content analysis are operationalize with a *coding system*, a set of instructions or rules on how to systematically observe and record content from text. Look at the construct of "leadership role;" for measuring this construct written rules should be provided telling how to classify people. Same is about the concept of "social class." In case the researcher has three categories of upper, middle, and lower class then the researcher must tell what are the characteristics that are associated with upper class, middle class, and the lower class so that the coders could easily classify people in the three proposed categories.

Observations can be structured: Measurement in content analysis uses *structured observation* i.e. systematic, careful observation based on written rules. The rules explain how to categorize and classify observations in terms of:

- *Frequency*: Frequency simply means counting whether or not something occurs and how often (how many times). For example how many elderly people appear on a television program within a given week? What percentage of all characteristics are they, or in what percentage of programs do they appear.
- *Direction:* Direction is noting the direction of messages in thee content along some continuum (e.g., positive or negative, supporting or opposed). For example the researcher devises a list of ways an elderly television character can act. Some are positive (e.g., friendly, wise, considerate) and some are negative (e.g., nasty, dull, selfish).
- *Intensity:* Intensity is the strength or power of a message in a direction. For example, the characteristic of forgetfulness can be minor (e.g. not remembering to take the keys when leaving home, taking time to recall the name of someone whom you have not seen in years) or major (e.g., not remembering your name, not recognizing your children.
- *Space:* A researcher can record the size of the text message or the amount of space or volume allocated to it. Space in written text is measured by counting words, sentences, paragraphs, or space on a page (e.g. square inches) For video or audio text, space can be measured by the amount of time allocated. For example, a TV character may be present for a few seconds or continuously in every seen of a two hour program.

The unit analysis can vary a great deal in content analysis. It can be a word, a phrase, a theme, a plot,, a news paper article, a character, and so forth.

Coding

The process of identifying and classifying each item and giving labels to each category. Later on each category may be assigned a numerical value for its entry into the computer. In content analysis one can look at the manifest coding and latent coding.

Manifest Coding: Coding the visible, surface content in a text is called manifest coding. For example, a researcher counts the number of times a phrase or word (e.g. red) appears in the written text, or whether a specific action (e.g. shaking hands) appears in a photograph or video scene. The coding system lists terms or actions or characters that are then located in text. A researcher can use a computer program to search for words or phrases in the text and have a computer do the counting work.

Manifest coding is highly reliable because the phrase or the word either is or is not present. However, manifest coding does not take the connotation of word into account. The same word can take on

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different meanings depending on the context. The possibility that there are multiple meanings of a word limits the measurement validity of manifest coding.

Latent Coding: A researcher using *latent coding* (also called *semantic analysis*) looks for the underlying meaning in the content of a text. For example, the researcher reads the entire paragraph and decides whether it contains vulgar themes or a romantic mood. His or her coding system has general rules to guide his or her interpretation of the text and for determining whether particular themes or mood are present.

Latent coding tends to be less reliable than the manifest coding. It depends on a coder's knowledge of language and its social meaning. Training, practice, and written rules improve reliability, but still it is difficult to consistently identify themes, moods, and the like.

Keeping in view the amount of work, often a number of coders are hired. The researcher trains the coders in coding system. Coders should understand the variables, follow the coding system, and ask about ambiguities. A researcher who uses several coders must always check for consistency across coders. He or she does this by asking coders to code the same text independently and then checking for consistency across coders. The researcher measures inter-coder reliability, a type of equivalence reliability, with a statistical coefficient that tells the degree of consistency across among coders. The coefficient is always reported with the results of content analysis research.

How to Conduct Content Analysis Research

Question Formulation: As in most research, content analysis researchers begin with a research question. When the question involves variables that are messages or symbols, content analysis may be appropriate. For example, how women are portrayed in advertisements? The construct here is the portrayal of women which may be measured by looking at the activities they are shown to be doing, the occupations in which they are employed, the way decision making is taking place, etc.

Unit of Analysis: A researcher decides on the unit of analysis (i.e. the amount of text that is assigned a code). In the previous example each advertisement may be a unit of analysis.

Sampling: Researchers often use random sampling in content analysis. First, they define the population and the sampling element. For example, the population might be all words, all sentences, all paragraphs, or all articles in certain type of documents over a period of specified period. Likewise, it could include each conversation, situation, scene, or episode of a certain type of television program over a specified time period. Let us consider that we want to know how women are portrayed in weekly news magazines. The unit of analysis is the article. The population includes all articles published in weekly news magazines during 2001 to 2007. Make a list of English magazines that were published during the said period. Define what is a news magazine? Define what is an article? Decide on the number of magazines. Decide on the sample size. Make a sampling frame. Here the sampling frame shall be all the articles published in the selected magazines during 2001 to 2007. Finally draw the random sample using table of random numbers.

Variables and Constructing Coding Categories: Say a researcher is interested in women's portrayal in significant leadership roles. Define "significant leadership role" in operational terms and put it as written rules for classifying people named in the articles. Say the researcher is further interested in positive leadership roles, so the measure will indicate whether the role was positive or negative. Researcher has to make a list of adjectives and phrases reflective of the leadership role being positive or negative. If someone in the article is referred to with one of the adjective, then the direction is decided. For example, the terms *brilliant* and *top performer* are positive, whereas *drug kingpin* and *uninspired* are negative. Researcher should give written rules to classify role of women as portrayed in the articles.

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In addition to written rules for coding decisions, a content analysis researcher creates a recording sheet (also called a *coding form* or *tally sheet*) on which to record the information. Each unit should have a separate recording sheet.

Inferences: The inference a researcher can or cannot make on the basis of results is critical in content analysis. Content analysis describes what is in the text. It cannot reveal the intentions of those who created the text or the effects that messages in the text have on those who receive them.

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Lesson 32

USE OF SECONDARY DATA

Existing statistics/documents

Prior to the discussion of secondary data, let us look at the advantages and disadvantages of the use of content analysis that was covered in the last lecture. In a way content analysis is also the study of documents through which the writers try to communicate, though some of the documents (like population census) may simply contain figures.

Advantages

1. Access to inaccessible subjects: One of the basic advantages of content analysis is that it allows research on subjects to which the researcher does not have physical access. These could be people of old civilizations, say their marriage patterns. These could also be the documents form the archives, speeches of the past leaders (Quaid-e-Azam) who are not alive, the suicide notes, old films, dramas, poems, etc.

2. Non-reactivity: Document study shares with certain types of observations (e.g., indirect observation or non participant observation through one-way mirror) the advantage of little or no reactivity, particularly when the document was written for some other purpose. This is unobtrusive. Even the creator of that document, and for that matter the characters in the document, is not in contact with the researcher, who may not be alive.

3. Can do longitudinal analysis: Like observation and unlike experiments and survey, document study is especially well suited to study over a long period of time. Many times the objective of the research could be to determine a trend. One could pick up different periods in past and try to make comparisons and figure out the changes (in the status of women) that may have occurred over time. Take two martial periods in Pakistan, study the news papers and look at the reported crime in the press.

4. Use Sampling: The researcher can use random sampling. One could decide on the population, develop sampling frame and draw sample random sample by following the appropriate procedure. For example how women are portrayed in weekly English news magazines. One could pick up weekly English news magazines, make a listing of articles that have appeared in the magazines (sampling frame), and draw a simple random sample.

5. Can use large sample size: Larger the sample closer the results to the population. In experimentation as well as in survey research there could be limitations due to the availability of the subjects or of the resources but in document analysis the researcher could increase the sample and can have more confidence in generalization. Let us assume that a researcher is studying the matrimonial advertisements in the newspapers over a long period of time, there should be no problem in drawing a sample as large as several thousand or more.

6. Spontaneity: The spontaneous actions or feelings can be recorded when they occurred rather than at a time specified by the researcher. If the respondent was keeping a diary, he or she may have been recording spontaneous feelings about a subject whenever he or she was inspired to do so. The contents of such personal recording could be analyzed later on.

7. Confessions: A person may be more likely to confess in a document, particularly one to be read only after his or her death, than in an interview or mailed questionnaire study. Thus a study of documents such as diaries, posthumously published autobiographies, and suicide notes may be the only way to obtain such information.

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8. Relatively low cost: Although the cost of documentary analysis can vary widely depending on the type of document analyzed, how widely documents are dispersed, and how far one must travel to gain access to them, documentary analysis can be inexpensive compared to large-scale surveys. Many a time's documents are gathered together in a centralized location such as library where the researcher can study them for only the cost of travel to the repository.

9. High quality: Although documents vary tremendously in quality, many documents, such as news paper columns, are written by skilled commentators and may be more valuable than, for example, poorly written responses to mailed questionnaires.

Disadvantages

1. Bias: Many documents used in research were not originally intended for research purposes. The various goals and purposes for which documents are written can bias them in various ways. For example, personal documents such as confessional articles or autobiographies are often written by famous people or people who had some unusual experience such as having been a witness to a specific event. While often providing a unique and valuable research data, these documents usually are written for the purpose of making money. Thus they tend to exaggerate and even fabricate to make good story. They also tend to include those events that make the author look good and exclude those that cast him or her in a negative light.

2. Selective survival: Since documents are usually written on paper, they do not withstand the elements well unless care is taken to preserve them. Thus while documents written by famous people are likely to be preserved, day-to-day documents such as letters and diaries written by common people tend either to be destroyed or to be placed in storage and thus become inaccessible. It is relatively rare for common documents that are not about some events of immediate interest to the researcher (e.g., suicide) and not about famous occurrence or by some famous person to be gathered together in a public repository that is accessible to researchers.

3. Incompleteness: Many documents provide incomplete account to the researcher who has had no prior experience with or knowledge of the events or behavior discussed. A problem with many personal documents such as letters and diaries is that they were not written for research purposes but were designed to be private or even secret. Both these kinds of documents often assume specific knowledge that researcher unfamiliar with certain events will not possess. Diaries are probably the worst in this respect, since they are usually written to be read only by the author and can consist more of "soul searching" and confession than of description. Letters tend to be little more complete, since they are addressed to a second person. Since many letters assume a great amount of prior information on the part of the reader.

4. Lack of availability of documents: In addition to thee bias, incompleteness, and selective survival of documents, there are many areas of study for which no documents are available. In many cases information simply was never recorded. In other cases it was recorded, but the documents remain secret or classified, or have been destroyed.

5. Sampling bias: One of the problems of bias occurs because persons of lower educational or income levels are less likely to be represented in the sampling frames. The problem of sampling bias by educational level is more acute for document study than for survey research. It is a safe generalization that a poorly educated people are much less likely than well educated people to write documents.

6. Limited to verbal behavior: By definition, documents provide information only about respondent's verbal behavior, and provide no direct information on the respondent's nonverbal behavior, either that of the document's author or other characters in the document.

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7. Lack of standardized format: Documents differ quite widely in regard to their standardization of format. Some documents such as newspapers appear frequently in a standard format. Large dailies always contain such standard components as editorial page, business page, sports page, and weather report. Standardization facilitates comparison across time for the same newspapers and comparison across different newspapers at one point in time. However, many other documents, particularly personal documents have no standard format. Comparison is difficult or impossible, since valuable information contained in the document at one point in time may be entirely lacking in an earlier or later documents.

8. Coding difficulties: For a number of reasons, including differences in purpose for which the documents were written, differences in content or subject matter, lack of standardization, and differences in length and format, coding is one of the most difficult tasks facing the content analyst. Documents are generally written arrangements, rather than numbers are quite difficult to quantify. Thus analysis of documents is similar to analysis of open-ended survey questions.

9. Data must be adjusted for comparability over time: Although one of the advantages of document study is that comparisons may be made over a long period of time, since external events cause changes so drastic that even if a common unit of measure is used for the entire period, the value of this unit may have changed so much over time that comparisons are misleading unless corrections are made. Look at the change in measuring distance, temperature, currency, and even literacy in Pakistan.

Use of Secondary Data: Existing Statistics/Documents

Secondary Data

Secondary data refer to information gathered by someone other than the researcher conducting the present study. Secondary data are usually historical, already assembled, and do not require access to respondents or subjects. Many types of information about the social and behavioral world have been collected and are available to the researcher. Some information is in the form of statistical documents (books, reports) that contain numerical information. Other information is in the form of published compilations available in a library or on computerized records. In either case the researcher can search through collections of information with a research question and variables in mind, and then reassemble the information in new ways to address the research question.

Secondary data may be collected by large bureaucratic organization like the Bureau of Statistics or other government or private agencies. These data may have been collected for policy decisions or as part of public service.

The data may be a time bound collection of information (population census) as well as spread over long periods of time (unemployment trends, crime rate). Secondary data are used for making comparisons over time in the country (population trends in the country) as well as across the countries (world population trends).

Selecting Topic for Secondary Analysis

Search through the collections of information with research question and variables in mind, and then reassemble the information in new ways to address the research question.

It is difficult to specify topics that are appropriate for existing statistics research because they are so varied. Any topic on which information has been collected and is publicly available can be studied. In fact, existing statistics projects may not neatly fit into a deductive model of research design. Rather researchers creatively recognize the existing information into the variables for a research question after first finding what data are available.

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Experiments are best for topics where the researcher controls a situation and manipulates an independent variable. Survey research is best for topics where the researcher asks questions and learns about reported attitudes and behavior. Content analysis is for topics that involve the content of messages in cultural communication.
Existing statistics research is best for topics that involve information collected by large bureaucratic organizations. Public or private organizations systematically gather many types of information. Such information is collected for policy decisions or as a public service. It is rarely collected for purposes directly related to a specific research question. Thus existing statistics research is appropriate when a researcher wants to test hypotheses involving variables that are also in official reports of social, economic and political conditions. These include descriptions of organizations or people in them. Often, such information is collected over long periods. For example, existing statistics can be used by researcher who wants to see whether unemployment and crime rates are associated in 100 cities across a 20 year period.

As part of the trends, say in development, researchers try to develop social indicators for measuring the well being of the people. A *social indicator* is any measure of wellbeing used in policy. There are many specific indicators that are operationalization of well-being. It is hoped that information about social well being could be combined with widely used indicators of economic performance (e.g., gross national product) to better inform government and other policy making officials.

The main sources of existing statistics are government or international agencies and private sources. An enormous volume and variety of information exists. If you plan to conduct existing statistics research, it is wise to discuss your interests with an information professional – in this case, a reference librarian, who can point you in the direction of possible sources.
Many existing documents are "free" – that is, publicly available at libraries – but the time and effort it takes to research for specific information can be substantial. Researchers who conduct existing statistics research spend many hours in libraries or on the internet.
There are so many sources of existing statistics like: UN publications, UNESCO Statistical Yearbook, UN Statistical Yearbook, Demographic Yearbook, Labor Force Survey of Pakistan, Population Census Data.

Secondary Survey Data

Secondary analysis is a special case of existing statistics; it is reanalysis of previously collected survey or other data that was originally gathered by others. As opposed to primary research (e.g., experiments, surveys, and content analysis), the focus is on analyzing rather than collecting data.

Secondary analysis is increasingly used by researchers. It is relatively inexpensive; it permits comparisons across groups, nations, or time; it facilitates replication; and permits asking about issues not thought by the original researchers. There are several questions the researcher interested in secondary research should ask: Are the secondary data appropriate for the research question? What theory and hypothesis can a researcher use with the data? Is the researcher already familiar with the substantive area? Does the researcher understand how the data were originally gathered and coded?
Large-scale data collection is expensive and difficult. The cost and time required for major national surveys that uses rigorous techniques are prohibitive for most researchers. Fortunately, the organization, preservation, and dissemination of major survey data sets have improved. Today, there are archives of past surveys open to researchers (e.g., data on Population Census of Pakistan, Demographic Survey of Pakistan).

Reliability and Validity

Existing statistics and secondary data are not trouble free just because a government agency or other source gathered the original data. Researchers must be concerned with validity and reliability, as well as with some problems unique to this research technique.

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A common error is the *fallacy of misplaced concreteness*. It occurs when someone gives a false impression of accuracy by quoting statistics in greater detail than warranted by how the statistics are collected and by overloading detail. For example, in order to impress an audience, a politician might say that every year 3010,534 persons, instead of saying 3 million persons, are annually being added to the population of Pakistan.

Validity: Validity problems occur when the researcher's theoretical definition does not match that of the government agency or organization that collected the information. Official policies and procedures specify definitions for official statistics. For example, a researcher defines a *work injury* as including minor cuts, bruises, and sprains that occur on the job, but the official definition in government reports only includes injuries that require a visit to a physician or hospital. Many work injuries as defined by thee researcher will not be in the official statistics. Another example occurs when a researcher defines people *unemployed* if they would work if a good job was available, if they have to work part-time when they want full-time work, and if they have given up looking for work. The official definition, however, includes only those who are now actively seeking work (full or part-time) as unemployed. The official statistics exclude those who stopped looking, who work part-time out of necessity, or who do not look because they believe no work is available. In both the cases the researcher's definition differs from that in official statistics.

Another validity problem arises when official statistics are a proxy for a construct in which the researcher is really interested. This is necessary because the researcher cannot collect original data. For example, the researcher wants to know how many people have been robbed, so he or she uses police statistics on robbery arrests as a proxy. But the measure is not entirely valid because many robberies are not reported to the police, and reported robberies do not always result in an arrest.

Another validity problem arises because the researcher lacks control over how information is collected. All information, even that in official government reports, is originally gathered by people in bureaucracies as part of their job. A researcher depends on them for collecting organizing, reporting, and publishing data accurately. Systematic errors in collecting the initial information (e.g., census people who avoid poor neighborhoods and make-up information, or people who put a false age on their ID card); errors in organizing and reporting information (e.g., police department that is sloppy about filing crime reports and loses some); errors in publishing information (e.g., a typographical error in a table) all reduce measurement validity.

Reliability: Stability reliability problems develop when official definition or the method of collecting information changes over time. Official definitions of work injury, disability, unemployment, literacy, poverty, and the like change periodically. Even if the researcher learns of such changes, consistent measurement over time is impossible.

Equivalence reliability can also be a problem. For example, studies of police department suggest that political pressures to increase arrests are closely related to the number of arrests. It could be seen when political pressures in one city may increase arrests (e.g., a crackdown on crime), whereas pressures in another city may decrease arrests (e.g., to show drop in crime shortly before an election in order to make officials look better).
Researchers often use official statistics for international comparisons but national governments collect data differently and the quality of data collection varies.

Inferences from Non-Reactive Data:
A researcher's ability to infer causality or to test a theory on the basis of non-reactive data is limited. It is difficult to use unobtrusive measures to establish temporal order and eliminate alternative explanations. In content analysis, a researcher cannot generalize from the content to its effects on those who read the text, but can only use the correlation logic of survey research to show an association among variables. Unlike the case of survey research, a researcher does not ask respondents direct questions to measure variables, but relies on the information available in thee text.

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Lesson 33

OBSERVATION STUDIES/FIELD RESEARCH

Observation studies are primarily part of qualitative research. Though qualitative and quantitative researches differ yet they complement each other. Qualitative research produces *soft data*: impressions, words, sentences, photos, symbols. Usually it follows an interpretive approach, the goal of which is to develop an understanding of social life and discover how people construct meanings in natural settings. The research process follows a non-linear approach (spiral).

Quantitative research produces *hard data*: numbers. It follows a positivist approach to research in which the researcher speaks the language of variables and hypotheses. There is a much emphasis on precise measurement of variables and the testing of hypotheses. The researcher tries to establish causality. In most of the case there is a linear approach i.e. it follows sequential steps in doing research.

Participant/Non-Participant Observation

Observation studies can be participant or non-participant. In participant observation the researcher directly observes and participates in small scale social settings in the present time. Such a study is also referred to as **field research**, ethnography, or anthropological study. Here the researchers:

- Study people in their natural settings, or in situ.
- Study people by directly interacting with them.
- Gain an understanding of the social world and make theoretical statements about members' perspective.

The people could be a group who interact with each other on regular basis in a field setting: a street corner, a tea shop, a club, a nomad group, a village, etc.

Non-participant studies are such where the research tries to observe the behavior of people without interacting with them. It could be observing the behavior of shoppers in a departmental store through a mirror or on a closed circuit TV. Some body might be counting the number of vehicles crossing a particular traffic light.

Field researchers study people in a location or setting. It has been used to study entire communities. Field research has a distinct set of methodologies. Field researchers directly observe and interact with community members in natural settings to get inside their perspectives. They embrace an activist or social constructionist perspective on social life. They do not see people as a neutral medium through which social forces operate, nor do they see social meanings as something "out there" to observe. Instead they believe that people create and define the social world through their interactions. Human experiences are filtered through a subjective sense of reality, which affects how people see and act on events. Thus they replace the positivist emphasis on "objective facts" with a focus on the everyday, face-to-face social processes of negotiation, discussion, and bargaining to construct social meaning.

Ethnography and Ethno-methodology

Two modern extensions of field research, ethnography and ethno-methodology, build on the social constructionist perspective.

Ethnography comes from cultural anthropology. *Ethno* means people or a folk distinct by their culture and graphy refers to describing something. Thus ethnography means describing a culture and understanding another way of life from the native point of view. It is just an understanding the culture of people from their own perspective.

Ethno-methodology implies how people create reality and how they interpret it. Ethno-methodologists examine ordinary social interaction in great detail to identify the rules for constructing social reality and common sense, how these rules are applied, and how new rules are created. They try to figure out how certain meanings are attached to a reality.

Logic of Field Research

It is difficult to pin down a specific definition of *field research* because it is more of an orientation toward research than a fixed set of techniques to apply. A field researcher uses various methods to obtain information. A field researcher is a 'methodological pragmatist,' a resourceful, talented individual who has ingenuity and an ability to think on his or feet while in the field.

Field research is based on naturalism, which involves observing ordinary events in natural settings, not in contrived, invented, or researcher created settings.

A field researcher examines social meanings and grasps multiple perspectives in natural setting. He or she gets inside the meanings system of members and goes back to an outside or research viewpoint. Fieldwork means involvement and detachment, loyalty and betrayal, both openness and secrecy, and most likely, love and hate. The researcher switches perspectives and sees the setting from multiple pints of view simultaneously. Researchers maintains membership in the culture in which they were reared (research culture) while establishing membership in the groups which they are studying.

The researcher's direct involvement in the field often has an emotional impact. Field research can be fun and exciting, but it can also disrupt one's personal life, physical security, or mental well-being. More than other types of research, it reshapes friendship, family life, self-identity, or personal values.

What Do the Field Researchers Do?

A field researcher does the following:

1. Observes ordinary events and everyday activities as they happen in natural settings, in addition to unusual occurrences.
2. Becomes directly involved with people being studied and personally experiences the process of daily life in the field setting.
3. Acquires an insider's point of view while maintaining the analytic perspective or distance of an outsider.

4. Uses a variety of techniques and social skills in a flexible manner as the situation demands.
5. Produces data in the form of extensive, written notes, as well as diagrams, maps, pictures to provide very detailed descriptions.
6. Sees events holistically (as a whole, not in pieces) and individually in their social context.
7. Understands and develops empathy for members in a field setting, and does not just record 'cold' objective facts.
8. Notices both explicit (recognized, conscious, spoken) and tacit (less recognized, implicit, unspoken) aspects of culture.
9. Observes ongoing social processes without upsetting, or imposing an outside point of view.
10. Copes with high levels of personal stress, uncertainty, ethical dilemmas, and ambiguity.

Steps in Field Research

Naturalism and direct involvement mean that field research is more flexible or less structured than quantitative research. This makes it essential for a researcher to be well organized and prepared for the field. It also means that the steps of project are not entirely predetermined but serve as an approximate guide or road map. Here is just the listing of these steps:

1. Prepare yourself, read the literature and defocus.
2. Select a site and gain access.
3. Enter the field and establish social relations with members.
4. Adopt a social role, learn the ropes, and get along with members.
5. Watch, listen, and collect quality data.
6. Begin to analyze data, generate and evaluate working hypothesis.
7. Focus on specific aspects of the setting and use theoretical sampling.
8. Conduct field interviews with member informants.
9. Disengage and physically leave the setting.
10. Complete the analysis and write the report.

Lesson 34

OBSERVATION STUDIES (Contd.)

Steps in Field Research

Background

Naturalism and direct involvement mean that field research is more flexible or less structured than quantitative research. This makes it essential for a researcher to be well organized and prepared for the field. It also means that the steps of project are not entirely predetermined but serve as an approximate guide or road map. These guideline steps are:

1. ***Prepare yourself, read the literature and defocus.*** As with all social and behavioral research, reading the scholarly literature helps the researcher learn concepts, potential pitfalls, data collection methods, and techniques for resolving conflicts. In addition field researcher finds diaries, novels, journalistic accounts, and autobiographies useful for gaining familiarity and preparing emotionally for the field. Field research begins with a general topic, not specific hypotheses. A researcher does not get locked into any initial misconceptions. He or she needs to be well informed but open to discovering new ideas.

   A researcher first empties his or her mind of preconceptions and defocuses. There are two types of defocusing. The first is casting a wide net in order to witness a wide range of situations, people, and setting – getting a feel of the overall setting before deciding what to include or exclude. The second type of defocusing means not focusing exclusively on the role of researcher. It may be important to extend one‟s experience beyond a strictly professional role.

   Another preparation for field research is self-knowledge. A field researcher needs to know him or herself and reflect on personal experiences. He or she can expect anxiety, self-doubt, frustration, and uncertainty in the field. Also all kinds of stereotypes about the community should be emptied.

2. ***Select a site and gain access.*** Although a field research project does not proceed by fixed steps, some common concerns arise in the early stages. These include selecting a site, gaining access to the site, entering the field, and developing rapport with members in the field.

   Field site is the context in which events or activities occur, a socially defined territory with shifting boundaries. A social group may interact across several physical sites. For example, a college football team may interact on the playing field, in the dressing room, at a training camp or at the place where they are staying. The team‟s field site includes all four locations.

   Physical access to a site can be an issue. Sites can be on a continuum, with open and public areas (e.g., public restaurants, airport waiting rooms) at one end and closed and private settings (e.g., private firms, clubs, activities in a person‟s home) at the other end. A researcher may find that he or she is not welcome or not allowed on the site, or there are legal and political barriers to access.

   Look for the gate keepers for getting an entry. A gatekeeper is someone with the formal authority to control access to a site. It can be a thug at the corner, an administrator of a hospital, or the owner of a business. In formal public areas (e.g., sidewalks, public waiting rooms) rarely have gatekeepers; formal organizations have authorities from whom permission must be obtained. Field researchers expect to negotiate with gatekeepers and bargain for access. Entry and access can be visualized as an *access ladder*. A researcher begins at the bottom rung, where access is easy and where he or she is an outsider looking for public information. The next access rung requires increased access. Once close on-site observations

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begin, he or she becomes a passive observer, not questioning what members of community say. With time in the field, the researcher observes specific activities that are potentially sensitive or seeks clarification of what he or she sees or hears. Reaching this access rung is more difficult. Finally, the researcher may try to shape interaction so that it reveals specific information, or he or she may want to see highly sensitive material. This highest rung of access ladder is rarely attained and requires deep trust. Such a situation may be applicable to a site of a public or private organization. In other situations just like entering the village community, the researcher may have to use different kind of access ladder. He or she may have to use local influential and some other contact persons who could introduce the researcher to local leaders and help building the rapport.

3. ***Enter the field and establish social relations with members.*** Present yourself in the field the way it is acceptable to the people to be studied. Develop relations and establish rapport with individual members. Here the researcher may have to learn the local language. A field researcher builds rapport by getting along with members in the field. He or she forges a friendly relationship, shares the same language, and laughs and cries with members. This is a step toward obtaining an understanding of members and moving beyond understanding to empathy – that is seeing and feeling events from another‟s perspective.

4. ***Enter the field: Adopt a social role, learn the ropes, and get along with members.*** At times, a researcher adopts an existing role. Some existing roles provide access to all areas of the site, the ability to observe and interact with all members, the freedom to move around, and a way to balance the requirements of researcher and member. There could be some limitations for the adoption of specific roles. Such limitations may be because of researcher‟s age, race, gender, and attractiveness. At other times, a researcher creates new roles or modifies the existing one. The adoption of field role takes time, and a researcher may adopt several different field roles over time.

   The role may also depend upon the level of involvement in the community‟s activities. The researcher may be a complete observer, observer as participant, participant as observer, and complete participant.

   As a researcher learns the ropes on the field site, he or she learns how to cope with personal stress, how to normalize the social research, and how to act like an “acceptable incompetent.” A researcher is in the field to learn, not to be an expert. Depending on the setting, he or she appears to be friendly but naïve outsider, an acceptable incompetent who is interested in learning about social life of the field. An acceptable incompetent is one who is partially competent (skilled or knowledgeable) in the setting but who‟s accepted as a non-threatening person

5. ***Observing and collecting data: Watch, listen, and collect quality data.*** A great deal of what field researchers do in the field is to pay attention, watch, and listen carefully. They use all the senses, noticing what is seen, heard, smelled, tasted, or touched. The researcher becomes an instrument that absorbs all sources of information.

   Most field research data are in the form of field notes. Good notes are the brick and mortar of field research. Full field notes can contain maps, diagrams, photographs, interviews, tape recordings, videotapes, memos, objects from the field, notes jotted in the field, and detailed notes written away from the field. A field researcher expects to fill many notebooks, or the equivalent in computer memory. He or she may spend more time writing notes than being in the field.

   Writing notes is often boring, tedious work that requires self-discipline. The notes contain extensive descriptive detail drawn from memory. The researcher makes it a daily habit or compulsion to write notes immediately after leaving the field. The notes must be neat and

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organized because the researcher will return to them over and over again. Once written, the notes are private and valuable. A researcher treats them with care and protects confidentiality.

Field researcher is supposed to collect quality data. What does the term high-quality data mean in the field research, and what does a researcher do to get it? For a quantitative researcher, high quality data are reliable and valid; they give precise, consistent measures of the "objective" truth for all researchers. An interpretive approach suggests a different kind of data quality. Instead of assuming one single, objective truth, field researchers hold that members subjectively interpret experiences within social context. What a member takes to be true results from social interaction and interpretation. Thus high quality field data capture such processes and provide an understanding of the member‟s viewpoint.

A field researcher does not eliminate subjective views to get quality data: rather, quality data include his or her subjective responses and experiences. Quality field data are detailed descriptions from the researcher‟s immersion and authentic experiences in the social world of members.

6. ***Begin to analyze data generate and evaluate working hypothesis.*** Right in the field try to look into the research questions and the kind of answers the researcher is getting. The analysis of the answers might help in the generation of hypotheses. Over time are such hypotheses being supported by further field research?

7. ***Focus on specific aspects of the setting and use theoretical sampling.*** Field researcher first gets a general picture, and then focuses on a few specific problems or issues. A researcher decides on specific research questions and develops hypotheses only after being in the field and experiencing it first-hand. At first, everything seems relevant; later, however, selective attention focuses on specific questions and themes.

   Field research sampling differs from survey sampling, although sometime both use snowball sampling. A field researcher samples by taking a smaller, selective set of observations from all possible observations. It is called theoretical sampling because it is guided by the researcher‟s developing theory. Field researchers sample times, situations, types of events, locations, types of people, or context of interest.

   For example, field researcher samples time by observing a setting at different times. He or she observes at all time of the day, on every day of the week, and in all seasons to get a full sense of how the field site stays the same or changes. Another example, when the field researcher samples locations because one location may give depth, but narrow perspective. Sitting or standing in different locations helps the researcher to get a sense of the whole site. Similarly the field researchers sample people by focusing their attention or interaction on different kinds of people (young, adult, old).

8. ***Conduct field interviews with member informants.*** Field researchers use unstructured, non-directive, in-depth interviews, which differs from formal survey research interviews in many ways. The field interview involves asking question, listening, expressing interest, and recording what was said.

   Field interview is a joint production of a research and a member. Members are active participants whose insights, feelings, and cooperation are essential parts of a discussion process that reveals subjective meaning. The interviewer‟s presence and form of involvement – how he or she listens, attends, encourages, interrupts, disagrees, initiates topics, and terminates responses – is integral to the respondent‟s account.

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Field research interviews go by many names: unstructured, depth, ethnographic, open ended, informal, and long. Generally, they involve one or more people being present, occur in the field, and are informal and nondirective.

A comparison of the field research interview and a survey interview could be as below:

Survey Interview	Field Interview
1. It has clear beginning and end.	1. The beginning and end are not clear. The interview can be picked up later.
2. The same standard questions are asked of all respondents in the same sequence.	2. The questions and the order in which they are asked are tailored to specific people and situations.
3. The interviewer appears neutral at all times.	3.The interviewer shows interest in responses, encourages elaboration.
4. The interviewer asks questions, and the respondent answers.	4. It is like a friendly conversational exchange but with more interviewer questions.
5. It is almost always with one respondent alone.	5. It can occur in group setting or with others in area, but varies.
6. It has a professional tone and businesslike focus, diversions are ignored.	6. It is interspersed with jokes, aside, stories, diversions, and anecdotes, which are recorded.
7. Closed-ended questions are common, with rare probes.	7. Open-ended questions are common, and probes are frequent.
8. The interviewer alone controls the pace and direction of interview.	8. The interviewer and member jointly control the pace and direction of the interview.
9. The social context in which the interview occurs is ignored and assumed to make little difference.	9. The social context of the interview is noted and seen as important for interpreting the meaning of responses.
10. The interviewer attempts to mold the communication pattern into a standard framework.	10. The interviewer adjusts to the member‟s norms and language usages.

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9. ***Disengage and physically leave the setting.*** Work in the field can last for a few weeks to a dozen years. In either case at some point of work in the field ends. Some researchers suggest that the end comes naturally when the theory building ceases or reaches a closure; others feel that fieldwork could go on without end and that a firm decision to cut off relations is needed. Experienced field researchers anticipate a process of disengaging and exiting the field. Depending on the intensity of involvement and the length of time in the field, the process can be disruptive or emotionally painful for both the researcher and the members.

   Once researcher decides to leave – because the project reaches a natural end and little new is being learned, or because external factors force it to end (e.g., end of job, gatekeepers order the researcher out) – he or she chooses a method of exiting. The researcher can leave by quick exit (simply not return one day) or slowly withdraw, reducing his or her involvement over weeks. He or she also needs to decide how to tell members and how much advance warning to give. The best way to exist is to follow the local norms and continuing with the friendly relations.

10. ***Complete the analysis and write the report.*** After disengaging from the field setting the researcher writes the report. The researcher may share the written report with the members observed to verify the accuracy and get their approval of its portrayal in print. It may help in determining the validity of the findings. However, it may not be possible to share the findings with marginal groups like addicts, and some deviant groups.

Ethical Dilemmas of Field research

The direct personal involvement of a field researcher in the social lives of other people raises many ethical dilemmas. The dilemmas arise when the researcher is alone in the field and has little time to make a moral decision. Although he or she may be aware of general ethical issues before entering the field, they arise unexpectedly in the course of observing and interacting in the field. Let us look at some of these dilemmas:

Deception: Deception arises in several ways in field research. The research may be covert; or may assume a false role, name, or identity; or may mislead members in some way. The most hotly debated of the ethical issues arising from deception is that of covert versus overt field research. Some support it and see it as necessary for entering into and aiming a full knowledge of many areas of social life. Others oppose it and argue that it undermines a trust between researchers and society. Although its moral status is questionable, there are some field sites or activities that can only be studied covertly. One may have to look into the cost and benefit equation; where the researcher is the best judge.

Covert research is never preferable and never easier than overt research because of the difficulties of maintaining a front and the constant fear of getting caught.

Confidentiality: A researcher learns intimate knowledge that is given in confidence. He or she has a moral obligation to uphold the confidentiality of data. This includes keeping information confidential from others in the field and disguising members‟ names in field notes.

Involvement with deviants: Researchers who conduct research on deviants who engage in illegal behavior face additional dilemmas. They know of and are sometimes involved in illegal activity. They might be getting „guilty knowledge.‟ Such knowledge is of interest not only to law enforcement officials but also to other deviants. The researcher faces a dilemma of building trust and rapport with the deviants, yet not becoming so involved as to violate his or her basic personal moral standards. Usually, the researcher makes an explicit arrangement with the deviant members.

The powerful: Field researchers tend to study those without power in society (e.g., street people, the poor, children, and lower level workers). Powerful elites can block access and have effective

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gatekeepers. Researchers are criticized for ignoring the powerful, and they are also criticized by the powerful for being biased toward the less powerful.

Publishing field reports: The intimate knowledge that a researcher obtains and reports creates a dilemma between the right of privacy and the right to know. A researcher does not publicize member secrets, violate privacy, or harm reputations. Yet if he or she cannot publish anything that might offend or harm someone, some of what the researcher learned will remain hidden, and it may be difficult for others to believe the report if critical details are omitted.

Some researchers suggest asking members of the group under study to look at a report to verify its accuracy and to approve of their portrayal in print. For marginal groups (addicts), this may not be possible, but the researchers must always respect member privacy. On the other hand, censorship or self-censorship can be a danger. A compromise position is that truthful but unflattering material may be published only if it is essential to the researchers‟ larger arguments.

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Lesson 35 & 36

HISTORICAL COMPARATIVE RESEARCH

History has several meanings; one of which could refer to 'the events of the past.' *Historiography* is the method of doing historical research or of gathering and analyzing historical evidence.

Historical-comparative research is a collection of techniques and approaches. It is a distinct type of research that puts historical time and /or cross-cultural variation at the center of research – that is, which treats what is studied as part of the flow of history and situated in cultural context.

Major questions

Historical comparative research is a powerful method for addressing big questions: How did major societal change take place? What fundamental features are common to most societies? Why did current social arrangements take a certain form in some societies but not in others? For example, historical-comparative researchers have addressed the questions of what caused societal revolutions in china, France, and Russia; how major social institutions, medicine, have developed and changed over two centuries; how basic relationships, like feelings about the value of children, change; why public policy toward the treatment of elderly developed in one way instead of another way in an industrial country; why South Africa developed a system of greater racial separation as the United States moved toward a greater racial integration.

Historical-comparative research is suited for examining the combination of societal factors that produce a specific outcome (e.g., civil war). It is also appropriate for comparing entire social system to see what is common across societies and what is unique, and to study long term change. An H-C researcher may apply a theory to specific cases to illustrate its usefulness. And he or she compares the same social processes and concepts in different cultural or historical contexts.

Researchers also use H-C method to reinterpret data or challenge old explanations. By asking different questions, finding new evidence, or assembling evidence in a different way, the H_C researcher raises questions about old explanations and finds support for new ones by interpreting the data in its cultural-historical context.

Historical-comparative research can strengthen conceptualization and theory building. By looking at historical events or diverse cultural contexts, a researcher can generate new concepts and broaden is or her perspective. Concepts are less likely to be restricted to a single historical time or to a single culture; they can be grounded in the experiences of people living in a specific cultural and historical context.

Historical-Comparative research focuses on:

- Tracing the development of social forms (patterns) overtime as well as its broad its broad historical processes, and
- Comparing those forms and its developmental processes across cultures (countries/nations).

Historical-Comparative research follows scientific approach:

- Can be a survey of events in history – could be through the study of documents.
  Organizations generally document themselves, so if one is studying the development of some organization he/she should examine its official documents: charters, policy statements, speeches by the leaders, and so on. Often, official government documents provide the data needed for analysis. To better appreciate the history of race relations in the United States on e could examine 200 years of laws and court cases involving race.

One could also do the communication analysis of different documents related to a particular issue (like the communication among the leaders of Pakistan movement through their letters, communication between the migrants to a new country and their relatives back in their country of origin)

Researcher could also get lot of information by interviewing people who may recall historical events (like interviewing participants in the Pakistan movement).

- Historical-Comparative researchers mostly do a longitudinal analysis i.e. look into the developmental processes of the issues under reference.
- Historical –Comparative researchers make cross-cultural comparisons of the social forms or economic form as well as the developmental processes of those forms, aiming at making generalizations.

Examples:

Social forms: Several researchers have examined the historical development of ideas about different forms of society. The have looked at the progression of social forms from simple to complex, from rural, from rural-agrarian to urban-industrial. The US anthropologist Lewis Morgan, for example, saw a progression from "savagery to "barbarism" to "civilization." Robert Redfield, another anthropologist, has more recently written of a shift from "folk society" to "urban society." Emile Durkheim saw social evolution largely as a process of ever-greater division of labor. Ibn-e-Khaldun looked at the cyclical process of change in the form of societies from nomadic (Al-badawi) to sedentary (Al-hadari). These researchers discuss the forces that produce changes as well as the characteristics of each form of society. The historical evidence collected by researchers from different sources about different societies supports the whole discussion.

Forms of economic systems: Karl Marx examined the forms of economic systems progressing historically from primitive to feudal to capitalistic. All history, he wrote in this context, was a history of class struggle – the "haves" struggling to maintain their advantages and the "have-nots" struggling for a better lot in life.
Looking beyond capitalism, Marx saw the development of a 'classless" society. In his opinion the economic forces have determined the societal system.
Not all historical studies in the social sciences have had this evolutionary flavor. Some social scientific readings of the historical record, in fact point to grand cycles rather than to linear progression (Ibn-e-Khaldun, P. Sorokin).

Economic forms and ideas: In his analysis of economic history, Karl Marx put forward a view of economic determinism. That is, he felt that economic factors determined the nature of all other aspects of society. Without denying that economic factors could and did affect other aspects of society, Max Weber argued that economic determinism did not explain everything. Indeed, Weber said, economic forms could come from non-economic ideas. In his research in the sociology of religion, Weber examined the extent to which religious institutions were the source of social behavior rather than mere reflection of economic conditions. His most noted statement of this side of the issue is found in *The Protestant Ethic and the Spirit of Capitalism.* John Calvin, a French theologian, was an important figure in the *Protestant* reformation of Christianity. Calvin thought that God had already decided the ultimate salvation or damnation of every individual; this idea is called *predestination*. Calvin also suggested that God communicated his decisions to people by making them either successful or unsuccessful during their earthly existence.
God gave each person an earthly "calling" – an occupation or profession – and manifested his or her success or failure through that medium. Ironically, this point of view led Calvin's followers to seek proof of their coming salvation by working hard, saving for economic success.
In Weber's analysis, Calvinism provided an important stimulus for the development of capitalism. Rather than "wasting" their money on worldly comforts, the Calvinists reinvested it in economic enterprises, thus providing the *capital* necessary for the development of capitalism. In arriving at this interpretation of the

origin of capitalism, Weber researched the official doctrines of the early Protestant churches, studied the preaching of Calvin and other church leaders, and examined other historical documents.

In three other studies, Weber conducted detailed analyses of Judaism, and the religions of China and India. Among other things, Weber wanted to know why capitalism had not developed in the ancient societies of China, India, and Israel. In none of the three religions did he find any teaching that would have supported the accumulation and reinvestment of capital – strengthening his conclusion about the role of Protestantism in that regard.

Logic of Historical-Comparative Research

Confusion over terms reigns H_C research. Researchers call what they do historical, comparative or historical-comparative, but mean different things. The key question is: Is there a distinct historical-comparative method and logic, or is there just social research that happens to examine social life in the past or in several societies? Some researchers use positivist, quantitative approach to study historical or comparative issues, while others rely on qualitative approach.

Quantitative approach: Positivist researchers reject the idea that there is a distinct H-C method. They measure variables, test hypotheses, analyze quantitative data, and replicate research to discover generalizable laws that hold across time and societies. They see no fundamental distinction between quantitative social research and historical-comparative research. They apply quantitative research techniques, with some minor adjustments, to study the past or other cultures.

- The researcher can focus on the issue in one society few societies or multiple societies.
- The researcher can focus on the issue in one time in the past or examine the issue across many years/periods in the past.
- The researcher can focus on the issue in the present or a recent past period.
- The researcher's analysis could be based primarily on quantitative data or qualitative data.
- Nevertheless, the debate continues.

H-C researchers sometimes use *time-series* data to monitor changing conditions over time, such as data on population, crime rates, unemployment, infant mortality rates, and so forth. The analysis of such data sometimes requires sophistication for purposes of comparability. In case the definitions of the concept vary, it becomes difficult to make comparisons. The definitions not only could vary across nations but also these could vary within the same country over time (In Pakistan the definition of literacy changed from what it was in first population census of 1951 and what we had later on).

Qualitative approach:
There are no easily listed steps to follow in the analysis of historical data. Max Weber used the German term *verstehen* –"understanding" – in reference to an essential quality of research in behavioral sciences. He meant that the researcher must be able to take on, mentally, the circumstances, views, and feelings of those being studied to interpret their actions appropriately.

The historical-comparative researcher must find patterns among the voluminous details describing the subject matter of study. Often this takes the form of what Weber called ideal types: conceptual models composed of the essential characteristics of the phenomena. Thus, for example, Weber himself conducted lot of research on bureaucracy. Having observed numerous bureaucracies, Weber detailed those qualities essential to bureaucracies in general: jurisdictional areas, hierarchically structured authority, written files, and so on. Weber did not merely list those characteristics common to all bureaucracies he observed. Rather, he needed to understand fully the essentials of bureaucratic operation to create a theoretical model of the "perfect" (ideal type) bureaucracy.

A distinct, qualitative historical-comparative research differs from the positivist approach. Historical-comparative researchers who use case studies and qualitative data may depart from positivist approach. Their research is an intensive investigation of a limited number of cases in which the social meaning and context are critical. Case studies even in one nation, can be very important. Without case studies, scholars "would continue to advance theoretical arguments that are inappropriate, outdated, or totally irrelevant for a specific region".
Historical-comparative researcher focuses on culture (patterns of behavior), tries to see through the eyes of those being studied, reconstructs the lives of the people studied, and examines particular individuals or groups.

A distinct H-C approach borrows from ethnography and cultural anthropology, and some varieties of H-C are close to "thick description" in their attempt to recreate the reality of another time or place.

A Distinct Historical-Comparative Approach

A distinct historical-comparative research method avoids the excesses of the positivist and interpretive approaches. It combines sensitivity to specific historical or cultural contexts with theoretical generalization. Historical-comparative researches may use quantitative data to supplement qualitative data and analysis. The logic and goals of H-C research are closer to those of field research than to those of traditional positivist approaches.

Similarities to Field Research:
First, both H-C research and field research recognize that the researcher's point of view is an avoidable part of research. Both involve interpretation, which introduces the interpreter's location in time, place, and world-view. H-C research does not try to produce a single, unequivocal set of objective facts. Rather, it is a confrontation of old with new or different world-views. It recognizes that the researcher's reading of historical or comparative evidence is influenced by an awareness of the past and by living in the present. Our present day consciousness of history is fundamentally different from the manner in which the past appeared to any foregoing people.

Second, both field and H-C research examine a great diversity of data. In both, the researcher becomes immersed in data to gain an emphatic understanding of events and people. Both capture subjective feelings and note how everyday, ordinary activities signify important social meaning. The researcher inquires, selects, and focuses on specific aspects of social life from the vast array of events, actions, symbols, and words. An H-C researcher organizes data and focuses attention on the basis of evolving concepts. He or she examines rituals and symbols and dramatize culture and investigates the motives, reasons, and justifications for behaviors.

Third, both field and H-C researchers often use *grounded theory*. Theory usually emerges during the process of data collection. Both examine data without beginning with fixed hypotheses. Instead, they develop and modify concepts and theory through a dialogue with the data, then apply theory to reorganize evidence. [Historically grounded theory means that concepts emerge from the analytic problem of history: ordering the past into structures, conjectures and events. History and theory can thus be simultaneously constructed.]

Fourthly, both field and H-C research involve a type of translation. The researcher's meaning system usually differs from that of people he or she studies, but he or she tries to penetrate and understand their point of view. Once the life, language, an perspective of the people being studied have been mastered, the researcher "translates" it for others who read his or her report.

Fifth, both field and H-C researchers focus on action, process, and sequence and see time process as essential. Both say that people construct a sense of social reality through actions that occur over time. Both see social reality simultaneously as something created and changed by people and as imposing a restriction on human choice.

Sixth, generalizations and theory are limited in field and H-C research. Historical and cross-cultural knowledge is incomplete and provisional, based on selective facts and limited questions. Neither deduces propositions or tests hypotheses in order to uncover fixed laws. Likewise replication is unrealistic because each researcher has a unique perspective and assembles a unique body of evidence. Instead, researchers offer plausible accounts and limited generalizations.

Unique Features of H-C Research: Despite its many similarities to field research, some important differences distinguish H-C research. Research on past and on an alien culture share much in common with each other, and what they share distinguishes them from other approaches.

First, the evidence of H-C research is usually limited and indirect. Direct observation and involvement by a researcher is often impossible. A H-C researcher reconstructs what occurred from the evidence, but he or she cannot have absolute confidence in his reconstruction. Historical evidence in particular depends on the survival of data from the past, usually in the form of documents (e.g., letters and newspapers). The researcher is limited to what has not been destroyed and what leaves a trace, record, or other evidence behind.

Second, H-C researchers interpret the evidence. Different people looking at the same evidence often ascribe different meanings to it, so a researcher must reflect on evidence. An understanding of it based on a first glance is rarely possible. The researcher becomes immersed in and absorbs details about a context. For example, a researcher examining the family in the past or a distant country needs to be aware of the full context (e.g., the nature of work, forms of communication, transportation technology, etc.).

Another feature is that a researcher's reconstruction of the past or another culture is easily distorted. Compared to the people being studied, H-C researchers is usually more aware of events occurring prior to the time studied, events occurring in places other than the location studied, and events that occurred after the period studied. This awareness gives the researchers a greater sense of coherence than was experienced by those living in the past or in an isolated social setting. Historical explanation surpasses any understanding while events are still occurring. The past we reconstruct is more coherent than the past when it happened.

A researcher cannot see through the eyes of those being studied. Knowledge of the present and changes over time can distort how events, people, laws, or even physical objects are perceived. When the building was newly built (say in 1800) and standing among similar buildings, the people living at the time saw it differently than people do in the 21st century.

H-C researcher does not use deterministic approach. H-C research takes an approach to causality that is more contingent than determinist. A H-C researcher often uses combinational explanations. They are analogous to a chemical reaction in which several ingredients (chemicals, oxygen) are added together under specified conditions (temperature, pressure) to produce an outcome (explosion). This differs from a linear causal explanation. H-C research focuses on whole cases and on comparisons of complex wholes versus separate variables across cases. The logic is more "A, B, and C appeared together in time and place, then D resulted" than "A caused B, and B caused C, and C caused D."

H-C researcher has the ability to shift between a specific context and a generalized context for purposes of comparison. A researcher examines several specific contexts, notes similarities and differences, then generalizes. He or she looks again at the specific context using the generalization. H-C researchers

compare across cultural-geographic units. They develop trans-cultural concepts for purposes of comparative analysis. In comparative research, a researcher translates the specifics of a context into a common, theoretical language. In historical research theoretical concepts are applied across time.

HISTORICAL-COMPARATIVE RESEARCH (Contd.) (Additional Reading)

Conducting historical-comparative research does not involve a rigid set of steps and, with only a few exceptions; it does not use complex or specialized techniques. Nevertheless, some guideline for doing historical-comparative research may be provided.

Conceptualizing the Object of Inquiry

An H-C researcher begins by becoming familiar with the setting and conceptualizes what is being studied. He or she may start with a loose model or set of preliminary concepts and apply them to specific setting. The provisional concepts contain implicit assumptions or organizing categories that he or she uses to see the world, "package" observations, and search through evidence.

Decide on the historical era or comparative settings (nations or units). If the researcher is not already familiar with historical era or comparative settings, he or she conducts an orientation reading (reading several general works). This will help the researcher grasp the specific setting, assemble organizing concepts, subdivide the main issue, and develop lists of questions relating to specific issue.

Locating Evidence

The researcher locates and gathers evidence through extensive bibliographic work. A researcher uses many indexes, catalogs, and reference works that list what libraries contain. For comparative research, this means focusing on specific nations or units and on particular kinds of evidence within each. The researcher frequently spends weeks searching for sources in libraries, travels to several different specialized research libraries, and reads dozens of books and articles. Comparative research often involves learning one or more foreign languages.

As the researcher masters the literature and takes numerous detailed notes, he or she completes many specific tasks: creating a bibliography list (on cards or on computer) with complete citations, taking notes that are neither too skimpy nor too extensive, leaving margins on note cards for adding themes later on, taking all note in the same format, and developing a file on themes or working hypothesis.

A researcher adjusts initial concepts, questions, or focus on the basis of what he or she discovers in the evidence. New issues and questions arise as he or she reads and considers a range of research reports at different levels of analysis (e.g., general context and detailed narratives on specific topic), and multiple studies on a topic, crossing topic boundaries.

Evaluating Quality of Evidence

As the H-C researcher gathers evidence, he or she asks two questions: Hoe relevant is the evidence to emerging research questions and evolving concepts? How accurate and strong is the evidence?
The question of relevance is difficult one. All documents may not be equally valuable in reconstructing the past. As the focus of research shifts, evidence that was not relevant can become relevant. Likewise, some evidence may stimulate new avenues of inquiry and search for additional confirming evidence.

Accuracy of evidence may be looked at for three things: the implicit conceptual framework, particular details that are required and empirical generalizations. H-C researcher evaluates alternative interpretations of evidence and looks for "silences," of cases where the evidence fails to address an event, topic, or issue.

Researchers try to avoid possible fallacies in the evidence. For example, a fallacy of pseudo proof is failure to place something into its full context. The evidence might state that that there was a 50 percent increase

in income taxes, but it is not meaningful outside of a context. The researcher must ask: Did other taxes decline? Did income increase? Did the tax incase apply to all income? Was everyone affected equally?

Organizing Evidence

As a researcher gathers evidence and locates new sources, he or she begins to organize the data. Obviously, it is unwise to take notes madly and let them pile up haphazardly. A researcher usually begins a preliminary analysis by noting low-level generalizations or themes. For example, in a study of revolution, a researcher develops a theme: The rich peasants supported the old regime. He or she can record this theme in his or her notes and later assign to significance.

Researcher organizes evidence, using theoretical insights to stimulate new ways to organize data and for new questions to ask of evidence. The interaction of data and theory means that a researcher goes beyond a surface examination of the evidence based on theory. For example, a researcher reads a mass of evidence about a protest movement. The preliminary analysis organizes the evidence into a theme: People who are active in protest interact with each other and develop shared cultural meanings. He or she examines theories of culture and movements, then formulates new concept: "oppositional movement subculture." The researcher then uses this concept to re-examine the evidence.

Synthesizing

The researcher refines concepts and moves toward a general explanatory model after most of the evidence is in. Old themes or concepts are discussed or revised, and new ones are created. Concrete events are used to give meaning to concepts.
The researcher looks for patterns across time or units, and draws out similarities and differences with analogies. He or she organizes divergent events into sequences and groups them together to create a larger picture. Plausible explanations are then developed that subsume both concepts and evidence as he or she organizes the evidence into a coherent whole. The researcher then reads and rereads notes and sorts and resorts them into piles or files on the basis of organizing schemes. He or she looks for and writes down the links or connections he or she sees while looking at evidence in different ways.

Synthesis links specific evidence with an abstract model of underlying relations or causal mechanism. A researcher often looks for new evidence to verify specific links that appear only after an explanatory model is developed. He or she evaluates how well the model approximates the evidence and adjusts it accordingly.

Historical-comparative researchers also identify critical indicators and supporting evidence for themes or explanations. A *critical indicator* is unambiguous evidence, which is usually sufficient for inferring a specific theoretical relationship. Researchers seek these indicators for key parts of an explanatory model. Indicators critically confirm a theoretical inference and occur when many details suggest a clear interpretation.

Writing a Report

Combine evidence, concepts, and synthesis into a research report. The way in which the report is written is key in H-C research. Assembling evidence, arguments, and conclusions into a report is always a crucial step; but more than in quantitative approaches, the careful crafting of evidence and explanation makes or breaks H-C research. A researcher distills mountains of evidence into exposition and prepares extensive footnotes. She or he weaves together evidence and arguments to communicate a coherent, convincing picture to readers.

Data and Evidence in Historical context

Historical-comparative researchers draw on four types historical evidence or data:

1. Primary sources;
2. Secondary sources;
3. Running records; and
4. Recollections.

Traditional historians rely heavily on primary sources. H-C researchers often use secondary sources or the different data types in combination.

1. Primary Sources: The letters, diaries, newspapers, movies, novels, articles of clothing, photographs, and so forth are those who lived in the past and have survived to the present are the primary sources. They are found in archives (a place where documents are stored), in private collections, in family closets, or in museums. Today's documents and objects (our letters, television programs, commercials, clothing, and automobiles) will be primary sources for future historians. An example of a classic primary source is a bundle of yellowed letters written by a husband away at war to his wife and found in a family closet by a researcher.

Published and unpublished written documents are the most important type of primary source. Researchers find them in their original form or preserved in microfilm or on film. They are often the only surviving record of the words, thoughts, and feelings of people in the past. Written documents are helpful for studying societies and historical periods with writing and literate people. A frequent criticism of written sources is that elites or those in official organizations largely wrote them; thus the views of the illiterate, the poor, or those outside official social institutions may be overlooked.

The written word on paper was the main medium of communication prior to the widespread use of telecommunications, computers, and video technology to record events and ideas. In fact, the spread of forms of communication that do not leave a permanent physical record (e.g., telephone conversation), and which have largely replaced letters, written ledgers, and newspapers, make the work of future historians difficult.

***Potential Problems with Primary Sources*:** The key issue is that only a fraction of everything written or used in the past has survived into present. Moreover, whatever is survived is nonrandom sample of what once existed.

H-C researchers attempt to read primary sources with the eyes and assumptions of a contemporary who lived in the past. This means "bracketing," or holding back knowledge of subsequent events and modern values. "If you do not read the primary sources with an open mind and an intention to get inside the minds of the writings and look at things the way *they* saw them, you are wasting time." For example, when reading a source produced by a slaveholder, moralizing against slavery or faulting the author for not seeing its evil is not worthwhile. The H-C researcher holds back moral judgments and becomes a moral relativist while reading primary sources. He or she must think and believe like subjects under study, discover how they performed in their own eyes.

Another problem is that locating primary documents is a time consuming task. A researcher must search through specialized indexes and travel to archives or specialized libraries. Primary sources are often located in dusty, out-of-the-way room full of stacked cardboard boxes containing masses of fading documents. These may be incomplete, unorganized, and various stages of decay. Once the documents or other primary sources are located, the researcher evaluates them subjecting them to external and internal criticism.
External criticism means evaluating the authenticity of a document itself to be certain that it is not a fake or a forgery. Criticism involves asking: Was the document created when it is claimed to have been, in the place where it was supposed to be, and by the person who claims to be its author? Why was the document produced to begin with, and how did it survive? Once the document passes as being authentic, a researcher uses *internal criticism*, an examination of the document's contents to establish credibility. A researcher

evaluates whether what is recorded was based on what the author directly witnessed or is secondhand information.

Many types of distortions can appear in primary documents. One is *bowdlerization* – a deliberate distortion designed to protect moral standards or furnish a particular image. For example, photograph is taken of the front of a building. Trash and empty bottles are scattered all around the building, and the paint is faded. The photograph, however, is taken of the one part of the building that has little trash and is framed so that the trash does not show; dark room techniques make the faded paint look new.

2. Secondary Sources: Social researchers often use secondary sources, the books and articles written by specialist historians and other researchers, as an evidence of past conditions. It has its own limitations.

Potential Problems with Secondary Sources: The limitations of secondary historical evidence include problems of inaccurate historical accounts and lack of studies in areas of interest. Such sources cannot be used to test hypotheses. Post facto explanations cannot meet positivist criteria of falsifiability, because few statistical controls can be used and replication is not possible.

The many volumes of secondary sources present a maze of details and interpretations for an H-C researcher. He or she must transform the mass of specialized descriptive studies into an intelligible picture. This picture needs to be consistent with the reflective of the richness of the evidence. It also must bridge the many specific time periods and locals. The researcher faces potential problems with secondary sources.

One problem is reading the works of historians. Historians do not present theory-free, objective "facts." They implicitly frame raw data, categorize information, and shape evidence using concepts. The historian's concepts are a mixture drawn from journalism, language of historical actors, ideologies, Philosophy, everyday language in the present, and social science. Most lack a rigorous definition, are vague, are applied inconsistently, and are not mutually exclusive, nor exhaustive.

Second problem is that historian's selection procedure is not transparent. They select some information from all possible evidence. From the infinite oceans of facts historian selects those, which are significant for his purpose. Yet, the H-C researcher does not know how this was done. Without knowing the selection process, a historical-comparative researcher must rely on the historian's judgments, which can contain biases.

A third problem is in the organization of the evidence. Historians organize evidence as they write works of history. They often write *narrative history*. This compounds problems of undefined concepts and the selection of evidence. In the historical narrative, the writer organizes material chronologically around a single coherent "story." The logic is that of a sequence of unfolding action. Thus, each part of the story is connected to each other part by its place in the time order of events. Together all the parts form a unity or whole. Conjecture and contingency are the key elements of the narrative form. The contingency creates a logical interdependency between earlier and later elements.

With its temporal logic, the narrative organization differs from how the social researchers create explanations. It also differs from quantitative explanation in which the researcher identifies statistical patterns to infer causes. A major difficulty of the narrative is that the organizing tool – time order or position in a sequence of events – does not alone denote theoretical or historical causality. In other word, the narrative meets only one of the three criteria for establishing causality – that of temporal sequence.

Fourth and the last problem is that historiographic schools, personal beliefs, social theories influence a historian, as well as current events at the time research were conducted. Historians writing today examine primary material differently from how those writing in the 1920s did. In addition, there are various schools

of historiography (diplomatic, Marxist) that have their own rules for seeking evidence and asking questions. It is also said history gets written by the people in power; it may include what the people in power want to be included.

3. Running Records: Running records consist of files or existing statistical documents maintained by organizations. An example of a running record is keeping of vital statistics by the government departments in Pakistan; vital statistics relating to births, marriage, divorce, death, and other statistics of vital events. We also have so many documents containing running records relating to demographic statistics, and economic statistics being maintained by different agencies of UNO.

4. Recollections: The words or writing of individuals about their past lives or experiences based on memory are recollections. These can be in the form of memoirs, autobiographies, or interviews. Because memory is imperfect, recollections are often distorted in ways that primary sources are not.

In gathering *oral history*, a type of recollection, a researcher conducts unstructured interviews with people about their lives or events in the past. This approach is especially valuable for non-elite groups or the illiterate.

Evaluating the Documents

Historical-comparative researchers often use secondary sources or different data types in combination. For secondary sources they often use existing documents as well as the data collected by other organizations for research purposes. While looking into the authenticity of these document researchers often want answers to the questions like: Who composed the documents? Why were these written? What methods were used to acquire the information? What are some of the biases in the documents? How representative was the sample? What are the key categories and concepts used? What sorts of theoretical issues and debates do these documents cast light on?

Problems in Comparative Research

Problems in other types of research are magnified in a comparative study. In principle, there is no difference between comparative cross-cultural research and research conducted in a single society. The differences lie, rather, in the magnitude of certain types of problems.

The Units being compared:
For convenience, comparative researchers often use nation-state as their unit of analysis. The nation-state is the major unit used in thinking about the divisions of people across globe today. The nation-state is a socially and politically defined unit. In it, one government has sovereignty over populated territory. The nation-state is not the only unit for comparative research, but also frequently used as a surrogate for culture, which more difficult to define as a concrete, observable unit. The boundaries of nation-state may not match those of a culture. In some situations a single culture is divided into several nations (Muslim culture); in other cases, a nation-state contains more than one culture (Canada). The nation-state is not always the best unit for comparative research. A researcher should ask: What is the relevant comparative unit for my research question – the nation, the culture, a small region, or a subculture?

Problems of Equivalence: Equivalence is a critical issue in all research. It is the issue of making comparisons across divergent contexts, or whether a researcher, living in a specific time period and culture, correctly reads, understands, or conceptualizes data about people from different historical era or culture. Without equivalence, a researcher cannot use the same concepts or measures in different cultures or historical periods, and this makes comparison difficult, if not impossible. It is similar to the problems of validity in quantitative research. Look at the concept of a *friend*. We ask some body how many friends do

you have? People living in different countries may have different meanings attached to it. Even in Pakistan, we have variations in its meaning across the Provinces, and between rural and urban areas.

Ethical problems are less intense in H-C research than in other types of social research because a researcher is less likely to have direct contact with people being studied. Historical-comparative research shares the ethical concerns found in other non-reactive research techniques.

Lesson 35 & 36

HISTORICAL COMPARATIVE RESEARCH

History has several meanings; one of which could refer to 'the events of the past.' *Historiography* is the method of doing historical research or of gathering and analyzing historical evidence.

Historical-comparative research is a collection of techniques and approaches. It is a distinct type of research that puts historical time and /or cross-cultural variation at the center of research – that is, which treats what is studied as part of the flow of history and situated in cultural context.

Major questions

Historical comparative research is a powerful method for addressing big questions: How did major societal change take place? What fundamental features are common to most societies? Why did current social arrangements take a certain form in some societies but not in others? For example, historical-comparative researchers have addressed the questions of what caused societal revolutions in china, France, and Russia; how major social institutions, medicine, have developed and changed over two centuries; how basic relationships, like feelings about the value of children, change; why public policy toward the treatment of elderly developed in one way instead of another way in an industrial country; why South Africa developed a system of greater racial separation as the United States moved toward a greater racial integration.

Historical-comparative research is suited for examining the combination of societal factors that produce a specific outcome (e.g., civil war). It is also appropriate for comparing entire social system to see what is common across societies and what is unique, and to study long term change. An H-C researcher may apply a theory to specific cases to illustrate its usefulness. And he or she compares the same social processes and concepts in different cultural or historical contexts.

Researchers also use H-C method to reinterpret data or challenge old explanations. By asking different questions, finding new evidence, or assembling evidence in a different way, the H_C researcher raises questions about old explanations and finds support for new ones by interpreting the data in its cultural-historical context.

Historical-comparative research can strengthen conceptualization and theory building. By looking at historical events or diverse cultural contexts, a researcher can generate new concepts and broaden is or her perspective. Concepts are less likely to be restricted to a single historical time or to a single culture; they can be grounded in the experiences of people living in a specific cultural and historical context.

Historical-Comparative research focuses on:

- Tracing the development of social forms (patterns) overtime as well as its broad its broad historical processes, and
- Comparing those forms and its developmental processes across cultures (countries/nations).

Historical-Comparative research follows scientific approach:

- Can be a survey of events in history – could be through the study of documents.
  Organizations generally document themselves, so if one is studying the development of some organization he/she should examine its official documents: charters, policy statements, speeches by the leaders, and so on. Often, official government documents provide the data needed for analysis. To better appreciate the history of race relations in the United States on e could examine 200 years of laws and court cases involving race.

One could also do the communication analysis of different documents related to a particular issue (like the communication among the leaders of Pakistan movement through their letters, communication between the migrants to a new country and their relatives back in their country of origin)

Researcher could also get lot of information by interviewing people who may recall historical events (like interviewing participants in the Pakistan movement).

- Historical-Comparative researchers mostly do a longitudinal analysis i.e. look into the developmental processes of the issues under reference.
- Historical –Comparative researchers make cross-cultural comparisons of the social forms or economic form as well as the developmental processes of those forms, aiming at making generalizations.

Examples:

Social forms: Several researchers have examined the historical development of ideas about different forms of society. The have looked at the progression of social forms from simple to complex, from rural, from rural-agrarian to urban-industrial. The US anthropologist Lewis Morgan, for example, saw a progression from "savagery to "barbarism" to "civilization." Robert Redfield, another anthropologist, has more recently written of a shift from "folk society" to "urban society." Emile Durkheim saw social evolution largely as a process of ever-greater division of labor. Ibn-e-Khaldun looked at the cyclical process of change in the form of societies from nomadic (Al-badawi) to sedentary (Al-hadari). These researchers discuss the forces that produce changes as well as the characteristics of each form of society. The historical evidence collected by researchers from different sources about different societies supports the whole discussion.

Forms of economic systems: Karl Marx examined the forms of economic systems progressing historically from primitive to feudal to capitalistic. All history, he wrote in this context, was a history of class struggle – the "haves" struggling to maintain their advantages and the "have-nots" struggling for a better lot in life.
Looking beyond capitalism, Marx saw the development of a 'classless" society. In his opinion the economic forces have determined the societal system.
Not all historical studies in the social sciences have had this evolutionary flavor. Some social scientific readings of the historical record, in fact point to grand cycles rather than to linear progression (Ibn-e-Khaldun, P. Sorokin).

Economic forms and ideas: In his analysis of economic history, Karl Marx put forward a view of economic determinism. That is, he felt that economic factors determined the nature of all other aspects of society. Without denying that economic factors could and did affect other aspects of society, Max Weber argued that economic determinism did not explain everything. Indeed, Weber said, economic forms could come from non-economic ideas. In his research in the sociology of religion, Weber examined the extent to which religious institutions were the source of social behavior rather than mere reflection of economic conditions. His most noted statement of this side of the issue is found in *The Protestant Ethic and the Spirit of Capitalism.* John Calvin, a French theologian, was an important figure in the *Protestant* reformation of Christianity. Calvin thought that God had already decided the ultimate salvation or damnation of every individual; this idea is called *predestination*. Calvin also suggested that God communicated his decisions to people by making them either successful or unsuccessful during their earthly existence.
God gave each person an earthly "calling" – an occupation or profession – and manifested his or her success or failure through that medium. Ironically, this point of view led Calvin's followers to seek proof of their coming salvation by working hard, saving for economic success.
In Weber's analysis, Calvinism provided an important stimulus for the development of capitalism. Rather than "wasting" their money on worldly comforts, the Calvinists reinvested it in economic enterprises, thus providing the *capital* necessary for the development of capitalism. In arriving at this interpretation of the

origin of capitalism, Weber researched the official doctrines of the early Protestant churches, studied the preaching of Calvin and other church leaders, and examined other historical documents.

In three other studies, Weber conducted detailed analyses of Judaism, and the religions of China and India. Among other things, Weber wanted to know why capitalism had not developed in the ancient societies of China, India, and Israel. In none of the three religions did he find any teaching that would have supported the accumulation and reinvestment of capital – strengthening his conclusion about the role of Protestantism in that regard.

Logic of Historical-Comparative Research

Confusion over terms reigns H_C research. Researchers call what they do historical, comparative or historical-comparative, but mean different things. The key question is: Is there a distinct historical-comparative method and logic, or is there just social research that happens to examine social life in the past or in several societies? Some researchers use positivist, quantitative approach to study historical or comparative issues, while others rely on qualitative approach.

Quantitative approach: Positivist researchers reject the idea that there is a distinct H-C method. They measure variables, test hypotheses, analyze quantitative data, and replicate research to discover generalizable laws that hold across time and societies. They see no fundamental distinction between quantitative social research and historical-comparative research. They apply quantitative research techniques, with some minor adjustments, to study the past or other cultures.

- The researcher can focus on the issue in one society few societies or multiple societies.
- The researcher can focus on the issue in one time in the past or examine the issue across many years/periods in the past.
- The researcher can focus on the issue in the present or a recent past period.
- The researcher's analysis could be based primarily on quantitative data or qualitative data.
- Nevertheless, the debate continues.

H-C researchers sometimes use *time-series* data to monitor changing conditions over time, such as data on population, crime rates, unemployment, infant mortality rates, and so forth. The analysis of such data sometimes requires sophistication for purposes of comparability. In case the definitions of the concept vary, it becomes difficult to make comparisons. The definitions not only could vary across nations but also these could vary within the same country over time (In Pakistan the definition of literacy changed from what it was in first population census of 1951 and what we had later on).

Qualitative approach:
There are no easily listed steps to follow in the analysis of historical data. Max Weber used the German term *verstehen* –"understanding" – in reference to an essential quality of research in behavioral sciences. He meant that the researcher must be able to take on, mentally, the circumstances, views, and feelings of those being studied to interpret their actions appropriately.

The historical-comparative researcher must find patterns among the voluminous details describing the subject matter of study. Often this takes the form of what Weber called ideal types: conceptual models composed of the essential characteristics of the phenomena. Thus, for example, Weber himself conducted lot of research on bureaucracy. Having observed numerous bureaucracies, Weber detailed those qualities essential to bureaucracies in general: jurisdictional areas, hierarchically structured authority, written files, and so on. Weber did not merely list those characteristics common to all bureaucracies he observed. Rather, he needed to understand fully the essentials of bureaucratic operation to create a theoretical model of the "perfect" (ideal type) bureaucracy.

A distinct, qualitative historical-comparative research differs from the positivist approach. Historical-comparative researchers who use case studies and qualitative data may depart from positivist approach. Their research is an intensive investigation of a limited number of cases in which the social meaning and context are critical. Case studies even in one nation, can be very important. Without case studies, scholars "would continue to advance theoretical arguments that are inappropriate, outdated, or totally irrelevant for a specific region".
Historical-comparative researcher focuses on culture (patterns of behavior), tries to see through the eyes of those being studied, reconstructs the lives of the people studied, and examines particular individuals or groups.

A distinct H-C approach borrows from ethnography and cultural anthropology, and some varieties of H-C are close to "thick description" in their attempt to recreate the reality of another time or place.

A Distinct Historical-Comparative Approach

A distinct historical-comparative research method avoids the excesses of the positivist and interpretive approaches. It combines sensitivity to specific historical or cultural contexts with theoretical generalization. Historical-comparative researches may use quantitative data to supplement qualitative data and analysis. The logic and goals of H-C research are closer to those of field research than to those of traditional positivist approaches.

Similarities to Field Research:
First, both H-C research and field research recognize that the researcher's point of view is an avoidable part of research. Both involve interpretation, which introduces the interpreter's location in time, place, and world-view. H-C research does not try to produce a single, unequivocal set of objective facts. Rather, it is a confrontation of old with new or different world-views. It recognizes that the researcher's reading of historical or comparative evidence is influenced by an awareness of the past and by living in the present. Our present day consciousness of history is fundamentally different from the manner in which the past appeared to any foregoing people.

Second, both field and H-C research examine a great diversity of data. In both, the researcher becomes immersed in data to gain an emphatic understanding of events and people. Both capture subjective feelings and note how everyday, ordinary activities signify important social meaning. The researcher inquires, selects, and focuses on specific aspects of social life from the vast array of events, actions, symbols, and words. An H-C researcher organizes data and focuses attention on the basis of evolving concepts. He or she examines rituals and symbols and dramatize culture and investigates the motives, reasons, and justifications for behaviors.

Third, both field and H-C researchers often use *grounded theory*. Theory usually emerges during the process of data collection. Both examine data without beginning with fixed hypotheses. Instead, they develop and modify concepts and theory through a dialogue with the data, then apply theory to reorganize evidence. [Historically grounded theory means that concepts emerge from the analytic problem of history: ordering the past into structures, conjectures and events. History and theory can thus be simultaneously constructed.]

Fourthly, both field and H-C research involve a type of translation. The researcher's meaning system usually differs from that of people he or she studies, but he or she tries to penetrate and understand their point of view. Once the life, language, an perspective of the people being studied have been mastered, the researcher "translates" it for others who read his or her report.

Fifth, both field and H-C researchers focus on action, process, and sequence and see time process as essential. Both say that people construct a sense of social reality through actions that occur over time. Both see social reality simultaneously as something created and changed by people and as imposing a restriction on human choice.

Sixth, generalizations and theory are limited in field and H-C research. Historical and cross-cultural knowledge is incomplete and provisional, based on selective facts and limited questions. Neither deduces propositions or tests hypotheses in order to uncover fixed laws. Likewise replication is unrealistic because each researcher has a unique perspective and assembles a unique body of evidence. Instead, researchers offer plausible accounts and limited generalizations.

Unique Features of H-C Research: Despite its many similarities to field research, some important differences distinguish H-C research. Research on past and on an alien culture share much in common with each other, and what they share distinguishes them from other approaches.

First, the evidence of H-C research is usually limited and indirect. Direct observation and involvement by a researcher is often impossible. A H-C researcher reconstructs what occurred from the evidence, but he or she cannot have absolute confidence in his reconstruction. Historical evidence in particular depends on the survival of data from the past, usually in the form of documents (e.g., letters and newspapers). The researcher is limited to what has not been destroyed and what leaves a trace, record, or other evidence behind.

Second, H-C researchers interpret the evidence. Different people looking at the same evidence often ascribe different meanings to it, so a researcher must reflect on evidence. An understanding of it based on a first glance is rarely possible. The researcher becomes immersed in and absorbs details about a context. For example, a researcher examining the family in the past or a distant country needs to be aware of the full context (e.g., the nature of work, forms of communication, transportation technology, etc.).

Another feature is that a researcher's reconstruction of the past or another culture is easily distorted. Compared to the people being studied, H-C researchers is usually more aware of events occurring prior to the time studied, events occurring in places other than the location studied, and events that occurred after the period studied. This awareness gives the researchers a greater sense of coherence than was experienced by those living in the past or in an isolated social setting. Historical explanation surpasses any understanding while events are still occurring. The past we reconstruct is more coherent than the past when it happened.

A researcher cannot see through the eyes of those being studied. Knowledge of the present and changes over time can distort how events, people, laws, or even physical objects are perceived. When the building was newly built (say in 1800) and standing among similar buildings, the people living at the time saw it differently than people do in the 21st century.

H-C researcher does not use deterministic approach. H-C research takes an approach to causality that is more contingent than determinist. A H-C researcher often uses combinational explanations. They are analogous to a chemical reaction in which several ingredients (chemicals, oxygen) are added together under specified conditions (temperature, pressure) to produce an outcome (explosion). This differs from a linear causal explanation. H-C research focuses on whole cases and on comparisons of complex wholes versus separate variables across cases. The logic is more "A, B, and C appeared together in time and place, then D resulted" than "A caused B, and B caused C, and C caused D."

H-C researcher has the ability to shift between a specific context and a generalized context for purposes of comparison. A researcher examines several specific contexts, notes similarities and differences, then generalizes. He or she looks again at the specific context using the generalization. H-C researchers

compare across cultural-geographic units. They develop trans-cultural concepts for purposes of comparative analysis. In comparative research, a researcher translates the specifics of a context into a common, theoretical language. In historical research theoretical concepts are applied across time.

HISTORICAL-COMPARATIVE RESEARCH (Contd.) (Additional Reading)

Conducting historical-comparative research does not involve a rigid set of steps and, with only a few exceptions; it does not use complex or specialized techniques. Nevertheless, some guideline for doing historical-comparative research may be provided.

Conceptualizing the Object of Inquiry

An H-C researcher begins by becoming familiar with the setting and conceptualizes what is being studied. He or she may start with a loose model or set of preliminary concepts and apply them to specific setting. The provisional concepts contain implicit assumptions or organizing categories that he or she uses to see the world, "package" observations, and search through evidence.

Decide on the historical era or comparative settings (nations or units). If the researcher is not already familiar with historical era or comparative settings, he or she conducts an orientation reading (reading several general works). This will help the researcher grasp the specific setting, assemble organizing concepts, subdivide the main issue, and develop lists of questions relating to specific issue.

Locating Evidence

The researcher locates and gathers evidence through extensive bibliographic work. A researcher uses many indexes, catalogs, and reference works that list what libraries contain. For comparative research, this means focusing on specific nations or units and on particular kinds of evidence within each. The researcher frequently spends weeks searching for sources in libraries, travels to several different specialized research libraries, and reads dozens of books and articles. Comparative research often involves learning one or more foreign languages.

As the researcher masters the literature and takes numerous detailed notes, he or she completes many specific tasks: creating a bibliography list (on cards or on computer) with complete citations, taking notes that are neither too skimpy nor too extensive, leaving margins on note cards for adding themes later on, taking all note in the same format, and developing a file on themes or working hypothesis.

A researcher adjusts initial concepts, questions, or focus on the basis of what he or she discovers in the evidence. New issues and questions arise as he or she reads and considers a range of research reports at different levels of analysis (e.g., general context and detailed narratives on specific topic), and multiple studies on a topic, crossing topic boundaries.

Evaluating Quality of Evidence

As the H-C researcher gathers evidence, he or she asks two questions: Hoe relevant is the evidence to emerging research questions and evolving concepts? How accurate and strong is the evidence?
The question of relevance is difficult one. All documents may not be equally valuable in reconstructing the past. As the focus of research shifts, evidence that was not relevant can become relevant. Likewise, some evidence may stimulate new avenues of inquiry and search for additional confirming evidence.

Accuracy of evidence may be looked at for three things: the implicit conceptual framework, particular details that are required and empirical generalizations. H-C researcher evaluates alternative interpretations of evidence and looks for "silences," of cases where the evidence fails to address an event, topic, or issue.

Researchers try to avoid possible fallacies in the evidence. For example, a fallacy of pseudo proof is failure to place something into its full context. The evidence might state that that there was a 50 percent increase

in income taxes, but it is not meaningful outside of a context. The researcher must ask: Did other taxes decline? Did income increase? Did the tax incase apply to all income? Was everyone affected equally?

Organizing Evidence

As a researcher gathers evidence and locates new sources, he or she begins to organize the data. Obviously, it is unwise to take notes madly and let them pile up haphazardly. A researcher usually begins a preliminary analysis by noting low-level generalizations or themes. For example, in a study of revolution, a researcher develops a theme: The rich peasants supported the old regime. He or she can record this theme in his or her notes and later assign to significance.

Researcher organizes evidence, using theoretical insights to stimulate new ways to organize data and for new questions to ask of evidence. The interaction of data and theory means that a researcher goes beyond a surface examination of the evidence based on theory. For example, a researcher reads a mass of evidence about a protest movement. The preliminary analysis organizes the evidence into a theme: People who are active in protest interact with each other and develop shared cultural meanings. He or she examines theories of culture and movements, then formulates new concept: "oppositional movement subculture." The researcher then uses this concept to re-examine the evidence.

Synthesizing

The researcher refines concepts and moves toward a general explanatory model after most of the evidence is in. Old themes or concepts are discussed or revised, and new ones are created. Concrete events are used to give meaning to concepts.
The researcher looks for patterns across time or units, and draws out similarities and differences with analogies. He or she organizes divergent events into sequences and groups them together to create a larger picture. Plausible explanations are then developed that subsume both concepts and evidence as he or she organizes the evidence into a coherent whole. The researcher then reads and rereads notes and sorts and resorts them into piles or files on the basis of organizing schemes. He or she looks for and writes down the links or connections he or she sees while looking at evidence in different ways.

Synthesis links specific evidence with an abstract model of underlying relations or causal mechanism. A researcher often looks for new evidence to verify specific links that appear only after an explanatory model is developed. He or she evaluates how well the model approximates the evidence and adjusts it accordingly.

Historical-comparative researchers also identify critical indicators and supporting evidence for themes or explanations. A *critical indicator* is unambiguous evidence, which is usually sufficient for inferring a specific theoretical relationship. Researchers seek these indicators for key parts of an explanatory model. Indicators critically confirm a theoretical inference and occur when many details suggest a clear interpretation.

Writing a Report

Combine evidence, concepts, and synthesis into a research report. The way in which the report is written is key in H-C research. Assembling evidence, arguments, and conclusions into a report is always a crucial step; but more than in quantitative approaches, the careful crafting of evidence and explanation makes or breaks H-C research. A researcher distills mountains of evidence into exposition and prepares extensive footnotes. She or he weaves together evidence and arguments to communicate a coherent, convincing picture to readers.

Data and Evidence in Historical context

Historical-comparative researchers draw on four types historical evidence or data:

1. Primary sources;
2. Secondary sources;
3. Running records; and
4. Recollections.

Traditional historians rely heavily on primary sources. H-C researchers often use secondary sources or the different data types in combination.

1. Primary Sources: The letters, diaries, newspapers, movies, novels, articles of clothing, photographs, and so forth are those who lived in the past and have survived to the present are the primary sources. They are found in archives (a place where documents are stored), in private collections, in family closets, or in museums. Today's documents and objects (our letters, television programs, commercials, clothing, and automobiles) will be primary sources for future historians. An example of a classic primary source is a bundle of yellowed letters written by a husband away at war to his wife and found in a family closet by a researcher.

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***Potential Problems with Primary Sources*:** The key issue is that only a fraction of everything written or used in the past has survived into present. Moreover, whatever is survived is nonrandom sample of what once existed.

H-C researchers attempt to read primary sources with the eyes and assumptions of a contemporary who lived in the past. This means "bracketing," or holding back knowledge of subsequent events and modern values. "If you do not read the primary sources with an open mind and an intention to get inside the minds of the writings and look at things the way *they* saw them, you are wasting time." For example, when reading a source produced by a slaveholder, moralizing against slavery or faulting the author for not seeing its evil is not worthwhile. The H-C researcher holds back moral judgments and becomes a moral relativist while reading primary sources. He or she must think and believe like subjects under study, discover how they performed in their own eyes.

Another problem is that locating primary documents is a time consuming task. A researcher must search through specialized indexes and travel to archives or specialized libraries. Primary sources are often located in dusty, out-of-the-way room full of stacked cardboard boxes containing masses of fading documents. These may be incomplete, unorganized, and various stages of decay. Once the documents or other primary sources are located, the researcher evaluates them subjecting them to external and internal criticism.
External criticism means evaluating the authenticity of a document itself to be certain that it is not a fake or a forgery. Criticism involves asking: Was the document created when it is claimed to have been, in the place where it was supposed to be, and by the person who claims to be its author? Why was the document produced to begin with, and how did it survive? Once the document passes as being authentic, a researcher uses *internal criticism*, an examination of the document's contents to establish credibility. A researcher

evaluates whether what is recorded was based on what the author directly witnessed or is secondhand information.

Many types of distortions can appear in primary documents. One is *bowdlerization* – a deliberate distortion designed to protect moral standards or furnish a particular image. For example, photograph is taken of the front of a building. Trash and empty bottles are scattered all around the building, and the paint is faded. The photograph, however, is taken of the one part of the building that has little trash and is framed so that the trash does not show; dark room techniques make the faded paint look new.

2. Secondary Sources: Social researchers often use secondary sources, the books and articles written by specialist historians and other researchers, as an evidence of past conditions. It has its own limitations.

Potential Problems with Secondary Sources: The limitations of secondary historical evidence include problems of inaccurate historical accounts and lack of studies in areas of interest. Such sources cannot be used to test hypotheses. Post facto explanations cannot meet positivist criteria of falsifiability, because few statistical controls can be used and replication is not possible.

The many volumes of secondary sources present a maze of details and interpretations for an H-C researcher. He or she must transform the mass of specialized descriptive studies into an intelligible picture. This picture needs to be consistent with the reflective of the richness of the evidence. It also must bridge the many specific time periods and locals. The researcher faces potential problems with secondary sources.

One problem is reading the works of historians. Historians do not present theory-free, objective "facts." They implicitly frame raw data, categorize information, and shape evidence using concepts. The historian's concepts are a mixture drawn from journalism, language of historical actors, ideologies, Philosophy, everyday language in the present, and social science. Most lack a rigorous definition, are vague, are applied inconsistently, and are not mutually exclusive, nor exhaustive.

Second problem is that historian's selection procedure is not transparent. They select some information from all possible evidence. From the infinite oceans of facts historian selects those, which are significant for his purpose. Yet, the H-C researcher does not know how this was done. Without knowing the selection process, a historical-comparative researcher must rely on the historian's judgments, which can contain biases.

A third problem is in the organization of the evidence. Historians organize evidence as they write works of history. They often write *narrative history*. This compounds problems of undefined concepts and the selection of evidence. In the historical narrative, the writer organizes material chronologically around a single coherent "story." The logic is that of a sequence of unfolding action. Thus, each part of the story is connected to each other part by its place in the time order of events. Together all the parts form a unity or whole. Conjecture and contingency are the key elements of the narrative form. The contingency creates a logical interdependency between earlier and later elements.

With its temporal logic, the narrative organization differs from how the social researchers create explanations. It also differs from quantitative explanation in which the researcher identifies statistical patterns to infer causes. A major difficulty of the narrative is that the organizing tool – time order or position in a sequence of events – does not alone denote theoretical or historical causality. In other word, the narrative meets only one of the three criteria for establishing causality – that of temporal sequence.

Fourth and the last problem is that historiographic schools, personal beliefs, social theories influence a historian, as well as current events at the time research were conducted. Historians writing today examine primary material differently from how those writing in the 1920s did. In addition, there are various schools

of historiography (diplomatic, Marxist) that have their own rules for seeking evidence and asking questions. It is also said history gets written by the people in power; it may include what the people in power want to be included.

3. Running Records: Running records consist of files or existing statistical documents maintained by organizations. An example of a running record is keeping of vital statistics by the government departments in Pakistan; vital statistics relating to births, marriage, divorce, death, and other statistics of vital events. We also have so many documents containing running records relating to demographic statistics, and economic statistics being maintained by different agencies of UNO.

4. Recollections: The words or writing of individuals about their past lives or experiences based on memory are recollections. These can be in the form of memoirs, autobiographies, or interviews. Because memory is imperfect, recollections are often distorted in ways that primary sources are not.

In gathering *oral history*, a type of recollection, a researcher conducts unstructured interviews with people about their lives or events in the past. This approach is especially valuable for non-elite groups or the illiterate.

Evaluating the Documents

Historical-comparative researchers often use secondary sources or different data types in combination. For secondary sources they often use existing documents as well as the data collected by other organizations for research purposes. While looking into the authenticity of these document researchers often want answers to the questions like: Who composed the documents? Why were these written? What methods were used to acquire the information? What are some of the biases in the documents? How representative was the sample? What are the key categories and concepts used? What sorts of theoretical issues and debates do these documents cast light on?

Problems in Comparative Research

Problems in other types of research are magnified in a comparative study. In principle, there is no difference between comparative cross-cultural research and research conducted in a single society. The differences lie, rather, in the magnitude of certain types of problems.

The Units being compared:
For convenience, comparative researchers often use nation-state as their unit of analysis. The nation-state is the major unit used in thinking about the divisions of people across globe today. The nation-state is a socially and politically defined unit. In it, one government has sovereignty over populated territory. The nation-state is not the only unit for comparative research, but also frequently used as a surrogate for culture, which more difficult to define as a concrete, observable unit. The boundaries of nation-state may not match those of a culture. In some situations a single culture is divided into several nations (Muslim culture); in other cases, a nation-state contains more than one culture (Canada). The nation-state is not always the best unit for comparative research. A researcher should ask: What is the relevant comparative unit for my research question – the nation, the culture, a small region, or a subculture?

Problems of Equivalence: Equivalence is a critical issue in all research. It is the issue of making comparisons across divergent contexts, or whether a researcher, living in a specific time period and culture, correctly reads, understands, or conceptualizes data about people from different historical era or culture. Without equivalence, a researcher cannot use the same concepts or measures in different cultures or historical periods, and this makes comparison difficult, if not impossible. It is similar to the problems of validity in quantitative research. Look at the concept of a *friend*. We ask some body how many friends do

you have? People living in different countries may have different meanings attached to it. Even in Pakistan, we have variations in its meaning across the Provinces, and between rural and urban areas.

Ethical problems are less intense in H-C research than in other types of social research because a researcher is less likely to have direct contact with people being studied. Historical-comparative research shares the ethical concerns found in other non-reactive research techniques.

Lesson 37

FOCUS GROUP DISCUSSION

A visitor to a locality stops by a house and inquires about the address of a resident he wants to see. May be he starts talking with a couple of persons asking for their help. In the meantime, some other passersby, or coming out of other houses join, showing their curiosity about the issue. They ask for some more information about the resident concerned, and then start discussing among them to come up with the exact identification of the resident. As an outcome of this discussion they would guide the visitor to reach the destination. This is quite a common feature in a folk society (village, neighborhood in a city) where we may start talking with a couple of persons and others come and join the conversation. This is an example of *informal* focus group discussion, which is built upon the social networks that operate in a natural setting. These social networks include both kinsfolk and other neighbors. In some cases the participants may be the local decision makers.

In research, focus group discussions (FGD) are a more formal way of getting groups of people to discuss selected issues. A focus group discussion is a group discussion of 6-12 persons guided by a facilitator, during which group members talk freely and spontaneously about a certain topic. There may be some disagreement about the exact number of participants in the discussion, as one comes across variations in numbers (6 to 10, 6 to 12, 6 to15, 8to 10, 5 to 7) in different books on research methods. The trend has been toward smaller groups due to some problems with the larger groups, which like:

- In a bigger group each participant's speaking time is substantially restricted. Dominant/submissive relationships are almost inevitable.
- Frustration or dissatisfaction among group members is likely to result because of some members' inability to get a turn to speak. This produces lower quality and quantity of data.
- Participants are often forced into long speeches, often containing irrelevant information, when they get to speak only infrequently.
- The tendency for side conversations between participants increases.

In contrast, smaller group sessions are felt to provide greater depth response for each participant. The group is often more cohesive and interactive, particularly when participants are professionals, such as physicians or pharmacists.

The key factor concerning group size is generally the of group purpose. If the purpose of the group is to generate as many ideas as possible, a larger group may be most useful. If the purpose of the group is to maximize the depth of expression from each participant, a smaller group works better.

The Purpose of FGD

The purpose of an FGD is to obtain in-depth information on concepts, perceptions, and ideas of the group. An FGD aims to be more than a question-answer interaction (Focus group interview is different). Here the idea is that group members discuss the topic among themselves.

Formal Focus Groups

Formal groups are formally constituted, that is these are organized in advance by inviting the selected individuals to participate in the discussion on a specific issue. They are structured groups brought together in which the participants are expected to have similar background, age, sex, education, religion, or similar experiences. Similarity in background is likely to make them comfortable where they could express their viewpoint frankly and freely. If the big boss and his junior officer working in an organization together participate in an FGD, the junior officer may not be able to express his or her

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opinion freely in the presence of his/her boss. Similarly, in some situations the children may experience

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some inhibitions in expressing their views on a sensitive issue in the presence of their parents. A lot depends on the kind of issue that is to be discussed.

The group is guided by a moderator/facilitator. The participants address a specific issue (talk freely, agree or disagree among them) within a specified time in accordance with clearly spelled out rules of procedure.

Designing a Focus group Study

As with other approaches to studying social phenomena, designing a focus group study requires careful thought and reflection. Given that focus groups can be used for a variety of purposes within social research, the design of focus group study will depend on its purpose. At one extreme, FGD is used at the exploratory stage of the study (FGD may help in the identification of variables, formulation of questions and response categories) and at the other extreme, when qualitative information is needed on issues about which the researchers have substantial background knowledge and a reasonable grasp of the issues. Here we are focusing on the latter type of design.

How to conduct FGD?

The following guideline may be provided for conducting FGD.

1. Preparation:

- Selection of topic, questions to be discussed. It is appropriate to define and clarify the concepts to be discussed. The basic idea is to lay out a set of issues for the group to discuss. It is important to bear in mind that the moderator will mostly be improvising comments and questions within the framework set by the guidelines. By keeping the questions open-ended, the moderator ca stimulates useful trains of thought in the participants that were not anticipated.
- Selecting the study participants: Given a clear idea of the issues to be discussed, the next critical step in designing a focus group study is to decide on the characteristics of the individuals who are to be targeted for sessions. It is often important to ensure that the groups all share some common characteristics in relation to the issue under investigation. If you need to obtain information on a topic from several different categories of informants who are likely to discuss the issue from different perspectives, you should organize a focus group for each major category. For example a group for men and a group for women, or a group for older women and group for younger women. The selection of the participants can be on the basis of purposive or convenience sampling. The participants should receive the invitations at least one or two days before the exercise. The invitations should explain the general purpose of the FGD.
- Physical arrangements: Communication and interaction during the FGD should be encouraged in every way possible. Arrange the chairs in a circle. Make sure the area will be quite, adequately lighted, etc., and that there will be no disturbances. Try to hold the FGD in a neutral setting that encourages participants to freely express their views. A health center, for example, is not a good place to discuss traditional medical beliefs or preferences for other types of treatment. Neutral setting could also be from the perspective of a place where the participants feel comfortable to come over and above their party factions.

Conducting the session:

- One of the members of the research team should act as a "facilitator" or "moderator" for the focus group. One should serve as "recorder."
- ***Functions of the Facilitator:*** The facilitator should not act as an expert on the topic. His or her role is to stimulate and support discussion. He should perform the following functions:
  - **Introduce the session**: He or she should introduce himself/herself as facilitator and intro duce the recorder. Introduce the participants by name or ask them to introduce themselves (or develop some new interesting way of introduction). Put the participants at ease and explain the

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purpose of the FGD, the kind of information needed, and how the information will be used (e.g., for planning of a health program, an education program, et.).

- **Encourage discussion:** The facilitator should be enthusiastic, lively, and humorous and show his/her interest in the group's ideas. Formulate questions and encourage as many participants as possible to express their views. Remember there are no "right" or "wrong" answers. Facilitator should react neutrally to both verbal and nonverbal responses.
- **Encourage involvement:** Avoid a question and answer session. Some useful techniques include: asking for clarification (can you tell me more?); reorienting the discussion when it goes off the track (saying: wait, how does this relate to the issue? Using one participant's remarks to direct a question to another); bringing in reluctant participants (Using person's name, requesting his/her opinion, making more frequent eye contact to encourage his participation); dealing with dominant participants (avoiding eye contact or turning slightly away to discourage the person from speaking, or thanking the person and changing the subject).
- **Avoid being placed in the role of expert:** When the facilitator is asked for his/her opinion by a respondent, remember that he or she is not there to educate of inform. Direct the question back to the group by saying: "What do you think?" "What would you do?" Set aside time, if necessary, after the session to give participants the information they have asked.

  Do not try to give comments on everything that is being said. Do not feel you have to say Something during every pause in the discussion. Wait a little and see what happens.
- **Control the timing of the meeting but unobtrusively:** Listen carefully and move the discussion from topic to topic. Subtly control the time allocated to various topics so as to maintain interest. If the participants spontaneously jump from one topic to the other, let the discussion continue for a while because useful additional information may surface and then summarize the points brought up and reorient the discussion.
- **Take time at the end of the meeting to summarize, check for agreement and thank the participants:** Summarize the main issues brought up, check whether all agree and ask for additional comments. Thank the participants and let them know that their ideas had been valuable contribution and will be used for planning the proposed research/intervention/or what ever the purpose of FGD was.

  Listen to the additional comments made after the meeting. Sometime some valuable information surfaces, which otherwise may remain hidden.

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Lesson 38

FOCUS GROUP DISCUSSION (Contd.)

Functions of the Recorder

The recorder should keep a record of the content of the discussion as well as emotional reactions and important aspects of group interaction. Assessment of the emotional tone of the meeting and the group process will enable the researcher to judge the validity of the information collected during the FGD. Record the following:

- Date, time, and place:
- Names and characteristics of participants:
- General description of the group dynamics (level of participation, presence of a dominant participant, level of interest):
- Opinions of participants, recorded as much as possible in their own words, especially for key statements: and
- Vocabulary used, particularly in focus group discussions that are intended to assist in developing questionnaire or other material as stipulated under the topic.

It is highly recommended that a tape/video recorder (with permission) be used to assist capturing information. Even if a tape/video recorder is used, notes should be taken as well, incase the machine malfunctions and so that information will be available immediately after the session.
A supplementary role for the recorder could be to assist the facilitator (if necessary) by drawing his/her attention to:

- Missed comments from participants, and
- Missed topics (the recorder should have a copy of the discussion guide, key probe questions during the FGD).

If necessary, the recorder could also help resolve conflict situations that facilitator may have difficulty handling.

Number and duration of sessions: The number of **focus group sessions** to be conducted depends upon project needs, resources, and whether new information is still coming from the sessions (that is, whether contrasting views from various groups in the community are still emerging).

One should plan to conduct at least two different focus group discussions for each subgroup (for example two for males and two for females).

For **duration**, a focus group session typically lasts up to an hour and a half. Generally the first session with a particular type of group is longer than the following ones because all of the information is new. Thereafter, if it becomes clear that all the groups have the same opinion on particular topics, the facilitator may be able to move the discussion along more quickly to other topics that still elicit new points of view.

3. Analysis of Results

- After each focus group session, the facilitator and the recorder should meet to review and complete the notes taken during the meeting. This is also the right moment to evaluate how the focus group went and what changes might be made when facilitating future groups.
- A full report of the discussion should be prepared that reflects the discussion as completely as possible using the participants' own words. List the key statements, ideas, and attitudes expressed for each topic of discussion.
- After the transcript of the discussion is prepared, code the statements right away, using the left

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margin? Write comments in the right margin. Formulate additional questions if certain issues are still unclear or controversial and include them in the next FGD.

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- Further categorize the statements for each topic, if required. Compare answers of different subgroups (e.g., answers of young mothers and answers of mothers of above childbearing age in the FGD on changes in weaning practices).
  The findings must be recorded in coherent manner. For example, if young women in all focus group discussions state that they start weaning some 3-6 months earlier than their mothers did and the women above childbearing age confirm this statement, one is likely to have a solid finding. If findings contradict each other, one may need to conduct some more focus group discussions or bring together representatives from two different subgroups to discuss and clarify the differences.
- Summarize the data in a matrix, diagram, flowchart, or narrative, if appropriate, and interpret the findings.
- Select the most useful quotations that emerged from the discussions to illustrate the main ideas.

4. Report Writing

- Start with a description of the selection and composition of the groups of participants and a commentary on the group process, so the reader can assess the validity of the reported findings.
- Present the findings, following a list of topics and guided by the objective(s) of the FGD. Include quotations whenever possible, particularly for key statements.

Uses of Focus Group Discussions

- The primary advantage of focus groups is its ability to quickly and inexpensively grasp the core issues of the topic. One might see focus group discussions as *synergistic* i.e. the combined effort of the group will produce a wider range of information, insights, and ideas than will the accumulation of separately secured responses of a number of individuals. Even in non-exploratory research, focus group discussions produce a lot more information far more quickly, and at less cost than individual interviews.
- As part of exploratory research, focus group discussions help the researcher to focus on the issue and develop relevant research hypotheses. In the discussions the relevant variables are identified, and relationships are postulated. Once the variables are identified, the same focus group discussions help in the formulation
  of questions, along with the response categories, for the measurement of variables.
- Focus group discussion is an excellent design to get information form non-literates.
- Focus groups discussions are a good means to discover attitudes and opinions that might not be revealed through surveys. This is particularly useful when the researcher is looking at the controversial issue, and the individual might be able to give his opinion as such but not discuss the issue in the light of other viewpoints. In focus group discussions there is usually a *snowballing* effect. A comment by one often triggers a chain of views from other participants.
- Focus group discussions are well accepted in the folk communities, as this form of communication already exists whereby the local communities try to sort out controversial issues.
- Focus group discussions generate new ideas, questions about the issues under consideration. It may be called *serendipity (*surprise ideas). It is more often the case in a group than in an individual interview that some idea will drop out of the blue. The group also affords the opportunity to develop the idea to its full significance.
- Focus group discussions can supplement the quantitative information on community knowledge, attitude, and practice (KAP), which may have already been collected through survey research.
- Focus group discussions are highly flexible with respect to topic, number of participants, time schedule, location, and logistics of discussion.
- Focus group discussions provide a direct link between the researcher and the population under study. In fact most of the focus group discussions are held close to peoples places of living and

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work. It helps in getting the realistic picture of the issue directly from the people who are part of it.

- For some researchers, focus group discussions may be a fun. They enjoy discussing the issues directly with the relevant population.

Limitations

- Results of the focus group discussions cannot usually be used for generalization beyond the population from where the participants in FGD came. One important reason being the lack of their representative-ness about other populations.
- It is often seen that participants usually agree with the responses from fellow members (for different reasons). Without a sensitive and effective facilitator, a single, self-appointed participant may dominate the session. Researchers have to be cautious when interpreting the results.
- The moderator may influence focus group discussion and may bias the information.
- Focus group discussions may have limited value in exploring complex beliefs of individuals, which they may not share in open discussion.
- It is possible that focus group discussions may paint a picture of what is socially acceptable in the community rather than what is actually occurring or is believed. The picture may be given of what is ideally desirable and not what is really in practice. Participants may like to project a good image of their community to strangers; hence the information may be highly contaminated.

CASE STUDY

Case study is a comprehensive description and analysis of a single situation or a number of specific situations i.e. cases. It is an intensive description and analysis of a case. Researchers often use qualitative approach to explore the case in as rich a detail as possible. The examples could be a case study of a highly successful organization, a project (Orangi Pilot Project, Karachi), a group, a couple, a teacher, and a patient. In a way it is more like a clinical approach to study the case in detail.

If the researcher is looking at highly successful organization then he may have to look into all the factors that may have contributed to its success. The factors may relate to the availability of the financial resources, the management, the work environment, work force, the political atmosphere, and many more. All these factors may be considered as different dimensions for studying the organization. Similarly, one may do the case study of a happily married couple.

Data Sources

Usually the following sources are suggested:

- Naturalistic observations (ethnographic studies)
- Interviews
- Life histories
- Tests (Psychological, clinical)

In most of the cases the data sources may depend upon the nature of the case under investigation. If we are trying to do the case study of a community, then one shall be looking for naturalistic observations (ethnographic information), in-depth interviews with individuals, life histories of the people, and any thing, which may have previously been written about the community.

Preserve the unitary character of the object under study: The researcher tries to study the case as a whole by collecting the breadth of data about the totality of the unit. For the collection of such data a multidisciplinary approach may be used, which could help looking at the case from different

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perspectives prior to coming to some conclusions. Hence it is not a segmental study; therefore effort is made to study it as a whole and while making the analysis try to present it as a unit.

Case Control studies

It is also possible to select two groups (taking them as cases), one with an effect (study group) and the other without effect (control group). Both the cases are similar except for the effect. One could look at the case of Manga Mandi village, where, a few years back, deformities in the bones of children were observed in one part of the village. Here one could explore the totality of the background of affected and unaffected parts of the locality, each being treated as a unit. One could develop hypothesis by having an in-depth analysis of the affected and unaffected parts.

Case study is empirical

Case study is empirical because:

- It investigates a contemporary phenomenon within its real life context. It is retrospective study in which the researcher follows the research process from effect to its cause. It is a study back in time. Just like a medical practitioner who is treating his patient as a case, tries to diagnose his/her ailment by taking the case history, doing the physical examination, and if necessary, doing some laboratory tests. On the basis of the triangulation of all this information the medical doctor traces the cause of patient's present ailment. The information is empirical.
- When the boundaries between the phenomenon and context are not clearly evident, the researcher tries to use multiple sources of evidence. One could say that the researcher is trying to look at the case by using multiple dimensions, and trying to come up with a finding that is empirical.

Limitations

Despite the fact that the case study may be considered empirical yet it lack rigor in its approach. Therefore it has limitations with respect to the reliability of the findings. Also one could question whether the case is representative of some population.

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Lesson 39

REPORT WRITING

Although every report is custom-made for the project it represents, some conventions of report format are universal. These conventions have developed over a long period of time, and they represent a consensus about what parts are necessary to a good research report and how they should be ordered. The consensus is not an inviolable law, though. Each report writing book suggests its own unique format and every report writer has to pick and choose the parts and the order that work best for the project at hand. Many companies and universities also have an in-house, suggested report formats or writing guides that researchers should be aware of.

Report format: The general plan of organization for the parts of a written or oral research report. The researchers tailor the format to the project. The format of a research report may need adjustment for two reasons: (1) to obtain the proper level of formality and (2) to decrease the complexity of the report. We shall look at the most formal type i.e. a report for a large project done within an organization or one done by a research agency for a client company. This sort of report is usually bound with a permanent cover and may be hundreds of pages long.

Students who are writing a thesis shall have to follow the format requirements of the university where they shall be submitting it. Thesis format is little different, and it shall be explained as we proceed.

The Makeup of the Report – the Report Parts

- **Prefatory parts**
  1. Title fly page
  2. Title page
  3. Letter of transmittal
  4. Letter of authorization
  5. Table of contents
  6. Executive summary

- **Main body**
  1. Introduction
  2. Methodology
  3. Results
  4. Conclusions and recommendations
  5. References

- **Appended parts**
  1. Data collection forms (questionnaires, checklist, interview guide, other forms)
  2. Detailed calculations
  3. General tables
  4. Other support material
  5. Bibliography, if needed

Let us now look at each one of the parts of the report.

Prefatory Parts

Title Fly Page: Only the title appears on this page. For the most formal reports, a title fly page precedes the title page. Most of the reports don't have it. Maybe it is more like the dustcover of some books.

Title Page: The title page should include four items: the title of the report, the name(s) of the person(s)

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for whom the report was prepared, the name(s) of person(s) who prepared it, and the date of release or presentation.

The title should be brief but include three elements: (1) the variables included in the study, (2) the type of relationship among the variables, and (3) the population to which the results may be applied. Redundancies such as "A report of," "A discussion of," and "A study of" add length to title but little else. Single-word titles are also of little value.

Addresses and titles of recipients and writers may also be included.

(For thesis follow the format as prescribed by the relevant university)

Letter of Transmittal: This element is included in relatively formal and very formal reports. Its purpose is to release or deliver the report to the recipient. It also serves to establish some rapport between the reader and the writer. This is one part of the formal report where a personal, or even a slightly informal, tone should be used. The transmittal letter should not dive into report findings except in the broadest terms. This letter may be like:

Virtual Fniversity Lahore

December 15,

2006 Mr. K. M. Khalil
Vice President for
Marketing
……
.
……
.

Subject: Report on Employee Satisfaction and Organizational Commitment

Dear Mr.
Khalil,

Here is a report on Employee Satisfaction and Organizational Commitment. The report was prepared according to your authorization letter of April 15, 2006.

……
……
……
……

We are grateful to you for your cooperation in this important

study. Sincerely,

……
..
……
..

Letter of Authorization: This is a letter to the researcher approving the project, detailing who has responsibility for the project and indicating what resources are available to support it. The letter not

only shows who sponsored the research but also delineates the original request.

Researcher would not write this letter. In many situations, referring to the letter of authorization in the letter of transmittal is sufficient. If so, the letter of authorization need not be included in the report. In case the letter has to be included, exact copy of the original may be reproduced.

Table of Contents: A table of contents is essential to any report. It should list the divisions and subdivisions of the report with page references. The table of contents is based on the final outline of the report, but it should include first-level subdivisions. For short reports, it is sufficient to include only the main divisions. If the report includes many figures and tables, lists of these should immediately follow the table of contents. If lots of abbreviations have been used in the report, give a list of abbreviations, alphabetically arranged, after the list of figures/tables.

Executive Summary: It is vital part of the report. Studies have indicated that most managers always read a report's summary, whereas only a minority read the rest of the report. Thus, the only chance a writer may have to make an impact be in summary.

An executive summary can serve two purposes. It may be a report in miniature – covering all the aspects in the body of the report, but in abbreviated form. Or it may be a concise summary of the major findings and conclusions, including recommendations. On the whole the summary briefly tells why the research project was conducted, what aspects of the problem were considered, what the outcome was, and what should be done.

The summary should be written only after the rest of the report is completed. It represents the essence of the report. Two to three pages are generally sufficient for a properly condensed summary. (For very big reports which run into number of volumes, like the one finds in the feasibility reports of big projects, the summary may be very big.) The summary should be written to be self-sufficient. In fact, it is not uncommon for a summary to be detached from the report and circulated by itself.

The summary contains four elements:

1. The objectives of the report are stated, including the most important background and specific purposes of the project.
2. The major results are presented. The key results regarding each purpose should be included.
3. The conclusions that are based on the results. There should be logical interpretation of the results which could lead to the stated conclusions.
4. The recommendations or suggestions for action, which are based on the conclusions. The recommendations must logically emerge from the results.

In many cases managers prefer not to have recommendations included in the report or summary. The consultant may have to go by the demand of the client.

Note: In many reports, you may see that the executive summary comes first which is followed by the table of contents.

For students writing their thesis, in place of executive summary, they write an abstract of their thesis. This abstract is usually of one or two paragraphs. Abstract has information on the topic, the research problem, the basic findings, and any 'unusual' research design or data collection features.

Main Body

The main body constitutes the bulk of the report. It includes: Introduction, Methodology, Results, Conclusions, and Recommendations of the study.

Introduction: The introduction prepares the reader for the report by describing the parts of the project:

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background material, the problem statement, and research objectives of the study. In most projects, introduction can be taken from the research proposal submitted earlier by the consultant. The proposal itself was based on the terms of reference (TOR) supplied by the client.

Background could help in looking at the magnitude of the problem. It may include the results of exploration from an experience survey, focus group discussion, and secondary data from literature review. The background includes definitions, qualifications and assumptions. It gives the reader the information needed to understand the remainder of research report.

Problem statement contains the need for the research project. The problem is usually represented by the research question raised by the client. It explains why the project was worth doing.

Research objectives address the purpose of the project. These objectives may be research questions and associated investigative questions. In correlational or causal studies, the hypothesis statement may be included. At the end of the study the researcher may see the extent to which these objectives have been addressed.

For Thesis: After introduction, for **s**tudents writing their thesis, it is recommended that they should have three separate chapters on review of literature, theoretical framework, and hypothesis or research question along with the operationalization of variables. These chapters may be in line with the steps in research that we discussed as part of the research process.

Methodology: Technical procedures for carrying out the study must be explained in a manner appropriate for the reader. It may be useful to supplement the material in this section with more detailed explanation in the appendix. This part of the report should address seven topics:

1. *Research design:* Was the study exploratory, descriptive, or causal? A specific strategy was used to conduct this study. Why was this particular design suited to the study?
2. *Data collection methods:* Did the data come from primary sources or secondary sources? How the primary data were collected – survey, experiment, observation? It is possible that multiple techniques may have been used – all these have to be explained.
3. *Sample design:* What was the target population? What sampling frame was used? What type of sampling was used? What was the selection procedure used?
4. *Instrument(s) of data collection:* What instrument(s) of data collection was (were) used? Why a particular instrument was selected? Include a copy of each instrument in the appendix.
5. *Fieldwork/data collection:* How many and what type of fieldworkers were used? What training and supervision did they receive? How was the quality control assured?
6. *Analysis:* How was the analysis carried out? How was the data reduction handled? Tell about the scoring scheme used. Outline the statistical methods applied for the analysis of the data.
7. *Limitations:* No report is perfect, so it is important to indicate the report's limitations. If there were problems with non-response error or sampling procedures, they should be discussed. The discussion of limitations should avoid overemphasizing the weaknesses. Its aim should be to provide a realistic basis for assessing the results.

Results: The presentation of results will occupy the bulk of the report. This section presents in some logical order those findings of the project that bear on the objectives. The results should be organized as a continuous narrative, designed to be convincing but not oversell the project. Summary tables and charts should be used to aid the discussion. Tables and charts may serve as points of reference to the data being discussed and free the prose from an excess of facts and figures. Comprehensive or detailed charts should be reserved for the appendix.

Conclusions and recommendations: The last part of the body of the report presents the conclusions and recommendations based on results. Findings state facts; conclusions represent inferences drawn from findings. A writer is sometimes reluctant to make conclusions and leaves the task to the reader. Avoid this temptation when possible. As the researcher, you are the one best informed on the factors

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that critically influence the findings and conclusions.

Recommendations emerge out of conclusions. These are actually suggestions for action in an applied research. The researcher may present several alternatives with justification. In academic research, the recommendations are often further study suggestions that broaden or test understanding of the subject area. The conclusions and recommendations are presented here in more detail than in the executive summary, with whatever justification is needed.

References: All citations used in the study must be given by arranging them alphabetically by the last name of the author.

For your thesis

For your thesis, the following outline of chapters is suggested:

- Introduction
- Review of Literature
- Theoretical Framework
- Hypothesis and Operationalization of Concepts
- Research Design
- Analysis of Data
- Summary, Conclusions, and Recommendations
- References
- Appendixes

Appended Parts

Appendix: The appendix presents the "too …" material. Any material that is too technical or too detailed to go to the body should appear in appendix. This includes materials of interest only to some readers, or subsidiary materials not directly related to the objectives. Some examples of appendix material are data collection forms (instruments), detailed calculations, discussions of highly technical questions, detailed or comprehensive tables of results, and a bibliography (if appropriate).

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Lesson 40

REFERENCING

There is a general mix up or referencing with bibliography; though the purposes are different. A **bibliography** is the listing of the works that are relevant to the topic of research interest arranged in alphabetical order of the last names of authors. A **reference** list is a subset of the bibliography, which includes details of all the citations used in literature survey and elsewhere in the report, arranged again, in the alphabetical order of the last names of authors. These citations have the goals of crediting the author and enabling the reader to find the works cited.

Giving references in the report or thesis is a must, whereas the bibliography is additional information and is certainly optional. There should be no mixing up of the meanings.

There are different modes of referencing being followed by different disciplines. Find out what mode is followed in your discipline. For example, psychologists follow the publication manual of American Psychological Association (APA), and sociologists follow guidelines given in the manual of American Sociological Association. Similarly, other subjects follow their professional associations. Each of these manuals specifies, with examples, how books, journals, newspapers, dissertations, and other materials are to be referenced in manuscripts. Whichever the style you pick up, follow it consistently. Since APA format is followed for referencing in many journals in management area, we shall present that here as a specimen. All the citations mentioned in the research report should find a place in the References section at the end of the report.

Specimen Format for citing different Types of References

Book by a single author

Leshin, C. B. (1997). *Management on the World Wide Web.* Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice- Hall.
Start with the last name, put a comma and then initials with full stop. It is followed by the year of publication in parentheses with a full stop. Then we have the title of the publication; all in small words (unless there is some name which has to be with capital letter as it is in this title) and in italics. Give full stop at the end. It is followed by place of publication with a colon at the end. After the colon give the name of the publisher. Second line of the reference should be indented by giving five spaces.

Give two spaces for separating the references.

Book by more than one author

Cornett, M., Wiley, B. J., & Sankar, S. (1998). *The pleasures of nurturing.* London: McMunster Publishing.
It is the same as the previous one except there is the use & separating the last author from its preceding one. See it is not written ‘and’ but being used as symbol ‘&.’

Edited book

It is a book of readings or called Reader, which contains sections/articles written by a number of authors. These articles may have been published earlier in different journals/books or these may have been specially written for this book. Such a book has an editor or editors who collected these articles, edited them and published.
Pennathur, A., Leong, F. T., & Schuster, K. (Eds.) (1998). *Style and substance of thinking*. New York: Wilson Press.

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Here after the names of the editors, the word editors is abbreviated as "Eds." And put in parentheses. Other instructions remain the same.

Chapter in an edited book

This is an article written by single or multiple authors and is printed in the edited book.

Riley, T., & Brecht, M. L. (1998). The success in mentoring process. In R. Williams (Ed.) *Mentoring and career success.* pp. 129-150. New York: Wilson Press.

We start with the name(s) of the author(s); same instructions. Then the title of the article published in this edited book. The title is in small letters except the letter of the first word. It is not to be put in italics or in bold. Give full stop at the end of the title. Then we tell about the book and its editor in which it was published. Here the editor's name does not start with the last name, but is kept straight as initials and then the last name. It is followed by the title of the book which is in italics. After the title, we specify the pages of the book on which this article appeared. Rest is the same i.e. place of publication and the publisher.

Journal Article

Jean quart, S., & Peluchette, J. (1997). Diversity in the workforce and management models. *Journal of Social Work Studies*, 43 (3), 72-85.

The title of the article is in small letters. The name of the journal is in italics. Such professional journals are well known in the academic community, therefore, the place of publication and the publisher is not given. Instead, it volume and number in the volume is given. All the issues published in one year are one volume. There could be number of issues in a volume. Both the volumes and issues are numbered. In this example 43 is the volume and 3 given in the parentheses is the number in this volume. It is followed by the pages on which this article was published.

Conference Proceedings publications

Gardezi, H. N. (2005). Population policy of Pakistan. In Z. Sathar (Ed.), *Proceedings of the Third Conference on Research and Population,* (pp. 100-107). Islamabad: Population Council.

Doctoral Dissertation

Chaudhary, M.A. (2004). *Medical advances and quality of life.* Unpublished doctoral Dissertation, Virtual University

Paper presented at conference

Qureshi, Q. A. (2005, May 16). *Practical tips for efficient management*. Paper presented at The annual meeting Entrepreneurs, Lahore.

It is possible that the proceeding of a conference have not been published. The researcher got hold of paper that was presented at the conference and wanted to do it citation. Here along with the year of the conference, the date is also given. Title of the paper is in italics. Then give some information about owners of the conference, followed by place where the conference was held.

Fnpublished Manuscript

Kashoor, M. A. (2005). *Training and development in the '90s.* Unpublished manuscript, Virtual

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University.

Newspaper Article

The GM Pact. (2005, May 16). *The Dawn,* p. 4.

Referencing Electronic Sources

Ahmad, B. (2005). Technology and immediacy of information. [On line]
Available http://www.bnet.act.com

Just giving the site on the internet is not sufficient. It is necessary that the name of the author and title of the writing should be given. Internet site is actually in place of the publisher and the place of publication.

Referencing and quotation in Literature review

Cite all references in the body of the report using the author-year method of citation; that is, the last name of the author(s) and the year of publication are given at the appropriate places. Examples of this are as follows:

a. Rashid (2005) has shown …

b. In recent studies of dual earner families (Khalid, 2004; Hameed, 2005) it has been ….

c. In 2004, Maryam compared dual earner and dual career families and found that ….

As can be seen from the above, if the name of the author appears as part of the narrative as in the case of (a), the year of publication alone has to be cited in parentheses. Note that in case (b), both the author and the year are cited in parentheses, separated by comma. If the year and the author are part of the textual discussion as in (c) above, the use of parentheses is not warranted.

Note also the following:

1. Within the same paragraph, you need not include the year after the first citation so long as the study cannot be confused with other studies cited in the article. An example of this is: Gutek (1985) published her findings in the book titled *Sex and the Workplace*. Gutek indicated …
2. When the work is authored by two individuals, always cite both names every time the reference occurs in the text.
3. When a work has more than two authors but fewer than six authors, cite all authors the first time the reference occurs, and subsequently include only the last name of the first author followed by "et al." as per example below:
   Sekaran, U., Martin, T., Trafton, N., and Osborn R. N. (1980) found …
   (first citation) Sekaran et al. (1980) found … (subsequent citations)
4. When a work is authored by six or more individuals cite only the last name of the first author followed by 'et al.' and the year for the first and subsequent citations. Join the names in a multiple-author citation in running text by the word "and." In parenthetical material, in tables, and in reference list, join the names by an ampersand (&). Examples are given below:
   a. As tucker and Snell (1989) pointed out …
   b. As has been pointed out (Tucker & Snell, 1989) …
5. When a work has no author, cite in the text the first two or three words of the article title. Use double quotation marks around the title of the article. For example, while referring to the newspaper article, the text might be read as: While examining unions ("with GM pact," 1990).
6. When a work's author is designated as "Anonymous," cite in the text, the word *Anonymous*

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followed by a comma and the date: (Anonymous, 1979). In the reference list, an anonymous work is alphabetized by the word *Anonymous.*

7. When the same author has several works published in the same year, cite them in the same order as they occur in the reference list, with the in-press citations coming last. For example: Research on the mental health of dual-career family members (Sekaran, 1985a, 1985b, 1985c, 1999, in press) indicates …
8. When more than one author has to be cited in the text, these should be in alphabetical order of the first author's last name, and the citations should be separated by semicolons as per illustration: In the job design literature (Aldag & Brief, 1976; Alderfer, 1972; Beatty, 1982; Jeanquart, 1998) …

Personal communication through letters, memos, telephone conversations, and the like, should be cited in the text only and not included in the reference list since these are not retrievable data. In the text, provide the initials as well as the last name of the communicator together with date, as in the following example:
R. Qureshi (personal communication, November 15, 2006) feels …

Quotations in Text

Quotations should be given exactly as they appear in the source. The original wording, punctuation, spellings, and italics must be preserved even if they are erroneous. The citation of the source of direct quotation should always include the page number(s) as well as the reference.

Use double quotation marks for quotations in the text. Use single quotation marks to identify the material that was enclosed in double quotation marks in the original source. If you want to emphasize certain words in the quotation, underline them and immediately after the underlined words, insert within brackets the words: *italics added.* Use three ellipsis points (…) to indicate that you have omitted material from the original source.

If the quotation is more than 40 words, set in a free-standing style starting on a new line and indenting the left margin a further five spaces. Type the entire quotation double spaced on the new margin, indenting the first line of paragraphs from the new margin.

If you intend publishing an article in which you have quoted extensively from a copyright work, it is important that you seek written permission from the owner of the copyright. Make sure that you also footnote the permission obtained with respect to the quoted material. Failure to do so may result in unpleasant consequences, including legal action taken through copyright protection laws.

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Lesson 41

QUALITATIVE TECHNIQUES

Common sense and research both involve an attempt to understand various aspects of the world. However, research, but arguably not common sense, involves an explicit, systematic approach to finding things out, often through a process of testing out preconceptions. This process begins with deciding on a research question. It is then necessary to conduct a literature review and to decide on a research design which addresses the research question. Decisions made at this point include considering what kind of data will be collected, how they will be collected, who will be invited to participate and how the data will be analyzed.

Researchers working in the social sciences: psychology, sociology, anthropology etc., interested in studying human behavior and the social world inhabited by human beings, found increasing difficulty in trying to explain human behavior in quantifiable, measurable terms. Measurements tell us how often or how many people behave in a certain way, so if a research question involves exploring how much or how often something happens, it‟s probably appropriate to use quantitative methods. Qualitative research attempts to broaden and/or deepen our understanding of how things came to be the way they are in our social world. If the research question involves exploring how people experience something, or what their views are, exploring a new area where issues are not yet understood or properly identified (e.g. before developing questionnaire items), assessing whether a new service is implementable, looking at „real-life‟ context, your team probably needs to discuss using qualitative methodology.

So, qualitative research is a form of social inquiry that focuses on the way people interpret and make sense of the experiences and the world in which they live. This kind of research has an aim to understand the social reality of individual, group and cultures. Researchers use qualitative research to explore the behavior, experiences, perspectives and feeling of people and what lies at the core of their lives. The basis of qualitative research lies in the interpretive approach of social reality and in the description of lived experience of human beings.

Qualitative researchers contend that it is virtually impossible to understand why someone did something or why something happened in an organization without talking to people about it. Imagine if a police tried to solve a serious crime without being able to talk to the suspects or witnesses. If the police were restricted to using only quantitative data, almost no crimes would be solved. Image if lawyers and judges were not allowed to question or cross-examine witnesses in court, the validity and reliability of any court decision would be thrown into serious doubt. So, likewise, qualitative researchers argue that if you want to understand people`s motivations, their reasons, their actions, and the context for their beliefs and actions in an in-depth way, qualitative research is best.

Comparison of Qualitative and Quantitative Research:

The goal of qualitative research is to gain an in depth understanding and explanation of some particular social phenomenon typically done by attempting to understand the lived experiences of the participants and how they construct meaning and make sense of their experiences. Frequently, the data collection is done by interviewing; however, an understanding of the social phenomenon and personal lived experiences of individuals might be gained via non-intrusive qualitative approaches in which the researcher might use texts, journals, written narratives, observations, or other unobtrusive measures to examine the traces of humans and how they were affected by some ideological, social, psychological, legal, political, and/or technological factors. Qualitative research seeks to answer questions that focus on the meaning, essence, and interpretation of social phenomena with as little disruption to the natural setting as possible. Frequently central qualitative research questions begin with "How?" and/or "Why?" questions, but can begin with a "What?" question as well.

Quantitative research, on the other hand, explores descriptive analysis of characteristics through variables or answers questions about the relationships among variables (values assigned to

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characteristics or factors) with the purpose of measuring, explaining, predicting, confirming, validating, testing, or controlling phenomena.

Quantitative research studies generally end with a summation of the verification process, which is a confirmation or disconfirmation of the hypotheses tested via deductive reasoning. Conclusively, the aim of qualitative research is discovery, while the aim of quantitative research is verification.

Qualitative Research Methods:

All qualitative researchers need to decide how they are going to investigate the social world. How are you going to answer your research questions? For example, do you need to study organization in public sector, consumers, or managers? Do you want to study one case or many?

Although there are various definitions in the literature but simple a research method can be defined as a strategy of enquiry. A research method is a way of finding empirical data about the world. Each research method builds on a set of underlying philosophical assumptions and the choice of research method influences the way in which the researcher collect the data. Specific research methods also imply different skills and research practices.

Five qualitative research methods are discussed in this subject as discussed by John W. Creswell in his book. Following are the five qualitative research methods:

1. Narrative Research.
2. Phenomenology.
3. Grounded Theory.
4. Ethnography.
5. Case Study.

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Lesson 42

NARRATIVE RESEARCH

Narrative research has many forms, uses a variety of analytic practices, and is rooted in different social and humanities disciplines. "Narrative" might be the term assigned to any text or discourse, or, it might be text used within the context of a mode of inquiry in qualitative research, with a specific focus on the stories told by individuals. Narrative can be both a method and the phenomenon of study. As a method, it begins with the experiences as expressed in lived and told stories of individuals. Writers have provided ways for analyzing and understanding the stories lived and told. It can also be defined as a specific type of qualitative design in which "narrative is understood as a spoken or written text giving an account of an event/action or series of events/actions, chronologically connected". The procedures for implementing this research consist of focusing on studying one or two individuals, gathering data through the collection of their stories, reporting individual experiences, and chronologically ordering (or using life course stages) the meaning of those experiences.

Although narrative research originated from literature, history, anthropology, sociology, sociolinguistics, and education, different fields of study have adopted their own approaches.

Types of narrative study.

1. A biographical study is a form of narrative study in which the researcher writes and records the experiences of another person's life.

2. Autobiography is written and recorded by the individuals who are the subject of the study.

3. A life history portrays an individual's entire life, while a personal experience story is a narrative study of an individual's personal experience found in single or multiple episodes, private situations, or communal folklore.

4. An oral history consists of gathering personal reflections of events and their causes and effects from one individual or several individuals.

Narrative studies may have a specific contextual focus, such as teachers or children in classrooms or the stories told about organizations. Narratives may be guided by a theoretical lens or perspective. It may be a feminist lens used to report the stories of women, a lens that shows how women's voices are muted, multiple, and contradictory.

Procedures for Conducting Narrative Research

As a general procedural guide, the methods of conducting a narrative study do not follow a lock-step approach, but instead represent an informal collection of topics.

1. Determine if the research problem or question best fits narrative research. Narrative research is best for capturing the detailed stories or life experiences of a single life or the lives of a small number of individuals.

2. Select one or more individuals who have stories or life experiences to tell, and spend considerable time with them gathering their stories through multiples types of information. Stories are referred as "field texts." Research participants may record their stories in a journal or diary, or the researcher might observe the individuals and record field notes. Researchers may also collect letters sent by the individuals; assemble

3. Collect information about the context of these stories. Narrative researchers situate individual stories within participants' personal experiences (their jobs, their homes), their culture (racial or ethnic), and their historical contexts (time and place).

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4. Analyze the participants' stories, and then "restore' them into a framework that makes sense. Restoring is the process of reorganizing the stories into some general type of framework. This framework may consist of gathering stories, analyzing them for key elements of the story (e.g., time, place, plot, and scene), and then rewriting the stories to place them within a chronological sequence.

5. Collaborate with participants by actively involving them in the research. As researchers collect stories, they negotiate relationships, smooth transitions, and provide ways to be useful to the participants. In

Narrative research, a key theme has been the turn toward the relationship between the researcher and the researched in which both parties will learn and change in the encounter. In this process, the parties negotiate the meaning of the stories, adding a validation check to the analysis. "Narrative inquiry is stories lived and told," said Clandinin and Connolly (2000, p. 20).

Challenges

Given these procedures and the characteristics of narrative research, narrative research is a challenging approach to use. The researcher needs to collect extensive information about the participant, and needs to have a clear understanding of the context of the individual's life. It takes a keen eye to identify in the source material gathered the particular stories that capture the individual's experiences. As Edel (1984) comments, it is important to uncover the "figure under the carpet" that explains the multilayered context of a life. Active collaboration with the participant is necessary, and researchers need to discuss the participant's stories as well as be reflective about their own personal and political background, which shapes how they "restore" the account. Multiple issues arise in the collecting, analyzing, and telling of individual stories. Pinnegar and Daynes (2006) raise these important questions: Who owns the story? Who can tell it? Who can change it? Whose version is convincing? What happens when narratives compete? As a community, what do stories do among us?

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Lesson 43

PHENOMENOLOGY

Whereas a narrative study reports the life of a single individual, a phenomenological study describes the meaning for several individuals of their lived experiences of a concept or a phenomenon. Phenomenologists focus on describing what all participants have in common as they experience a phenomenon (e.g., grief is universally experienced). The basic purpose of phenomenology is to reduce individual experiences with a phenomenon to a description of the universal essence.

This human experience may be phenomena such as insomnia, being left out, anger, grief, or undergoing coronary artery bypass surgery. The inquirer then collects data from persons who have experienced the phenomenon, and develops a composite description of the essence of the experience for all of the individuals. This description consists of "what" they experienced and "how" they experienced it.

Types of Phenomenology

Two approaches to phenomenology are highlighted in this discussion: hermeneutic phenomenology and empirical, transcendental, or psychological phenomenology.

Hermeneutical phenomenology describes research as oriented toward lived experience (phenomenology) and interpreting the "texts" of life (hermeneutics) as available in blogs and tweets etc.

Transcendental or psychological phenomenology is focused less on the interpretations of the researcher and more on a description of the experiences of participants. In addition, it uses a concept of bracketing, in which investigators set aside their experiences, as much as possible, to take a fresh perspective toward the phenomenon under examination. Hence, "transcendental" means "in which everything is perceived freshly, as if for the first time.

The procedures consist of identifying a phenomenon to study, bracketing out one's experiences, and collecting data from several persons who have experienced the phenomenon. The researcher then analyzes the data by reducing the information to significant statements or quotes and combines the statements into themes. Following that, the researcher develops a textural description of the experiences of the persons (what participants experienced), a structural description of their experiences (how they experienced it in terms of the conditions, situations, or context), and a combination of the textural and structural descriptions to convey an overall essence of the experience.

Procedures for Conducting Phenomenological Research

Moustakas's (1994) approach has systematic steps in the data analysis procedure and guidelines for assembling the textual and structural descriptions. The major procedural steps in the process would be as follows:

- The researcher determines if the research problem is best examined using a phenomenological approach. The type of problem best suited for this form of research is one in which it is important to understand several individuals' common or shared experiences of a phenomenon. It would be important to understand these common experiences in order to develop practices or policies, or to develop a deeper understanding about the features of the phenomenon.

- A phenomenon of interest to study, such as anger, professionalism, what it means to be underweight, or what it means to be a wrestler, is identified.

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• Data are collected from the individuals who have experienced the phenomenon. Often data collection in

Phenomenological studies consist of in-depth interviews and multiple interviews with participants. Polkinghorne (1989) recommends that researchers interview from 5 to 25 individuals who have all experienced the phenomenon. Other forms of data may also be collected, such as observations, journals, art, poetry, music, taped conversations, formally written responses, accounts of vicarious experiences of drama, films, poetry, novels and other forms of art.

• The participants are asked two broad, general questions: What have you experienced in terms of the phenomenon? What contexts or situations have typically influenced or affected your experiences of the phenomenon? Other open-ended questions may also be asked.

• Phenomenological data analysis steps are generally similar for all psychological phenomenologists. Building on the data from the first and second research questions, data analysts go through the data (e.g., interview transcriptions) and highlight "significant statements," sentences, or quotes that provide an understanding of how the participants experienced the phenomenon. Moustakas (1994) calls this step horizonalization. Next, the researcher develops clusters of meaning from these significant statements into themes.

• The significant statements and themes are used to write a description of what the participants experienced (textural description). They are also used to write a description of the context or setting that influenced how the participants experienced the phenomenon, called imaginative variation or structural description. Researchers also write about their own experiences and the context and situations that have influenced their experiences.

• From the structural and textural descriptions, the researcher then writes a composite description that presents the "essence" of the phenomenon, called the essential, invariant structure (or essence). Primarily this passage focuses on the common experiences of the participants

Challenges

Phenomenology requires at least some understanding of the broader philosophical assumptions, and these should be identified by the researcher. The participants in the study need to be carefully chosen to be individuals who have all experienced the phenomenon in question, so that the researcher, in the end, can forge a common understanding. Bracketing personal experiences may be difficult for the researcher to implement. An interpretive approach to phenomenology would signal this as impossibility for the researcher to become separated from the text. Thus, the researcher needs to decide how and in what way his or her personal understandings will be introduced into the study.

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Lesson 44

GROUNDED THEORY

Although a phenomenology emphasizes the meaning of an experience for a number of individuals, the intent of a grounded theory study is to move beyond description and to generate or discover a theory, an abstract analytical schema of a process (or action or interaction, Strauss & Corbin, 1998). Participants in the study would all have experienced the process, and the development of the theory might help explain practice or provide a framework for further research. A key idea is that this theory-development does not come "off the shelf," but rather is generated or "grounded" in data from participants who have experienced the process (Strauss & Corbin, 1998). Thus, grounded theory is a qualitative research design in which the inquirer generates a general explanation (a theory) of a process, action, or interaction shaped by the views of a large number of participants (Strauss & Corbin, 1998).

This qualitative design was developed in sociology in 1967 by two researchers, Barney Glaser and Anselm Strauss, who felt that theories used in research were often inappropriate and ill-suited for participants under Study. They elaborated on their ideas through several books. In contrast to the a priori, theoretical orientations in sociology, grounded theorists held that theories should be "grounded" in data which will be taken from the field, especially in the actions, interactions, and social processes of people. Thus, grounded theory provided for the generation of a theory (complete with a diagram and hypotheses) of actions, interactions, or processes through interrelating categories of information based on data collected from individuals.

Types of Grounded Theory Studies

The two popular approaches to grounded theory are the systematic procedures of Strauss and Corbin (1990, 1998) and the constructivist approach of Charmaz (2005, 2006). In the more systematic, the investigator

seeks to systematically develop a theory that explains process, action, or interaction on a topic. The researcher typically conducts 20 to 30 interviews based on several visits "to the field" to collect interview data to saturate the categories (or find information that continues to add to them until no more can be found). A category represents a unit of information composed of events, happenings, and instances (Strauss & Corbin, 1990).

The researcher begins with open coding, coding the data for its major categories of information. From this

coding, axial coding emerges in which the researcher identifies one open coding category to focus on (called the "core" phenomenon), and then goes back to the data and create categories around this core phenomenon. Strauss and Corbin (1990) prescribe the types of categories identified around the core phenomenon. They consist of causal conditions (what factors caused the core phenomenon), strategies (actions taken in response to the core phenomenon), contextual and intervening conditions (broad and specific situational factors that influence the strategies), and consequences (outcomes from using the strategies).

These categories relate to and surround the core phenomenon in a visual model called the axial coding paradigm. The final step, then, is selective coding, in which the researcher takes the model and develops propositions (or hypotheses) that interrelate the categories in the model or assembles a story that describes the interrelationship of categories in the model. This theory, developed by the researcher, is articulated toward the end of a study and can assume several forms, such as a narrative statement, a visual picture, or a series of hypotheses or propositions.

In the discussion of grounded theory, Strauss and Corbin (1998) take the model one step further to develop a conditional matrix. They advance the conditional matrix as a coding device to help the

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researcher make connections between the macro and the micro conditions influencing the phenomenon. This matrix is a set of expanding concentric circles with labels that build outward from the individual, group, and organization to the community, region, nation, and global world. In my experience, this matrix is seldom used in grounded theory research

Procedures for Conducting Grounded Theory Research

Strauss and Corbin (1990, 1998) approach to illustrate grounded theory procedures are illustrated here because their systematic approach is helpful to individuals learning about and applying grounded theory research.

• The researcher needs to begin by determining if grounded theory is best suited to study his or her research problem. Grounded theory is a good design to use when a theory is not available to explain a process. The literature may have models available, but they were developed and tested on samples and populations other than those of interest to the qualitative researcher. Also, theories may be present, but they are incomplete because they do not address potentially valuable variables of interest to the researcher.

• The research questions that the inquirer asks of participants will focus on understanding how• individuals experience the process and identifying the steps in the process (What was the process? How did it unfold?). After initially exploring these issues, the researcher then returns to the participants and asks more detailed questions that help to shape the axial coding phase, questions such as: What was central to the process? (The core phenomenon); what influenced or caused this phenomenon to occur? (Causal conditions); what

strategies were employed during the process? (Strategies); what effect occurred? (Consequences).

• These questions are typically asked in interviews, although other forms of data may also be collected, such as observations, documents, and audiovisual materials. The point is to gather enough information to fully develop (or saturate) the model. This may involve 20 to 30 interviews or 50 to 60 interviews.

• The analysis of the data proceeds in stages. In open coding, the researcher forms categories of information about the phenomenon being studied by segmenting information. Within each category, the investigator finds several properties, or subcategories, and looks for data to dimensionalize, or show the extreme possibilities on a continuum of, the property.

• In axial coding, the investigator assembles the data in new ways after open coding. This is presented using a coding paradigm or logic diagram (i.e., a visual model) in which the researcher identifies a central phenomenon (i.e., a central category about the phenomenon), explores causal conditions (i.e., categories of conditions that influence the phenomenon), specifies strategies (i.e., the actions or interactions that result from the central phenomenon), identifies the 'context and intervening conditions (i.e., the narrow and broad conditions that influence the strategies), and delineates the consequences (i.e., the outcomes of the strategies) for this phenomenon. • In selective coding, the researcher may write a ~'story line" that connects the categories. Alternatively, propositions or hypotheses may be specified that state predicted relationships.

• Finally, the researcher may develop and visually portray a conditional matrix that elucidates the social, historical, and economic conditions influencing the central phenomenon. It is an optional step and one in which the qualitative inquirer thinks about the model from the smallest to the broadest perspective.

• The result of this process of data collection and analysis is a theory, a substantive-level theory, written by a researcher close to a specific problem or population of people. The theory emerges with help from the process of memoing, a process in which the researcher writes down ideas about the evolving theory throughout the process of open, axial, and selective coding.

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Challenges:

A grounded theory study challenges researchers for the following reasons. The investigator needs to set aside, as much as possible, theoretical ideas or notions so that the analytic, substantive theory can emerge. Despite the evolving, inductive nature of this form of qualitative inquiry, the researcher must recognize that this is a systematic approach to research with specific steps in data analysis, if approached from the Strauss and Corbin (1990) perspective. The researcher faces the difficulty of determining when categories are saturated or when the theory is sufficiently detailed. One strategy that might be used to move toward saturation is to use discriminant sampling, in which the researchers gathered additional information from individuals similar to those people initially interviewed to determine if the theory holds true for these additional participants. The researcher needs to recognize that the primary outcome of this study is a theory with specific components: a central phenomenon, causal conditions, strategies, conditions and context, and consequences.

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Lesson 45

ETHNOGRAPHIC RESEARCH

Although a grounded theory researcher develops a theory from examining many individuals who share in the same process, action, or interaction, the study participants are not likely to be located in the same place or interacting on so frequent a basis that they develop shared patterns of behavior, beliefs, and language. An ethnographer is interested in examining these shared patterns, and the unit of analysis is larger than the 20 or so individuals involved in a grounded theory study.

Ethnography focuses on an entire cultural group. Granted, sometimes this cultural group may be small (a few teachers, a few social workers), but typically it is large, involving many people who interact over time (teachers in an entire school, a community social work group). Ethnography is a qualitative design in which the researcher describes and interprets the shared and learned patterns of values, behaviors, beliefs, and language of a culture-sharing group (Harris, 1968).

As both a process and an outcome of research (Agar, 1980), ethnography is a way of studying a culture- sharing group as well as the final, written product of that research. As a process, 'ethnography involves extended observations of the group, most often through participant observation, in which the researcher is immersed in the day-to-day lives of the people and observes and interviews the group participants. Ethnographers study the meaning of the behavior, the language, and the interaction among members of the culture-sharing group.

Types of Ethnographies

There are many forms of ethnography, such as a confessional ethnography, life history, auto-ethnography, feminist ethnography, ethnographic novels, and the visual ethnography found in photography and video, and electronic media. Two popular forms of ethnography will be emphasized here: the realist ethnography and the critical ethnography.

The realist ethnography is a traditional approach used by cultural anthropologists. It reflects a particular stance taken by the researcher toward the individuals being studied. Realist ethnography is an objective account of the situation, typically written in the third person point of view and reporting objectively on the information learned from participants at a site. The ethnographer remains in background as an omniscient reporter of the "facts." The realist also reports objective data in a measured style uncontaminated by personal bias, political goals, and judgment.

For many researchers, ethnography today employs a "critical" approach (Carspecken & Apple, 1992; Madison, 2005; Thomas, 1993) by including in the research an advocacy perspective. The critical ethnography is a type of ethnographic research in which the authors advocate for the emancipation of groups marginalized in society (Thomas, 1993). Critical researchers typically are politically minded individuals who seek, through their research, to speak out against inequality and domination (Carspecken

& Apple, 1992). For example, critical ethnographers might study schools that provide privileges to certain types of students, or counseling practices that serve to overlook the needs of underrepresented groups. A critical ethnographer will study issues of power, empowerment, inequality, inequity, dominance, repression, hegemony, and victimization.

Procedures for Conducting an Ethnography

As with all qualitative inquiry, there is no single way to conduct the research in ethnography. The approach taken here includes elements of both realist ethnography and critical approaches. The steps to conduct ethnography are as follows:

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- Determine if ethnography is the most appropriate design to use to study the research problem. Ethnography is appropriate if the needs are to describe how a cultural group works and to explore the beliefs, language, behaviors, and issues such as power, resistance, and dominance.

- Identify and locate a culture-sharing group to study. Typically, this group is one that has been together for an extended period of time, so that their shared language, patterns of behavior, and attitudes have merged into a discernable pattern. This may also be a group that has been marginalized by society. Because ethnographers spend time talking with and observing this group, access may require finding one or more individuals in the group who will allow the researcher in-a gatekeeper or key informants (or participants).

- Select cultural themes or issues to study about the group. This involves the analysis of the culture-sharing group. The themes may include such topics as enculturation, socialization, learning, cognition, domination, inequality, or child and adult development.

- To study cultural concepts, determine which type of ethnography to use. Perhaps how the group works needs to be described, or the critical ethnography may need to expose issues such as power, hegemony, and to advocate for certain groups. A critical ethnographer, for example, might address an inequity in society or some part of it, use the research to advocate and call for changes, and specify an issue to explore, such as inequality, dominance, oppression, or empowerment.

- Gather information where the group works and lives. This is called fieldwork. Gathering the types of information typically needed in an ethnography involves going to the research site, respecting the daily lives of individuals at the site, and collecting a wide variety of materials. Field issues of respect, reciprocity, deciding who owns the data, and others are central to ethnography. Organize types of ethnographic data into observations, tests and measures, surveys, content analysis, interviews, elicitation methods, audiovisual methods, spatial mapping, and network research.

- Forge a working set of rules or patterns as the final product of this analysis. The final product is a holistic cultural portrait of the group that incorporates the views of the participants (emic) as well as the views of the researcher (etic). It might also advocate for the needs of the group or suggest changes in society to address needs of the group.

Challenges

Ethnography is challenging to use for the following reasons. The researcher needs to have grounding in cultural anthropology and the meaning of a social-cultural system as well as the concepts typically explored by ethnographers. The time to collect data is extensive, involving prolonged time in the field. In many ethnographies, the narratives are written in a literary, almost storytelling approach, an approach that may limit the audience for the work and may be challenging for authors accustomed to traditional approaches to writing social and human science research. There is a possibility that the researcher will "go native" and be unable to complete the study or be compromised in the study. This is but one issue in the complex array of fieldwork issues facing ethnographers who venture into an unfamiliar cultural group or system. Sensitivity to the needs of individual studies is especially important, and the researcher needs to acknowledge his or her impact on the people and the places being studied.

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Lesson 46

CASE STUDY RESEARCH

The entire culture-sharing group in ethnography may be considered a case, but the intent in ethnography is to determine how the culture works rather than to understand an issue or problem using the case as a specific illustration.

Thus, case study research involves the study of an issue explored through one or more cases within a bounded system (i.e., a setting, a context). Although Stake (2005) states that case study research is not a methodology but a choice of what is to be studied (i.e., a case within a bounded system), others present it as a strategy of inquiry, a methodology, or a comprehensive research strategy. We choose to view it as a methodology, a type of design in qualitative research, or an object of study, as well as a product of the inquiry.

Case study research is a qualitative approach in which the investigator explores a bounded system (a case) or multiple bounded systems (cases) over time, through detailed, in-depth data collection involving multiple sources of information (e.g., observations, interviews, audiovisual material, and documents and reports), and reports a case description and case-based themes. For example, several programs (a multi-site study) or a single program (a within-site study) may be selected for study.

The case study approach is familiar to social scientists because of its popularity in psychology (Freud), medicine (case analysis of a problem), law (case law), and political science (case reports). Today, the case study writer has a large array of texts and approaches from which to choose. Yin (2003), for example, espouses both quantitative and qualitative approaches to case study development and discusses explanatory, exploratory, and descriptive qualitative case studies.

Types of Case Studies

Types of qualitative case studies are distinguished by the size of the bounded case, such as whether the case involves one individual, several individuals, a group, an entire program, or an activity. They may also be distinguished in terms of the intent of the case analysis. Three variations exist in terms of intent: the single instrumental case study, the collective or multiple case studies, and the intrinsic case study.

In a single instrumental case study (Stake, 1995), the researcher focuses on an issue or concern, and then selects one bounded case to illustrate this issue. In a collective case study (or multiple case study), the one issue or concern is again selected, but the inquirer selects multiple case studies to illustrate the issue. The researcher might select for study several programs from several research sites or multiple programs within a single site. Often the inquirer purposefully selects multiple cases to show different perspectives on the issue. Yin (2003) suggests that the multiple case study design uses the logic of replication, in which the inquirer replicates the procedures for each case. As a general rule, qualitative researchers are reluctant to generalize from one case to another because the contexts of cases differ. To best generalize, however, the inquirer needs to select representative cases for inclusion in the qualitative study. The final type of case study design is an intrinsic case study in which the focus is on the case itself (e.g., evaluating a program, or studying a student having difficulty) because the case presents an unusual or unique situation. This resembles the focus of narrative research, but the case study analytic procedures of a detailed description of the case, set within its context or surroundings, still hold true.

Procedures for Conducting a Case Study

Several procedures are available for conducting case studies. Following discussion will rely primarily on Stake's (1995) approach to conducting a case study.

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- First, researchers determine if a case study approach is appropriate to the research problem. A case study is a good approach when the inquirer has clearly identifiable cases with boundaries and seeks to provide an in-depth understanding of the cases or a comparison of several cases.

- Researchers next need to identify their case or cases. These cases may involve an individual, several individuals, a program, an event, or an activity. In conducting case study research, I recommend that investigators first consider what type of case study is most promising and useful. The case can be single or collective, multi-sited or within-site, focused on a case or on an issue (intrinsic, instrumental. In choosing which case to study, an array of possibilities for purposeful sampling is available.

- The data collection in case study research is typically extensive, drawing on multiple sources of information, such as observations, interviews, documents, and audiovisual materials. For example, Yin (2003) recommends six types of information to collect: documents, archival records, interviews, direct observations, participant-observations, and physical artifacts.

- The type of analysis of these data can be a holistic analysis of the entire case or an embedded analysis of a specific aspect of the case. Through this data collection, a detailed description of the case emerges in which the researcher details such aspects as the history of the case, the chronology of events, or a day-by- day rendering of the activities of the case. After this description, the researcher might focus on a few key issues (or analysis of themes), not for generalizing beyond the case, but for understanding the complexity of the case. One analytic strategy would be to identify issues within each case and then look for common themes that transcend the cases. This analysis is rich in the context of the case or setting in which the case presents itself. When multiple cases are chosen, a typical format is to first provide a detailed description of each case and themes within the case, called a within-case analysis, followed by a thematic analysis across the cases, called a cross-case analysis, as well as assertions or an interpretation of the meaning of the case.

- In the final interpretive phase, the researcher reports the meaning of the case, whether that meaning comes from learning about the issue of the case (an instrumental case) or learning about an unusual situation (an intrinsic case).

Challenges

One of the challenges inherent in qualitative case study development is that the researcher must identify his or her case. The case study researcher must decide which bounded system to study, recognizing that several might be possible candidates for this selection and realizing that either the case itself or an issue, which a case or cases are selected to illustrate, is worthy of study.

The researcher must consider whether to study a single case or multiple cases. The study of more than one case dilutes the overall analysis; the more cases an individual study, the less the depth in any single case. When a researcher chooses multiple cases, the issue becomes, "How many cases?" There is not a set number of cases. Typically, however, the researcher chooses no more than four or five cases. What motivates the researcher to consider a large number of cases is the idea of "generalizability," a term that holds little meaning for most qualitative researchers.

Selecting the case requires that the researcher establish a rationale for his or her purposeful sampling strategy for selecting the case and for gathering information about the case. Having enough information to present an in-depth picture of the case limits the value of some case studies. Some case studies may not have clean beginning and ending points, and the researcher will need to set boundaries that adequately surround the case.

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Lesson 47

THE FIVE APPROACHES COMPARED

All five approaches have in common the general process of research that begins with research problem and proceeds to the questions, the data, the data analysis, and the research report. They also employ similar data collection processes, including, in varying degrees, interviews, observations, documents, and audiovisual materials. Also, a couple of potential similarities among the designs should be noted.

Narrative research, ethnography, and case study research may seem similar when the unit of analysis is a single individual. True, one may approach the study of a single individual from any of these three approaches; however, the types of data one would collect and analyze would differ considerably. In narrative research, the inquirer focuses on the stories told from the individual and arranges these stories in chronological order. In ethnography, the focus is on setting the individuals' stories within the context of their culture• and culture-sharing group; in case study research, the single case is typically selected to illustrate an issue, and the researcher compiles a detailed description of the setting for the case. As Yin (2003) comments, "You would use the case study method because you deliberately wanted to cover contextual conditions-believing that they might be highly pertinent to your phenomenon of study".

If the researcher wants to study a single individual, the narrative approach or a single case study because ethnography is a much broader picture of the culture. When comparing a narrative study and a single case to study a single individual, the narrative approach is seen as more scholarly because narrative studies tend to focus on single individual; whereas, case studies often involve more than one case.

From these sketches of the five approaches, we can identify fundamental differences among these types of qualitative research.

Characteristics	*Narrative Research*	*Phenomenology*	*Grounded Theory*	*Ethnography*	*Case Study*
Focus	Exploring the life of an individual	Understanding the essence of the experience	Developing a theory grounded in data from the field	Describing and interpreting a culture-sharing group	Developing an in-depth description and analysis of a case or multiple cases
Type of Problem Best Suited for Design	Needing to tell stories of individual experiences	Needing to describe the essence of a lived phenomenon	Grounding a theory in the views of participants	Describing and interpreting the shared patterns of culture of a group	Providing an in-depth understanding of a case or cases
Discipline Background	Drawing from the humanities including anthropology, literature, history, psychology, and sociology	Drawing from philosophy, psychology, and education	Drawing from sociology	Drawing from anthropology and sociology	Drawing from psychology, law, political science, medicine
Unit of Analysis	Studying one or more individuals	Studying several individuals that have shared the experience	Studying a process, action, or interaction involving many individuals	Studying a group that shares the same culture	Studying an event, a program, an activity, more than one individual

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Data Collection Forms	Using primarily interviews and documents	Using primarily interviews with individuals, although documents, observations, and art may also be considered	Using primarily interviews with 20–60 individuals	Using primarily observations and interviews, but perhaps collecting other sources during extended time in field	Using multiple sources, such as interviews, observations, documents, artifacts
Data Analysis Strategies	Analyzing data for stories, "restorying" stories, developing themes, often using a chronology	Analyzing data for significant statements, meaning units, textural and structural description, description of the "essence"	Analyzing data through open coding, axial coding, selective coding	Analyzing data through description of the culture-sharing group; themes about the group	Analyzing data through description of the case and themes of the case as well as cross-case themes
Written Report	Developing a narrative about the stories of an individual's life	Describing the "essence" of the experience	Generating a theory illustrated in a figure	Describing how a culture-sharing group works	Developing a detailed analysis of one or more cases
General Structure of Study	• Introduction (problem, questions) • Research procedures (a narrative, significance of individual, data collection, analysis outcomes) • Report of stories • Individuals theorize about their lives • Narrative segments identified • Patterns of meaning identified (events, processes, epiphanies, themes) • Summary (Adapted from Denzin, 1989a, 1989b)	• Introduction (problem, questions) • Research procedures (a phenomenology and philosophical assumptions, data collection, analysis, outcomes) • Significant statements • Meanings of statements • Themes of meanings • Exhaustive description of phenomenon (Adapted from Moustakas, 1994)	• Introduction (problem, questions) • Research procedures (grounded theory, data collection, analysis, outcomes) • Open coding • Axial coding • Selective coding and theoretical propositions and models • Discussion of theory and contrasts with extant literature (Adapted from Strauss & Corbin, 1990)	• Introduction (problem, questions) • Research procedures (ethnography, data collection, analysis, outcomes) • Description of culture • Analysis of cultural themes • Interpretation, lessons learned, questions raised (Adapted from Wolcott, 1994b)	• Entry vignette • Introduction (problem, questions, case study, data collection, analysis, outcomes) • Description of the case/cases and its/their context • Development of issues • Detail about selected issues • Assertions • Closing vignette (Adapted from Stake, 1995)

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Lesson 48

DATA-COLLECTION IN QUALITATIVE RESEARCH

This lesson is about methods and techniques in data-collection during a qualitative research. The choice of techniques is dependent on the needs of the research. Although this should be true for almost all social research, it is particularly so with qualitative research in that the appropriate method or techniques is often identified and adopted during the research. Qualitative research is also multi-model. The researcher may adopt a variety of research techniques, or a combination of such, as long as they are justified by the needs. The discussion below is therefore not to identify a set of techniques unique to qualitative research, but rather, to introduce the methods and techniques most commonly used in qualitative research, and the issues related to such use.

We shall introduce three broad categories of methods and techniques which are mostly used in qualitative research: observations, interviews and study of documents.

Observations

Observation usually means the researcher's act to find out what people do (Bernard, 1988:62). It is different from other methods in that data occur not necessarily in response to the researcher's stimulus.

Observation may be obtrusive or unobtrusive. A researcher may simply sit in the corner of a school playground and observe how students behave during breaks. He may also stand by the school gate and observe how students behave at the school gate. Such cases of observation may be seen as unobtrusive. In other cases, the researchers may not apply any stimuli, but their presence per se may have some influence on the scene. The most common example in this category is classroom observation. Although the researcher may just sit quietly at the corner of a classroom, the presence of the researcher may change the classroom climate. It is, nonetheless, still observation.

Observation is a basic technique used in almost all qualitative research. Even if other methods or techniques are used, the researcher remains the most essential "sensor" or "instrument" and hence observation always counts (McCracken, 1988:18-20). For example, when interviewing is used, a qualitative researcher also takes into account the tonic or facial expressions of the informant, because they help interpret the verbal responses. Such expressions are only sensed by observation. If the interview is done in the field, then the surroundings of the interview site also provide meaningful data for the research. The surroundings can only be depicted through observation. Hence observation is indispensable in almost all occasions of qualitative research.

Participant Observation

Participant observation is perhaps the most typical of qualitative research. Some authors even use participant observation as a synonym for ethnographic research. Different writers may have slightly different definitions of participant observation. The following description by Fetterman is perhaps the most agreeable to most researchers.

Participant observation is immersion in a culture. Ideally, the ethnographer lives and works in the community for six months to a year or more, learning the language and seeing patterns of behavior over time. Long-term residence helps the researcher internalize the basic beliefs, fears, hopes and expectations of the people under study. (1989:45)

Nonparticipant Observation

Strictly speaking, nonparticipant observation involves merely watching what is happening and recording events on the spot. In the qualitative orientation, because of the non-intervention principle, strict nonparticipant observation should involve no interaction between the observer and the observed.

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Goetz and LeCompte assert that in the strict sense "nonparticipant observation exists only where interactions are viewed through hidden camera and recorder or through one-way mirror" (1984: 143).

Interviewing

Interviewing is widely used in qualitative research. Compared with observation, it is more economical in time, but may achieve less in understanding the culture. The economy in time, however, makes ethnographic interviewing almost the most widely used technique in policy-related research.

Interviewing is trying to understand what people think through their speech. There are different types of interviews, often classified by the degrees of control over the interview. Along this line, we shall briefly introduce three types of interviewing: informal interviewing, unstructured interviewing, semi-structured interviewing, and formally structured interviewing.

Informal Interviewing

Informal interviewing entails no control. It is usually conversations that the researcher recalls after staying in the field. It is different from "observation" in that it is interactive. That is, the informant speaks to the researcher.

Unstructured Interviewing

Unstructured interviewing applies minimum control over the informant and the responses. Unstructured interviewing is formal interviewing. There is no disguise that the occasion is just a friendly chat. Hence, there is always a question to answer, or a topic to discuss. However, the informants have the liberty to choose their own scope, depth, emphases, length and pace of the response. At times, the informant may even choose to deviate from the original question or topic.

Semi-structured Interviewing

Semi-structured interviewing is interviewing with an interview guide (Bernard, 1988:205). Semi-structured interviewing follows all the principles of unstructured interviewing, except that the informants are not expected to move too far beyond the scope d

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